

SECOND TRACK DIPLOMACY EFFORTS TO MITIGATE CONFLICTS
BETWEEN TURKS AND GREEKS, TURKISH CYPRIOTS AND GREEK
CYPRIOTS, AND TURKS AND ARMENIANS

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Abstract

For over one decade the international community is witnessing fundamental alterations in the violent conflict map of the world while the role of states and non-state actors keep on continuously transforming in a parallel process. Non-governmental, non-state and civil society organisations and private individuals have more involvement in attempts of nonviolent action, peace-building, conflict resolution and reconciliation. Thereby the research clearly aims to assess the effectiveness of unofficial diplomacy work conducted by civic organisations and individuals to mitigate conflict between Turks and Greeks, Turkish Cypriots and Greek Cypriots, and Turks and Armenians. The research tries to reach this aim by giving a general review of non-governmental contributions to peace work—termed as second track diplomacy—where theoretical framework is strengthened by concrete cases. The work contains a brief introduction on three conflict cases in order to make the reader acquainted with the issues relating to second track activities. To execute the assessment, three unofficial diplomacy structures—one women’s peace initiative, one interactive problem-solving workshop initiative and one business oriented peace initiative—for each of the conflict cases have been highlighted. The in-depth analysis and evaluation of nine different second track diplomacy cases is elaborated by using a number of criteria. Yet, the assessment highlights similarities and differences of these cases in a number of layers. The author wishes to have made a contribution to the work of systematic compilation of experiences in unofficial peace activism with the hope that others can learn from these experiences, and more and more people and organisations become acquainted and engaged in nonviolent peace action.

Özet

Uluslararası toplum, on yılı aşkın bir süredir dünyanın sıcak çatışma haritası üzerindeki temel değişimlere tanıklık etmektedir. Diğer yandan devletlerin ve devlet dışı aktörlerin rolleri paralel bir süreç içinde sürekli dönüşüme uğramaktadır. Şiddetsiz eylem, barışın inşası, çatışma çözme ve uzlaşma çabalarında hükümet dışı ve devlet dışı örgütler, sivil toplum kuruluşları ve bireyler artık daha çok alakadar ve katılımcı olmaktadır. Bu kapsamda bu araştırma Türkler ve Yunanlılar, Kıbrıslı Türkler ve Kıbrıslı Rumlar, ve Türkler ve Ermeniler arasındaki çatışmanın hafifletilmesi için sivil örgütler tarafından yürütülen gayri resmi diplomasi çalışmalarının etkinliğini değerlendirmeyi amaçlamaktadır. Araştırma bu amaca ulaşmak için ikinci kanal diplomasi olarak adlandırılan hükümet dışı kanallar vasıtasıyla yürütülen barış çalışmaları üzerine genel bir inceleme sunmaktadır. Diğer yandan teorik çerçeve somut örneklerle güçlendirilmektedir. Çalışma, ikinci kanal diplomasi etkinliklerini ilgilendiren konular hakkında okuyucuyu bilgilendirmek üzere yukarıda adı geçen üç çatışma vakası üzerine kısa bir özet içermektedir. Değerlendirmeyi yapmak için her bir çatışma vakası için üç farklı sivil diplomasi yapısı—bir kadın barış girişimi, bir etkileşimli problem çözme forumu ve bir ticari barış girişimi—ele alınmıştır. Dokuz farklı ikinci kanal diplomasi vakasının derinlemesine analizi ve değerlendirmesini yapmak üzere bir dizi kriter kullanılmıştır. Değerlendirme bununla birlikte vakalar arasındaki farklar ve benzerlikleri farklı düzlemlerde incelemektedir. Yazar sivil barış aktivizmi alanında edinilen tecrübelerin sistemli bir şekilde derlenmesi çalışmasına bir katkıda bulunmuş olmayı, başkalarının bu tecrübelerden faydalanmasını, daha çok kişi ve kuruluşun şiddet içermeyen barış eylemi hakkında bilgi sahibi olması ve bu alana katkı sağlamasını ümit etmektedir.

“To All Women Peacemakers”

Table of Contents

List of Tables	viii
List of Figures	viii
List of Abbreviations	ix
1. Introduction	1
2. Theoretical Framework	9
2.1. Common Terms on Violence and Conflict	9
2.2. The Field of Peace and Conflict Resolution	16
2.3. Nonviolent Action	20
2.4. Non-governmental Organisations and Their Function in Conflict Resolution Work	21
2.5. Second Track Diplomacy as a Field	24
2.6. Interactive Problem-Solving Approach as a Tool for Unofficial Diplomacy.....	32
2.7. Psychopolitical Approaches in Conflict Resolution.....	38
2.8. The Role of Women in Conflict Resolution	40
2.9. Multi Track Diplomacy as a Tool for Peacemaking and Conflict Resolution.....	43
2.10. Two Concrete Examples of Track Two Diplomacy Efforts	51
2.10.1. Protracted Burundian Conflict	51
2.10.2. Northern Ireland Conflict	52
2.11. The Problems and Needs of the Field Track Two Diplomacy	57
3. Background Information on Chosen Conflicts	57
3.1. Conflict between Turkey and Greece	56
3.2. Cyprus Conflict	62
3.3. Conflict between Turkey and Armenia	70
4. Second Track Diplomacy Efforts	75

4.1. Women's Peace Initiative (WINPEACE)	75
4.2. Hands Across the Divide (HAD)	80
4.3. Rapprochement Activities Led by Turkish and Armenian Women	85
4.4. Greek Turkish Forum (GTF)	87
4.5. Cyprus Consortium and Subsequent Bi-communal Activities	92
4.6. Turkish-Armenian Reconciliation Commission (TARC)	97
4.7. Turkish-Greek Business Council (TGBC)	102
4.8. Reconciliation Activities Initiated by Cypriot Business Communities	106
4.9. Turkish-Armenian Business Development Council (TABDC)	110
5. An Overall Assessment of the Selected Unofficial Diplomacy Activities	113
5.1. General Assessment of Unofficial Diplomacy Initiatives on Turkish-Greek Conflict	114
5.2. General Assessment of Unofficial Diplomacy Initiatives on Cyprus Conflict.....	116
5.3. General Assessment of Unofficial Diplomacy Initiatives on Turkish- Armenian Conflict	118
5.4. Overall Assessment of Second Track Diplomacy Cases Outlined in the Thesis	119
6. Conclusion.....	139
References	143

List of Tables

Table 1.	Past and Present Examples of Unofficial Diplomacy Initiatives and Activities for Turkish-Greek Rapprochement	115
Table 2.	Past and Present Examples of Unofficial Diplomacy Initiatives and Activities for Turkish Cypriot-Greek Cypriot Rapprochement	116
Table 3.	Past and Present Examples of Unofficial Diplomacy Initiatives and Activities for Turkish-Armenian Rapprochement	119
Table 4.	SWOT Analyses of the Chosen Unofficial Diplomacy Structures and Activities.....	122

List of Figures

Figure 1.	Global Trends in Violent Conflict, 1946-2002	3
Figure 2.	Actors and Approaches to Peace-building	30

List of Abbreviations

AMIDEAST	America-Mideast Educational and Training Services, Inc.
ANC	African National Congress
AR	Armenian
ARF	Armenian Revolutionary Federation
AU-CGP	Centre for Global Peace of the American University
BSC	Bi-Communal Conflict Resolution Committee
BSEC	Black Sea Economic Cooperation
CAM	Crisis avoidance measure
CBM	Confidence building measure
CC and following	Cyprus Consortium and subsequent bi-communal activities
CCCI	Cyprus Chamber of Commerce and Industry
CDRSEE	Center for Democracy and Reconciliation in Southeast Europe
CFD	Christlicher Friedendienst
CMG	Conflict Management Group
CSW	Commission on the Status of Women
DEİK	Foreign Economic Relations Board
ECCG	European Centre for Common Ground
ECOSOC	United Nations Economic and Social Council
ELIAMEP	Hellenic Foundation for European and Foreign Policy
EOKA	National Organization of Cypriot Fighters
EU	European Union
Eurasia	Eurasia Cultural and Social Development Association
FGI	Federation of Greek Industrialists
FRAT	Armenian Turkish Rapprochement Forum
GC	Greek Cypriot
GR	Greek
GTF	Greek Turkish Forum
HAD	Hands Across the Divide
ICC	International Criminal Court
ICG	International Crisis Group
ICJ	International Court of Justice
ICTJ	International Center for Transitional Justice
IFOR	International Fellowship of Reconciliation
IMTD	Institute for Multi-Track Diplomacy
INCORE	Initiative on Conflict Resolution and Ethnicity
INGO	International non-governmental organisation
İŞAD	TRNC Businessmen Association
KARSİAD	Association of the Industrialists and the Businessmen in Kars
LMV	Lausanne Treaty Emigrants Foundation

Marmara Group	Marmara Group Strategic and Social Research Foundation
NGO	Non-governmental organisation
NTL	National Training Laboratories
OEB	Cyprus Employers and Industrialists Federation
PAG	Political Analysis Group
Partners	Partners for Democratic Change
POST	Project Oriented Searching Team
PRIO	International Peace Research Institute of Oslo
RUSI	Royal United Services Institute
SCG	Search for Common Ground
SECI	Southeast European Cooperative Initiative
SIPRI	Stockholm International Peace Research Institute
SME	Small and medium size enterprise
STGP	Civil Society Development Program
SWOT	Strengths, weaknesses, opportunities and threats
TABDC	Turkish-Armenian Business Development Council
TARC	Turkish-Armenian Reconciliation Commission
TAYWG	Turkish Armenian Young Women's Group
TC	Turkish Cypriot
TCCC	Turkish Cypriot Chamber of Commerce
TC-GC business	Reconciliation activities initiated by Cypriot business communities
TDN	Turkish Daily News
TESEV	Turkish Economic and Social Studies Foundation
TFP	Technology for Peace
TGBC	Turkish-Greek Business Council
TMT	Turkish Defence Organisation
TR	Turkish
Trainer Group	Conflict Resolution Trainer Group
TR-AR women	Rapprochement activities led by Turkish and Armenian women
TRNC	Turkish Republic of Northern Cyprus
TUREB	Turkish Tourist Guide Associations
TurGreSoc	Turkish-Greek Student Society
TÜSİAD	Turkish Industrialists' and Businessmen's Association
TYDD	Turkey-Greece Friendship Association
UN	United Nations
UNDP	United Nations Development Programme
UNFICYP	United Nations Peacekeeping Force in Cyprus
UNOPS	United Nations Office for Project Services
UNSC	United Nations Security Council
US	United States
USAID	US Agency for International Development
VAT	Vienna Armenian-Turkish Platform
WINPEACE	Women's Peace Initiative
Y2P	Youth Promoting Peace

1. Introduction

“...when we do peace studies one of the first tasks is our liberation from forms of academic cultural violence that becomes more, not less, violent by having survived too long. And the next task is not to become a prisoner of those who present themselves as liberators—including the present author” (Galtung, 1996: viii).

Having entered into a new century, the world is home to structural changes in government- civil society and civil society- society relations. The end of the Cold War era has engendered serious alterations in intrastate as well as interstate economic, political, social and cultural relations. The start of the post Cold War era has begot changes in the violent conflict map of the world as well. With the inauguration of this new era the number of international wars has decreased dramatically. According to William I. Zartman, Cold War’s passing has opened the era of conflicts of many types, where many of them “arose over the inheritance of a former communist-supported domestic order” and some “arose from deep-rooted antagonisms that had laid dormant or been held in check” (1997: 4).

This fact has instigated many scholars to make the assessment that the number of intrastate violent conflicts has increased dramatically, since the end of the Cold War. Though Ted Robert Gurr and Barbara Harff argue the escalation of ethnic conflicts since the end of the Cold War is the continuation of a course that began as early as the 1960s; in other words: the increase in ethnic conflicts in the 1990s was not supposed to be entirely linked with the end of the Cold War. It is undeniable that that the collapse of the Soviet Union and change of power position in the state system have speeded up the process for ethnic groups to aspire to their interests. The expansion of the international news media has brought about ethnic issues to be in the public eye; as a result it has started to raise public awareness on the grave human consequences of these conflicts and related human rights

abuses (1994). One other inheritance from the Cold War is the abundance of arms that have been transferred into areas where there is high potential of violent conflict. While atrocities are committed using even the most primitive arms, the widespread access to modern weapons has caused many people become mass murderers (Zartman, 1997). Mass violence is now conducted “not so much by states against each other as by more amorphous groups whose members are contesting the states and borders that contain them” (Rasmussen, 1997: 30).

In the recently released second bi-annual global survey of armed conflicts, Monty G. Marshall and Gurr make the general assessment that civil wars that expanded during the Cold War seem to have been vanished in the new millennium. As seen on Figure 1, by the end of 2002, global warfare has reduced to its lowest level since the early 1960s¹. In addition, international crises reduced in number and intensity in 1990s, where many of them were kept under control by diplomatic measures (2003). On the other hand, Zartman does not outline a positive picture of the Post Cold-War era, since he strongly argues the international response to violent conflicts has been very weak and world’s political leaders have been hesitant for mediation and direct involvement (1997).

Furthering their assessment, Marshall and Gurr state that positive trends of this new era were not capable of reaching and upholding everyone equally. They assert that “resistance to the West’s ascendancy, the rise of global terrorism, the proliferation of weapons of mass destruction, and decisions to counter these threats by unilateral and military means threaten to reverse many of the gains of the 1990s” (2003: 50)². The third bi-annual global survey on armed conflicts expected in 2005 will certainly reflect a deviation in the data due to US’s invasion of Iraq and interrelated grave human rights abuses in the Middle East.

¹ Only countries with at least 500.000 populations in 2002 are included in this study.

² For obtaining information on most recent studies on global violent conflicts please see the web site of the Center for International Development and Conflict Management at www.cidcm.umd.edu.

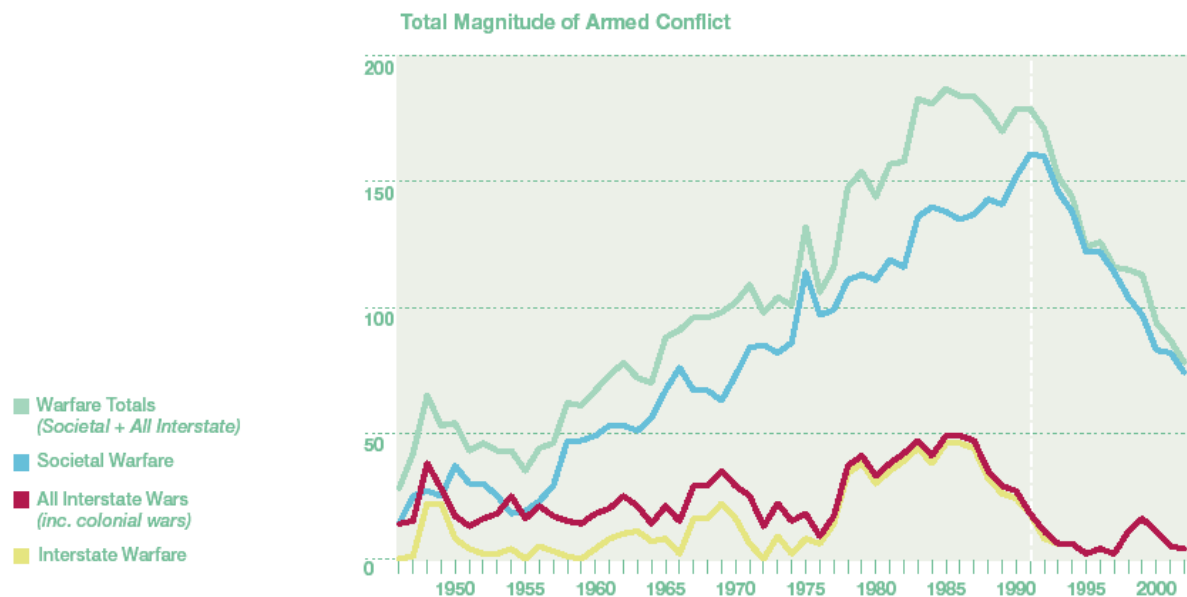


Figure 1. Global Trends in Violent Conflict, 1946-2002

Source: Marshall and Gurr, 2003: 12

There have been obviously few signs of interest shown by world's leaders in handling conflicts of the new era. This inaction caused the fierce reaction of the world society who felt obliged to resolve conflicts because of reasons related with morality and interest. Non-governmental organisations (NGO) are engaged in conflict resolution work in a variety of positions using means that totally exclude negative pressure.

In the United Nations (UN) conferences held at various times starting from 1975 on issues of women, development and environment, NGOs' participation grew enormously. As a response, the world governments started changing their attitudes towards NGOs. The non-state actors were supportive to governments in accomplishing the recommendations highlighted at these conferences. Nevertheless, this gradual trust building between NGOs and the governments has led to attitude change of the UN Security Council (UNSC) in the issue of conflict resolution. A remarkable example is the invitation of representatives from CARE, *Médecins Sans Frontières* (Doctors without Borders) and OXFAM by UNSC members for a brief on the situation Great Lakes region of East Africa (McDonald, 2003;

2004). The UN conferences provide the NGOs the opportunity to lobby for their cause as a community. On the other hand, there is only little proof that consultations of bodies like the UNSC with non-state organisations make a difference in decision making, thus state bodies never complain to leverage their public image with such symbolic consultations (Schnabel, 2004). Another fact is that the informal mediation activities conducted by NGOs or private individuals are not reported in the news (Bercovitch, 1997).

In the last decade, there have been several other efforts made by the UN to execute programs for nonviolent conflict transformation as well as to incorporate the civil society in these processes. The UN has proclaimed the period 2001-2010 as the ‘International Decade for a Culture of Peace and Non-violence for the Children of the World’³. In October 2000, UNSC unanimously passed the Resolution 1325 on Women, Peace and Security. Through this resolution the Security Council has recognized that “gender perspectives and the special needs of women and girls must be incorporated in conflict management and peace-building at all levels” (CFD, 2003). Hence, the Commission on the Status of Women (CSW) emphasised when peace agreements have been concluded, the implementation must be “pursued with explicit attention to women’s full and equal participation and the goal of gender equality” (2004). The UN General Assembly having adopted the resolution on the prevention of armed conflict acknowledged the collaborative role of civil society in the prevention of armed conflict. The UN conference on the “Role of Civil Society in Conflict Prevention” to be held in July 2005 will explore the future role of the civil society in conflict prevention and it will define concrete ways to establish links between civil society activities in preventing violent conflict and the work of governments and the UN. The conference will also investigate the results and experience of the civil

³ A/RES/53/25

society work in this area and propose modifications in the civil society work (Kavan, 2003).

Moving further on the subject of non-state contributions in conflict resolution processes, Kai Frithjof Brand-Jacobsen, the co-director of TRANSCEND⁴, divides peace movements into three generations. The first generation emerging mid-nineteenth century and continuing today had led to interstate mechanisms to resolve conflicts. The first and second Hague Appeal for Peace are part of this generation. The second generation starting around the same period is managed by citizens who argued peace is too important to leave merely to the responsibility of governments. Peace and civil rights movements and the third Hague Appeal for Peace belong to this generation. The third generation starting over the last ten years claims that peace is too important to entrust to superficial approaches. It says, peace must be prepared for, studied, learned, created and built and it should address the root causes of conflicts (2004). Paul Van Tongeren, the executive director of the European Centre for Conflict Prevention, puts forth the first Hague International Peace Conference held in 1899 was not ripe for the approach that pools strengths, shares burdens and divides labour among actors for the prevention of deadly conflicts. In the current era, foreign policy is no longer in the control of a small group of statesmen conducting policies of which the citizens remain uninformed (1999). Moreover, the system of sovereign states is not structured to handle most international and intrastate identity based conflicts.

Inevitably, over the past fifteen years the number of people and organisations involved in peace-building in ethnic and civil conflicts has been increased immensely. The contribution of non-state actors to resolve conflicts all around the world can no longer be ignored, as stated by Van Tongeren. In his introductory article in *People Building Peace: 35 Inspiring Stories from Around the World* he envisages to spread the hope that the

⁴ Romania based global peace and development organization.

second half of the twentieth century full of armed conflicts has offered the necessary conditions for peace-building in the twenty-first century (1999). It is undeniable that the potential power of non-state actors, the civil society and the NGOs is significant, though there are some controversies in this issue. Since the new atmosphere provides a new web of relations where non-state actors implement programs to mitigate conflicts in geographies dominated by armed conflict, it must be clear for governments to acknowledge this shift in responsibility and power. Since violent conflicts occur in reaction to needs based on identity, survival, security and well-being, non-state actors as third parties are needed in the field to act as intermediaries to stop violence and make the necessary interventions to transform the disturbed relations.

Even when we talk about interstate conflicts, the role of non-state communities in those conflicts play a crucial role. As a consequence, intrastate communities act as conflict actors, where their needs and positions need to be taken into consideration. These marginalized and threatened communities' needs cannot be responded in the current system of diplomacy that has been designed almost to focus on the interest of states. When people's well-being is threatened by the state, the current state system blocks itself to serve the interests of the communities that are mobilised around shared culture, religion, ethnicity, language etc. In response to these conditions, second track diplomacy has developed in order to understand the dynamics of conflicts and find ways to transform violence to a peace process led by unofficial people or bodies. Since ongoing wars cause civilian casualties as the major target—an estimated 80 percent—and cause many people become displaced or live in severe conditions as refugees, the challenge is to strengthen the international consensus to manage conflicts based on respect for human needs (Davies and Kaufman, 2002).

It has been proposed by peace researchers and peace activists that there should be a systematic compilation of stories and experiences in nonviolent action gathered from all around the world. These stories should not only cover what has been done, but also reflect how the process has been conducted and how others can learn from these experiences (Brand-Jacobsen, 2004). With the hope of making a humble contribution to this ambitious goal, the thesis aims at making an assessment of second track diplomacy initiations on Turkish-Greek, Turkish-Armenian, and Turkish Cypriot- Greek Cypriot relations, first by outlining the theoretical framework of second track diplomacy and second researching and making an in depth analysis on the highlighted conflict resolution activities undertaken by unofficial bodies. The thesis has three focal points: first the theory of conflict resolution and peacemaking, second track two diplomacy that refer to civic initiatives taking the lead to mitigate conflicts and third non-official diplomacy cases that envision to ease the tension between Turks and Greeks, Turkish Cypriot and Greek Cypriots, and Turks and Armenians at the political and societal level. There are many thematic layers that inevitably involve the realm of the thesis, these are: the root causes of conflicts of the selected cases, the current state of relations with needs and positions of both sides i.e. Turks and Greeks, Turkish Cypriots and Greek Cypriots and Turks and Armenians, and the role played by NGOs in this new era.

In Chapter 2 an overall and to the depth research will be illuminated on various approaches in conflict resolution, peacemaking and second track diplomacy theories. These concepts will be followed by theories and praxis in second track diplomacy, the area that the thesis directly involved with. Various concepts concerning peace, violence, conflict and conflict resolution will be defined. In order to clarify the meaning of violence and peace, the concepts of direct, structural and cultural violence, as well as negative and positive peace will be defined for categorisation. So as to comprehend conflict resolution, all its

functions and different stages will be explained in detail. This chapter will delve into the field of second track diplomacy by looking into its application, function and effectiveness conducted by many scholars and practitioners in conflict situations. For classifying second track diplomacy activities, the concept of multi track diplomacy will serve for further categorisation.

In Chapter 3, the thesis will provide some background information on conflicts between Turks and Greeks, Turkish Cypriots and Greek Cypriots, and Turks and Armenians. This general description will address the needs and positions of parties in conflict so as to assist the reader in understanding the conditions that second track diplomacy efforts are faced with. Since the main focus of the thesis is not the conflict and their analysis, only a short historical background on the chosen conflicts will be provided, which might provide a minimum basis for understanding and analysing unofficial diplomacy initiatives.

Chapter 4 elucidates three particular types of second track diplomacy organisations for each of the three conflict cases. Women's peace initiatives, problem-solving workshops also named as interactive conflict resolution efforts and business initiatives with notable experience in rapprochement will be highlighted for furthering the analysis of civic diplomacy efforts. Before furthering the analysis of these nine different initiatives, an overview on second track diplomacy efforts will be explained with its historical background, accomplishments and current status. The initiations that are stressed in the thesis structure are Women's Peace Initiative (WINPEACE), Hands Across the Divide (HAD), Rapprochement activities led by Turkish and Armenian women, Greek Turkish Forum (GTF), Cyprus Consortium and subsequent bi-communal activities, Turkish-Armenian Reconciliation Commission (TARC), Turkish-Greek Business Council (TGBC),

Reconciliation activities initiated by Cypriot business communities and Turkish-Armenian Business Development Council (TABDC).

With the light of previous chapters, Chapter 5 will have a glance on the effectiveness of the chosen second track diplomacy cases and it will make an overall assessment of these highlighted cases. The assessment will be illustrated with a number of criteria.

It should be noted that the aim of this thesis is neither to explore the role of NGOs in the society, nor to describe various stages of conflict formation and conflict resolution and nor to make an in depth analysis of the chosen conflicts and make propositions for normalisation of relations. As mentioned earlier, the thesis aims to assess the work of unofficial diplomacy initiatives that work to contribute to the mitigation of chosen conflicts.

2. Theoretical Framework

“We were seated in a small room, about fourteen of us. Some were under the bunks that lined three walls, some on the top beds with their feet dangling. It was our second, maybe third visit to the room. I remembered our first visit for the defining question that faced our little envoy of mediators and peaceniks. ‘Before you start,’ they had said, ‘we just want to know one thing. What makes you think that violence doesn’t work?’” (Lederach, 1999: 27)⁵

2.1. Common Terms on Violence and Conflict

Conflict can be defined as the pursuit of incompatible goals set by different groups or people. Conflict is a fact that can be experienced at all levels of human activity from the intra-personal to the inter-personal, from intrastate to the interstate level. Edward Azar

⁵ Referring to meetings held with people at Maze Prison in Northern Ireland.

states “[p]erception of mutually incompatible goals among communities with limited coordinating or mediating mechanisms gives birth to conflict” (Azar, 2002: 16). J. Lewis Rasmussen defines conflict as “escalated competition at any system level between groups whose aim is to gain advantage in the area of power, resources, interests, values, or needs” (1997:32, quoting Laue, 1991). *Dispute* refers to competition over issues that are negotiable and include elements of compromise whereas conflict refers to issues that are involved with deep-rooted human needs (Kriesberg, 1997).

Though regarded as a negative interaction, conflict does not have to be understood always in a fully negative framework. Conflict is a permanent feature of social and political life that can lead to beneficial change. Conflict can be comprehended as a socially constructed fact that often occurs for good reason. When managed in the proper way social conflict is a motivating factor for constructive adaptation and development, which is a mandatory condition for sustainable peace (Zartman, 1997; Davies and Kaufman, 2002). Johan Galtung argues that conflict can also lead to constructive behaviours, meaning dialogue with others about the problems. Constructive and destructive behaviour can live at the same time, even in the same person. He formulates the concept of conflict as the combination of attitudes/ assumptions, behaviour and contradiction (1996).

Raymond Shonholtz in his article on interethnic conflict in Central and Eastern Europe explains that in the West conflict is taken as a constructive engine for social change. During the old Communist regime, conflict was perceived in the framework of class struggle; hence conflict was equated with deviant behaviour or political discord that has only one winner and many losers. He adds that new democracies in Central and Eastern Europe and the republics of the former Soviet Union lack the foundations to accept and manage conflict. Under the old regimes, prohibition of expressing differences caused ethnic and national minorities to get suppressed (1998).

Speaking of various forms of conflict; *armed conflict* represents circumstances where conflict parties resort to the use of force. The definition of armed conflict is very broad since it covers situations ranging from an attack on a civilian by a soldier to massive casualties. *Violent or deadly conflict* though similar to armed conflict is significant with its characteristic of one-sided violence such as genocide against unarmed civilians (TCC, 2002).

Speaking of definitions of other forms of conflict, as a scholar-practitioner who has initiated six conflict resolution centres around the world, John Burton asserts that *deep-rooted conflict* occurs with authorities, between authorities and among people within societies. Deep-rooted conflict is involved with cases that emerge from unacceptable demands on people that are probably beyond human tolerance. Burton defines the symptoms of deep-rooted conflict as “hostage taking, illegal strikes, public protest movements, ethnic violence, terrorism, gang warfare” and other forms of unyielding opposition to authorities. He makes the assessment that containment of deep-rooted conflicts is only possible with alterations in norms, institutions and policies. The attempt of direct containment of above mentioned symptoms and equating violence with deep-rooted conflict—though deep-rooted conflicts are likely to lead to eruption of violence—must be avoided. Superficial ways of treating disputes as done by lawyers, public officials in courts or other bodies can lead to major social problems in the longer term (1990: 15).

To conceptualise *protracted social conflict*, Azar asserts that it has evolved as an outcome of factors like colonial legacies, communal enmities, economic migration, human-made natural disasters and lack of security. He states that protracted social conflict should be understood in terms of “human needs, communal context, governance and the role of state, environmental factors, and international linkages”. Azar groups human needs in three: security, access and acceptance. The most basic human needs are physical

survival and well-being, which depend upon safety, productive capability and access to physical resources such as food, clothing, energy and water. Access to social institutions is vital for equal distribution of resources and for benefiting from security opportunities. Acceptance of identity related with class, race, language or religion is a socio-psychological need essential for psychological well-being of individuals and communities. Azar strongly argues “groups who are accepted are more likely to accept others in turn”. If basic human needs are not met, complaints are expressed in a collective way rather than on an individual basis. The preconditions of protracted social conflict are transformed into violent conflict due to “communal actions and strategies, state actions and strategies and the built-in-properties of conflict” (2002: 18-21).

Using the term *ethnopolitical conflict* Gurr and John Davies refer to those conflicts “involving, as a primary party, at least one nonstate group with distinct cultural, ethnic, or religious traits” (2002: 31). In their valuable volume on ethnopolitical groups and ethnic conflict with detailed analysis on four cases⁶ Gurr and Harff make the assessment that if there are peaceful relations among peoples for a long time, their different identities weaken eventually (1994). For example, in the first part of the twentieth century, in South Tirol there was tension between German and Italian speakers. After 1950s, as the economy improved and the Italian leadership decided to leave German speakers at peace the ethnic consciousness disappeared for several decades (Volkan, 1997). Gurr and Harff further hypothesize “the more the democratic political environment, the more likely ethnopolitical groups will be to voice opposition nonviolently..., the more extreme force is used, the less likely the chances for open rebellion”. Once ethnic conflict is escalated into rebellion sometimes it becomes impossible to reach a peaceful conclusion. Some groups on both

⁶ These four cases of ethnopolitical groups are; the Kurds in the Middle East, Miskito Indians of Central America, Chinese in Malaysia and Turkish immigrants in Germany.

sides might think they have more gain in continuing the fight than accepting compromises (1994: 85).

According to Herbert C. Kelman, international or ethnic conflict is “driven by nonfulfillment or threats to the fulfilment of basic needs”. These needs include material and psychological ones. Material needs refer to food, shelter, physical safety and physical well-being. Psychological needs refer to identity, security, recognition, autonomy, self-esteem and justice. In protracted conflict, fears about the denial of these needs often transform into an existential character, where community finds itself in a struggle for communal survival. Therefore conflicts about territory and resources usually reflect and further magnify concerns about security and identity; and “subjective forces linked to basic needs and existential fears contribute heavily to its escalation and perpetuation”. In ethnic conflicts, the role of existential fears are emphasised more. In international conflicts, needs and fears of societies are generally manipulated by the leadership. For example, the fear of extermination of a community is often linked with fear of personal extermination (Kelman, 1997: 195-197). Gurr and Harff put it that ethnic groups mobilize when the strong ethnic group identity combines with imposed disadvantages (1994).

A protracted conflict can escalate in the occurrence of mutual distrust between opposing groups, a minor event, individual grievances turning into collective ones, irreconcilable communal demands, suppression of collective protests and political inequality. When community’s demands are not met and the state chooses to exert coercion, it is likely that the community seeks external military and economic support. In case of eruption of violence, spiral acts of violence and continuous deprivation of basic needs perpetuate antagonisms and lead to mutual dehumanisation of the enemy (Azar, 2002). Gurr and Harff assert that protracted communal conflicts that arose over the demand and rights of ethnic groups have caused more misery and atrocities than has any other type

of local, regional and international conflicts in five decades after the end of the World War II (1994).

Inter-communal conflict is caused by economic and political deprivation or exploitation based on collective identity, for this reason economic development is considered as a key factor for conflict management (Azar, 2002).

Louis Kriesberg examines the concept of deeply rooted and protracted conflict, which he names *intractable conflicts*. According to him, protracted conflict refers to long-lasting conflicts often linked with aspects like ethnicity and other identities, while intractable conflict explains conflicts that are resistant to settlement. Intractable conflicts possess four dimensions defined by Kriesberg. First they are long lasting, persisting for more than a generation. Young generation is brought up with stories of the enemy, who the enemy is and what cruelties the enemy has conducted. This socialisation contributes to sustaining the conflict. Second, the leader of the antagonist groups claim the other party's goals irreconcilable, with the belief they will be destroyed by the other party if they cease fighting. Third, a number of members of antagonist groups possess some interest in the continuation of the conflict, either in ideological or in the material form. Fourth, in intractable conflicts destructive means are used, such as killings and physical damaging (1998b).

The intractability of a conflict is defined by the relative power imbalance between adversaries; hence the power asymmetry is due to interpretation. The adversaries on each side continuously perceive themselves as endangered by the other side. For example, South African whites interpreted themselves as threatened by South African black people during years of Apartheid while the blacks regarded themselves dominated and exploited by the whites. The increase of the intractability of a conflict is also linked with refusal of claim for fundamental human rights or the claim to be recognized as a legitimate collectivity by

the other group. The internal relationship within groups is also a factor engendering the conflict to become more intractable. Opinion leaders of the society might provoke emotions of fear and hatred toward enemies. While sense of belonging provides comfort and meaning for some group members, for some others it can serve as a tool for power and influence. Dissenting or alternative group members are either silenced, excluded or they withdraw voluntarily (Kriesberg, 1998).

Violence appears when conflicts are systematically not managed constructively, when they are totally overlooked, or social, economic and political systems are deeply unequal and destructive (Brand-Jacobsen, 2004). At this stage, it should be noted that violence and conflict represent two different concepts. In 1981, Galtung has articulated the distinction between three types of violence where these three function in a trilateral relationship. *Direct violence* represents direct attacks by actors who intend to create consequences of violence. Indirect, covert or *structural violence* is embedded in the social structure, between humans, between societies, between regions in the world stemming from repression, exploitation and injustice. The third form, *cultural violence* acts in order to legitimise direct and structural violence. It is notable that culture is the great legitimiser of violence, while it can be also of peace. Cultural violence attempts to justify or glorify direct and structural violence. Cultural violence can be hidden in religion, ideology, language, art, science, law, media and education (1996). With the articulation of this categorisation, it becomes clear that the effects of violence cannot be measured only by assessing the death, casualty, physical damage and destruction.

One other valuable contribution of Galtung to peace studies has been the distinction he made between negative and positive peace. According to his—and now standard—definition, *negative peace* exists when only direct violence is absent. The main aim of negative peace is to reduce the potential for armed conflict by precautions like

disarmament. *Positive peace* is characterised by the conditions where structural and cultural violence are overcome as well. It seeks eradication of militarism and elimination of severe effects of cruel social systems. Direct violence is ceased through transforming conflict behaviours; structural violence ends when structural injustices are eliminated, and cultural violence is removed when attitudes are changed. We cannot think of a genuine and durable peace without the existence of justice, as there cannot be real justice without peace.

2.2. The Field of Peace and Conflict Resolution

“... the obsession with the removal of one leader and the belief that his removal will end the country’s problems is ... not found in any conflict resolution material... Western nations, instead of promoting dialogue, negotiations, and compromise, are actively reinforcing the fallacious argument that conflicts can be resolved by the use of force” (Van Eck, 2001: 87-88).

There are many terms related with different stages and processes of peace and conflict resolution. *Conflict management* means putting an end to violent conflict or stopping violence related means that maintain a conflict. It refers to limitation, mitigation and containment of the conflict. *Conflict settlement* refers to reaching an agreement between opposing parties through negotiation and bargaining. It means suppressing the conflict without addressing the root cause of it. *Conflict resolution* refers to eliminating the causes of conflict that arose between two or more parties as well as removing the root causes of incompatibility. It has a more comprehensive approach that is based on joint problem-solving. *Conflict transformation* refers to changing relations between conflicting parties so as to make peace sustainable. It necessitates a longer-term investment, where deeper structural dimensions of the conflict are addressed and social changes at different levels of society are achieved. Finally *conflict prevention* covers all activities aiming to

prevent the outbreak of violence. Peacemaking efforts after eruption of violence will inevitably overlap with conflict prevention efforts.

Peacemaking indicates diplomatic efforts to handle conflict, according to the UN Charter. *Peacekeeping* means to position forces with the consent of parties in order to monitor a peace agreement. *Peace-enforcement* is the usage of military efforts to bring adversary parties under control. And *peace-building* refers to allocating structural measures to prevent the re-eruption of violence.

Some scholars make a distinction between traditional peacekeeping and second generation peacekeeping, where the latter aims to implement a lasting peace rather than to stop violence where it occurs. Attempts for an enduring peace stand out as the most relevant tools since short term and temporary interventions in protracted conflicts rarely lead to sustainable solutions. Transformation of a conflict refers to an intentional process of applying “changes in a conflict’s manifestation at the personal, relational, structural and cultural levels” (Rasmussen, 1997: 41).

The conditions of *coexistence* and *reconciliation* according to Kriesberg are to be reached after bitter conflicts between peoples. Coexistence refers to a wide range of relationships between parties who possess no intention to destroy each other. Reconciliation refers to a friendly and potentially stable relationship between formerly antagonistic persons or groups. Reconciliation is the process of developing a mutually acceptable accommodation generally followed by a rupture in the relationship like extreme violence. Coexistence needs aspects like equality, interdependence and interaction, where no party dominates the other and does not exploit other groups’ members (1998a). Moreover, reconciliation should not be taken as surrender.

Kriesberg notes that after severe struggles, it is not probable that all the members of the adversary parties reconcile universally; still official reconciliation is achievable.

Reconciliation needs antagonist parties to acknowledge the dreadful aspects and the suffering of the past. In order to contribute to reconciliation the truths should be recognised, the justice attained, well-being of the threatened community improved, and apologies, forgiveness and mourning expressed. Practices and policies that serve to a common purpose of the previously adversary communities are one of the accelerating factors of reconciliation. Redressing of former crimes through public trials is a contributing factor for an equitable coexistence and reconciliation. Hence one policy alone cannot be effective to reach and maintain an equitable coexistence and reconciliation; there should be a combination of policies implemented in coordination (1998a).

Intractable conflicts can only end if rivals regularly negotiate their differences and rely on nonviolent means even if they exercise coercion. Kriesberg sets three features that allow conflicts to become tractable. First the rival parties should recognize substantial mutual interests, second considerable number of members of each rival group should acknowledge a minimum level of human rights for the other side, and third the adversaries should agree to use nonviolent means no matter if they pursue conflict or try to settle the conflict. Tractability of conflict is linked with changes in relationship between adversaries and changes within the adversary groups as well as in the external setting (1998b).

For the subordinated party of the conflict, means other than violence often are more effective and enduring. Using nonviolent means like protests, drawing the involvement of outside allies, as well as offering security to basic interest of the dominant party are among other means to establish a peaceful relation with the dominant party. For the dominant party, strategies to abolish intractability include acknowledging the suffering of the subordinated group, developing mechanisms to handle conflict and claims of injustice, as well as controlling each party's hardliners (Kriesberg, 1998b).

Management of protracted social conflicts necessitates taking issues of economic development and communal pluralism highly into consideration, since peace requires stable economic and political development. Identity based conflicts cannot be resolved without the consideration of developmental needs of the communities involved (Azar, 2002). Conflicts cannot be transformed unless basic human needs of one or both parties are satisfied (Zartman, 1997).

In the field of conflict resolution the goal should not be to eliminate conflict at all. This thought has two sources, first it is impossible to remove conflicts as a whole, second it could be probably damaging. The objective should be rather to eliminate the violent conflict and its manifestations. In order to transform a conflict situation, the parties involved must be transformed as well, so as not to nurture conditions for the reproduction of the conflict. As Galtung puts it, there will not be an ultimate peace in the world, in his own words “[w]hat may happen is a better balance between peace and violence, meaning more and better peace and less and ‘better’ (less evil) violence – a betterment of the human condition... The task of peace studies is...: not unrealistic total triumphs of good over evil, but better deals, with less suffering, from violence...” (1996: 17).

A genuine conflict resolution effort should address fundamental needs and deepest fears of the affected people. Once these needs of warring parties have been satisfied and fears are alleviated, the issues concerning territory and resources can be settled through bargaining. Conflict resolution does not mean that historical grievances and traumas are simply forgotten, but it refers to a process that addresses the key needs and fears of affected societies and builds a permanent mechanism to confront these needs and fears (Kelman, 1997). Conflict resolution efforts should seek possibilities and paths for change and identify the appropriate conditions for change by being capable to overcome barriers and resistance to change. Conflict settlement strategies must address the root causes of

conflict, since its disregard should lead to the invalidation of the settlement in case of any unexpected incident.

In some conflict cases a third party interferes to contribute to the reconciliation process. The intervention of a third party creates a triangle of relationship. This process can complicate as well as facilitate the reconciliation. Third parties also have an interest in ending the conflict, where at the same time some external parties have an interest in continuing the conflict. Even the humanitarian agencies have an interest “in defending their own efforts and profession by bringing conflict away from violence and toward resolution” (Zartman, 1997: 13). Conflict resolution attempts therefore should highly concentrate on analysing where the interests of external and internal parties to the conflict lie.

2.3. Nonviolent Action

The strategies of nonviolent action vary extremely. A key strategy is the public assembly of large number of people that gather for demonstrations and marches by giving officials the signal of their capacity for disturbance. Gandhi’s *satyagraha* movement depending upon nonviolent resistance to injustice and Indian independence stands out as another strategy for active nonviolence. Nonviolent movements of the later twentieth century common in Europe and North America have three characteristics. First the reliance on resistance to violence gives actors a moral advantage. Second, the authorities’ response to nonviolent movements put them in a morally and politically disadvantaged place. Third, nonviolent activists use the media extensively to spread their messages (Gurr and Davies, 2002).

It is obvious that there is not the same investment made in order to raise the capacity of the society to transform conflicts as is made to instigate conflict. The fact that people cannot give examples of nonviolent conflict resolution does not mean that these do

not exist (Brand-Jacobsen, 2004). Nonviolent tools for conflict transformation include nonviolent protests, non-cooperation and the reduction of relations.

Some leaders of nonviolent campaigns assert that committing violence diminishes the possibility of future negotiation and reconciliation. They argue pursuing nonviolent struggle raises the chance for the later attainment of an enduring peace and mutually acceptable conditions (Kriesberg, 1997).

Galtung responds to the assertion ‘nonviolence does not work’ with amazing success stories from the twentieth century. Citing some of them: (1) Gandhi’s *swaraj* campaign for Indian independence from 1920, (2) Martin Luther King Jr.’s campaign in the US from 1956, (3) Buenos Aires Plaza de Mayo mothers against the military, (4) ‘People’s Power’ movement in the Philippines in 1986, (5) *Intifada* movement in Occupied Palestine from 1987, (6) Solidarność/DDR movements that ended the Cold War (1996).

2.4. Non-governmental Organisations and Their Function in Conflict Resolution Work

The UN defines NGOs as non-profit entities whose members are citizens of one or more countries. The activities of an NGO are defined by the collective will of its members as a response to the needs of the members of one or more communities, which the NGO cooperates with. Nevertheless, there is no universally accepted definition of NGOs. NGOs try to change societal norms, challenge national governments and establish transnational alliances. Currently, there are 2.013 NGOs in consultative status with the UN Economic and Social Council (ECOSOC).

Governments have become encouraged to work with NGOs in the field of humanitarian aid and conflict resolution in the post Cold-War era. According to Andrew S. Natsios, one of the reasons of this fact is that the increase in the number of power centres led governments to turn to NGOs that are capable of functioning as mediators at the

community level in areas of conflict. NGOs can have four different functions to work in conflict zones: they can monitor human rights abuses, they can act as impartial mediators between warring groups, they can provide humanitarian aid and they can influence foreign policy decisions taken in western countries. Yet it is obvious that one NGO cannot deal with all these four functions (1997).

In the case of an entirely collapsed government, NGOs may act as sources of authority. In some cases, NGOs are the only actors to perform some essential tasks for the implementation of peace processes, since government services might have been destroyed or impaired. In these situations, NGOs provide services in demining operations, resettlement of refugees, provision of public services, construction of shelters, agricultural rehabilitation and health services. NGOs can be considered as the best early warning mechanisms of imminent conflicts. On the other hand, the existence of international NGOs (INGO) in conflict situations may make warring parties feel restrained to commit human rights abuses; therefore NGOs' presence can act as a preventive factor (Natsios, 1997).

On the other hand, these outside actors who function as role-players in international relief efforts in the violence-torn areas can unintentionally cause many complications in the negotiation process where they can also help diminishing the violence and contribute to the peace process. Providing resources into a conflict environment where resources are scarce usually creates competition over aid between antagonists (Natsios, 1997).

P.J. Simmons defines four ways that NGOs influence external parties: they set the agenda, they negotiate outcomes, they confer legitimacy and they execute solutions (1998). In 1997, the campaign to conclude a treaty banning landmines won the Nobel Prize. This was the result of a partnership between the Canadian government and over 350 humanitarian NGOs from 23 countries. What is more interesting was the international media campaign they used utilizing tools like the Internet, e-mails, newsletters and even

comic books. Thus some US policymakers noted that the NGO coalition could have gained US support if it had been more patient and open to compromise. Another example; in 1990 an Italian NGO, the *Comunità di Sant'Egidio* initiated informal meetings between antagonists in Mozambique that led to a peace agreement. NGOs working particularly on humanitarian and development issues are able achieving results in working on the ground that governments are not able or hesitate. This fact is linked with NGOs' perceived impartiality and experience. One study on NGOs and peace-building in Bosnia criticised NGOs how they used advertising in order to promote their programs to potential donors. This kind of advertising was first causing concerns about local reconstruction efforts, second raising questions on NGOs' preferences to use money. In other conflict areas such as Ethiopia and Rwanda, the roads and camps for humanitarian assistance was used by combatants. In Sudan and Somalia, NGOs made direct and indirect payments to factions in order to have access to areas in need (Simmons, 1998). Nevertheless, the idea that UN and the nation states depend on NGOs' work to achieve results at the grassroots level is universally acceptable.

Making the assessment of nation states' record in working with NGOs, countries like Canada and Norway stand out as significant cases for establishing alliances with NGOs, while US is very poor in establishing relations in areas of arms control. Norway has funded NGO coalition for the International Criminal Court (ICC); and states like Bosnia and Sierra Leone, received support from legal advisors at the ICC negotiations, provided by the NGO called No Peace Without Justice. In the NGO sector, there remains the problem of representing the society in large. That means, even if the NGOs choose their representatives from among themselves, there is no guarantee that the selected ones truly represent the society at large and its interests. Simmons concludes by asserting that it is feared that NGOs would become indebted to national governments due to dependence on

public funding. Plans to increase NGO involvement are also due to lead to loss of passion and impoverishment of ideas, subsequently to generate predictable and bureaucratic approaches among NGO representatives (Simmons, 1998).

Two prominent examples of NGOs working on peace and conflict resolution are the Stockholm International Peace Research Institute (SIPRI) and International Crisis Group (ICG). SIPRI, founded in 1966 by the Swedish Parliament conducts researches on peace and disarmament. ICG established in 1995 focuses on crisis management and humanitarian emergencies and uses the tools of fieldwork, policy analysis and advocacy (Simmons, 1998).

2.5. Second Track Diplomacy as a Field

First coined by Joseph Montville and pioneered by him and Edward Azar, John McDonald, John Burton, Johan Galtung, Herbert Kelman, Leonard Doob, Harold Saunders, Vamik D. Volkan, Ronald Fisher, Christopher Mitchell and Michael Banks, second track diplomacy is defined as:

... the bringing together of professionals, opinion leaders or other currently or potentially influential individuals from communities in conflict, without official representative status, to work together to understand better the dynamics underlying the conflict and how its transformation from violence (or potential violence) to a collaborative process of peace-building and sustainable development might be promoted (Davies and Kaufman, 2002: 2).

According to Kriesberg, unofficial diplomacy started to become increasingly important in the beginning of 1950s. As a significant case, in 1957 nuclear physicists began to meet discussing reducing the chances to use nuclear weapons. The exchange of ideas at these meetings led to signing of a number of treaties on non-proliferation (1997).

Terms to describe non-official diplomatic processes include second track or track two diplomacy, citizenship or citizens' diplomacy, unofficial diplomacy, interactive problem-solving, interactive conflict resolution, field diplomacy, third-party consultation, multi track diplomacy and facilitated dialogues. Second track diplomacy should be considered as an independent non-governmental mechanism that contributes to security by

using nonviolent means of conflict resolution. It perceives the individual as a means for change in policies and actions of the prevalent system. It considers that citizens from various backgrounds possessing various skills have something to add to peace-building processes. The characteristics and functions of second track diplomacy can be summarised in following headings:

It complements official diplomacy:

It supports first track diplomacy by making suggestions and introducing alternative ways for solution. Inevitably, peace agreements must be negotiated, finalised and executed at the official level, thus citizens' diplomacy does not aim to be an alternative system of official diplomacy; it is a complementary system that uses opportunities that are not available at the official level. Second track diplomacy engages the civil society, which is a compulsory aspect to successfully implement peace agreements. Nevertheless, practitioners of unofficial diplomacy do not try to impose any conflict settlement; they merely facilitate the whole process of conflict transformation by creating the sense of shared responsibility among opposing fractions (Davies and Kaufman, 2002).

Track two diplomacy transforms traditional diplomacy settings into "win-win", where the cooperation and mutual progress are maximised (Azar, 2002). When official negotiations are in progress, unofficial initiatives particularly problem-solving workshops provide a forum to seek options that are more agreeable at the negotiation process and to find out ways to break stalemates (Kelman, 2002). Track two may prepare the appropriate conditions for official negotiations or negotiations that were started at the unofficial level. When official negotiations reach an impasse, track two channel can open informally, which can be later transferred into the official level (Kriesberg, 1997).

It opens up opportunities for communication:

When official dialogue becomes constrained or blocked, second track diplomacy explores how the needs of adversaries should be handled. It promotes reconciliation between those critical divides that thwart the process of conflict transformation. These divides include divisions between civil society and government, between elites and grassroots members and among people possessing different approaches on resolving conflicts. Along with states, track two diplomacy acknowledges non-state groups that are based on identity. It promotes dialogue across all levels of leadership (i.e. top-level, mid-level and grassroots) (Davies and Kaufman, 2002). In addition, second track actors serve as neutral parties establishing a bridge between divided societies. In most of the cases unofficial settings are the only safe and non-binding environments where opposing parties can meet (Rasmussen, 1997).

The practitioner-experts of track two diplomacy propose, discuss or seek alternative solutions to a dispute (Azar, 2002). The process of finding alternative solutions to problems contributes to establishing a new relationship between parties (Kelman, 2002).

Contributes to humanisation of the enemy:

It reduces tension and misperceptions between groups in opposition. Facilitated face-to-face communication as a tool of second track diplomacy opens channels for the (re)humanisation of the enemy (Davies and Kaufman, 2002). Problem-solving workshops help participating individuals to overcome suspicions and fear that stand in the way of official negotiations. Becoming aware of other party's concerns, priorities and limits, individuals create a belief on the possibility of a peaceful solution.

Builds capacity of the civil society:

By involving the civil society, second track diplomacy processes open alternative ways for the evolution of the democratic political culture. Since wars and violent conflicts of today have more impact on civilian life than it has on states' armed forces, unofficial

diplomacy engages those who are directly affected by the negative consequences of the conflict in the search for peace (Davies and Kaufman, 2002).

Establishes public support and political will for peacemaking and long-term structural development:

Informal encounters contribute to the development of a political atmosphere inclined to negotiations and other diplomatic undertakings. The ideas for solution emerging from unofficial settings are more likely to respond to real needs and fears of antagonist parties; in addition parties to the conflict feel more committed to these alternative solutions they created themselves (Kelman, 2002). Second track diplomacy emphasizes long-term goals that address the needs of all parties that were engaged in conflict.

Track two diplomacy aims at transforming protracted conflict and its related institutions and power dynamics into a process of long-term, viable and constructive commitment and collective problem-solving. It accepts the concept of positive peace achieved through social and economic justice, participatory democracy and sustainable development supported by structural transformation. Like conflict resolution focuses on preventing or resolving conflict through addressing the root causes of conflict, track two diplomacy aspires to transform violent and stalemated relations into constructive relations through dealing with the root causes of conflict (Davies and Kaufman, 2002).

Track two diplomacy practitioners are usually former state officials, psychologists, lawyers, peace activists, journalists and social scientists. Track two processes engage academics, NGO professionals, religious leaders, women's group leaders and humanitarian assistance leaders from different communities at the mid-level and civil society level. The next step is the conveying the new insights for the peace process to the top-level leaders. At this stage of the process, attempts are made to engage those leaders in dialogue with the

civil society representatives. Though it is very common that leaders at different levels do not acknowledge their interdependence with others. For example, the representatives at the grassroots level are not regarded for dialogue as well; therefore they tend to remain isolated from other levels. For this reason track two diplomacy targets to promote dialogue across these three levels of leadership (Davies and Kaufman, 2002).

Former government officials who are involved in unofficial diplomatic processes usually serve in think-tanks and academic institutions. They may preserve the advantage to have access to certain individuals at the decision making level. Other advantage they have may be their close ties with key opinion leaders, columnists of major newspapers or key persons at the news media. The position of former diplomats serving as citizen diplomats plays a crucial role in making the link and securing the information flow between track one and two diplomacy.

Practitioners working in the field of second track diplomacy need to develop many skills particularly the skill to displace their own cultural preconceptions. Another particular skill to be gained is not to concentrate too much on the transfer of their expertise (Davies and Kaufman, 2002), since the fact that the skills of third party facilitators are often from western cultures would lead to their rejection by local communities. Due to this fact, it is advised that the process of second track diplomacy is co-facilitated by practitioners from the local community in question. Azar considering that practitioners of alternative diplomacy processes come from western political and economic cultures proposes that they should continuously check their inclinations. Another proposal is that western oriented practitioners should train those from non-western traditions and include them in facilitation processes (2002).

The practitioners and participants of second track diplomacy process have a duty for maintaining the private and confidential nature of the forum, since the success of it—

even the lives of participants—may be under risk. Those participants must be screened out who seek personal and intra-group gain by intelligence gathering or those who aim to publicise the event (Azar, 2002).

In post-conflict situations, the peace workers or post-conflict monitoring staff who work on the ground are inevitably more familiar with the needs and dynamics of the current situation than official diplomats. These highly informed field workers are better equipped to set more appropriate and workable goals than those who work in central offices. Each organisation makes its own decision whether to initiate tasks in a conflict-torn area, on the other hand they depend upon resources to implement their planned activities. Increasingly NGOs are given missions by international bodies like the European Commission to perform tasks particularly in the post-conflict reconstruction phase (Chayes and Chayes, 1998).

Kriesberg in his article on communal reconciliation states that social institutions can provide the appropriate setting for the interaction between previously antagonist groups in the reconciliation process. These settings provide for those the conditions for experiencing equal status and prejudice reduction. A considerable amount of reconciliation work is conducted on an individual basis. It is also conducted on small group level in settings such as schools, workplaces mainly on grassroots level. Kriesberg divides agents for coexistence and reconciliation into three, these are: high-ranking leaders, middle-range leaders or grassroots leaders. In this classification, middle-range and grassroots leaders depict the representatives of second track diplomacy. These leaders in Kriesberg's conception are either based inside or outside the antagonist groups (1998a).

Internal middle-range leaders include religious, business and political leaders, intellectuals, artists, and journalists. They mend inter-personal bonds through organising problem-solving workshops and establish monitoring mechanisms. External middle-range

leaders include representatives from INGOs conducting humanitarian and development assistance, human rights advocacy and direct peace-building work. Diaspora communities play a considerable role either in sustaining communal conflicts or in resolving these hostilities by providing necessary resources. They attempt to influence policies in the country they reside to necessitate government's intervention either to help one party of the conflict or to end the vicious cycle of the conflict, or to act as a mediator for the resolution of the conflict (Kriesberg, 1998a).

Grassroots leaders from the locality often try to attain greater justice for the local people. Women, peasants or other residents consider inter-communal conflict as a threat to their lives; hence they promote policies of reconciliation. External grassroots contributions refer to a variety of transnational social movement organisations or citizens groups running programs like social exchanges. In order to have enduring reconciliation, Kriesberg puts forth leaders at all levels should reinforce each other (1998a). Figure 2 exhibits John Paul Lederach's triangle of actors and their approaches to peace-building, that summarizes the role played by three types of actors in a comprehensive way.

Types of actors

Level 1: Top leadership

Military/political/religious leaders with high sensibility

Level 2: Middle-range leadership

Leaders respected in sectors.

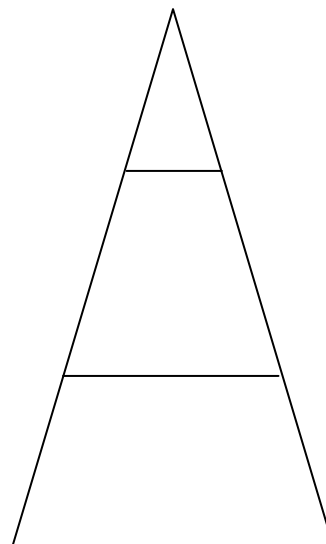
Ethnic/religious leaders.

Academics/intellectuals.

Humanitarian leaders (NGOs).

Level 3: Grassroots leadership

Local leaders. Leaders of indigenous NGOs. Community developers. Local health officials. Refugee camp leaders.



Approaches to Building Peace

Focus on high-level negotiations. Emphasize cease-fire. Led by highly visible, single mediator.

Problem-solving workshops. Training in conflict resolution. Peace commissions. Insider-partial teams.

Local peace commissions. Grassroot training. Prejudice reduction. Psychosocial work in postwar trauma.

Figure 2. Actors and Approaches to Peace-building

Source: Lederach, 2001: 146

Shonholtz puts particular emphasis on civil society's role in managing disputes in Central and Eastern European countries. Since 1989, an organisation called Partners for Democratic Change (Partners) has founded national centers for conflict resolution at universities in Moscow, Warsaw, Prague, Bratislava, Budapest and Sofia. One of the goals of Partners was to establish mediating structures in civil society through setting up ethnic conciliation commissions. Partners started discussions with minority leaders, and local and governmental officials to address the issues related with minorities and to create civil society structures to deal with these issues. Shonholtz argues that minority conflicts have a remarkable function in new democracies since successful management of conflicts serves to promote democracy. Conciliation commissions' experience has led to clarification of values, expression of disagreements and understanding the consequences of the conflict. Once the dialogue started on options for change, the conflict parties stopped discussing the historical conditions. Shonholtz claims that societies broken by ethnic and national conflicts lacking neutral intermediaries need to discover ways to establish efficient dispute resolution systems (1998).

According to Mitchell and Banks, conflict resolution organisations would be acceptable to governments, but not directly funded by them. When starting a peacemaking effort the parties to the conflict always direct the question: 'who is paying you for this?' This fact gives the signal that any problem-solving exercise supported with government funds will give the impression of an attempt that tries to further national interests. This fact is applicable to foundations or other types of organisations that have linkages with activities that parties to the conflict regard biased. To this particular problem, Mitchell and Banks propose practitioners working in this field "to be extremely wary of their funding sources, to eschew government funding and to be completely open with parties in conflict about 'where the money comes from'" (1996: 86-87). In addition, Andrea L. Strimling

notes that the transparency of organizers and funding agencies about funding is a crucial element of the work. Being ethically as well practically important, the discovery of unrevealed information undermine the whole conflict resolution process (2002).

2.6. Interactive Problem-Solving Approach as a Tool for Unofficial Diplomacy

The tool of *interactive problem-solving* termed as well as *interactive conflict resolution* applied by many scholar-practitioners is described as an academic based process with an unofficial third-party approach bringing together representatives of opposing parties in conflict for establishing and maintaining direct communication. This tool should be considered as an integral part of the larger diplomatic process (Fisher 2002; Kelman, 2002). A problem-solving initiative “involves the principle of putting adversaries in a situation where they can explore the possibilities for new options leading to a ‘win-win’, or variable sum solution to what can be recognized as a mutual problem” (Mitchell and Banks, 1996:5).

Problem-solving process “uses the individual as the unit of analysis in the effort to understand resistance to change in a conflict relationship despite changes in realities and interests, and in the search for solutions that would satisfy the human needs of the parties”; moreover it is an attempt to achieve change at the level of individuals (Kelman, 2002: 96). In other words, this process depicts a micro-process that transfers inputs into the macro-process of conflict resolution (Kelman, 1997). The principle here is to start the process “at the bottom social level and move upwards” considering “no settlement can work unless it is acceptable to those affected by it” (Mitchell and Banks, 1996: 32).

The objective of interactive problem-solving is not to promote communication as an end, rather to make solutions emerge out of the interaction between opposing parties. One other objective of the problem-solving workshops is to generate and transfer the inputs into the political decision-making and debate processes. In a broader sense,

interactive problem-solving aims at creating a political environment inclined to conflict resolution and transforming the relations between rival communities both in the short and long term. In general the workshops try either to bring parties to the formal negotiation table or to have the officials run more productive negotiations if they are already at the table (Kelman, 2002).

Problem-solving workshops can be described as informal and unofficial settings with the characteristic of neutrality. Facilitated by a group of social scientists, problem-solving workshops try to achieve inter-personal thrust, through improving relations at the grassroots level and influencing representatives of opposing groups. Facilitators are supposed to create an environment for constructive dialogue in order to initiate a constructive process of accommodation (Azar, 2002). The timing is one of the important issues in problem-solving attempts. The parties will be willing to interact with each other when they have reached the point of stalemate or exhaustion. The ideal time to intervene should also be the preliminary phase before the possible worsening of the conflict (Mitchell and Banks, 1996).

Interactive problem-solving workshops have several functions. Among them are the function of contributing to the official pre-negotiation process, the attempt to remove barriers that stand in the way of opening negotiations and the function of seeking alternative solutions that are not yet on the table. For this reason, unofficial forums are meant to be complementing to official negotiations, rather than to rehearse or simulate negotiations (Kelman, 2002). At this stage, the line between official negotiation process and problem-solving process should be made visible. Problem-solving forums are not intended to facilitate formal negotiation processes directly, rather they facilitate the communication helping opposing parties to overcome their political, technical and psychological barriers.

A typical workshop has five characteristics. First it is a private, informal and confidential gathering in a safe environment without the attendance of observers. Discussions are not recorded, though third party individuals can make notes. Participants should feel they could deviate from their conflict norms. The principle of confidentiality can prevail until the workshop group decides that it is appropriate time to make the outcome public. Second the participants of contending parties are politically influential people, though they are not directly involved in the execution of foreign policy. There are times that participants are encouraged by the political leadership to attend the workshop. Third, participants enter into the workshop settings as individuals rather official representatives. Nevertheless, the closer the participants are to formal foreign policy making centre, the more opportunity there is to transfer the workshop experience into official decision making processes. At the same time, those participants closer to the power centre possibly feel more constrained and rigid in entering into open communication. Fourth, workshops have a non-binding character; it is much easier for participants to engage in noncommittal communication, which is a necessary condition for innovative problem-solving. Fifth, the practice of problem-solving does not function if parties are not interested in changing the status quo. Both parties should have some interest in ending the conflict with a mutually agreed upon agreement (Kelman, 2002).

In the pre-forum phase, the workshop environment and participants are selected, the role of facilitators clarified and the setting prepared. In this phase, an inter-group needs analysis is conducted since a separate dialogue is needed to address the groups' differences before the workshop starts. Purposes, procedures and ground rules are outlined at this stage (Azar, 2002; Kelman, 2002). The process of selecting the participants should take into account not to exclude any group that might attempt to undermine the outcome of the workshop. That is to say: the removal of obstacles to changing extremist behaviour should

be the priority, rather than refusing extremists' attendance in the problem-solving process. Each group's 'doves' as well as 'hawks' should be welcome as members of the forum. 'Hawks' should be included in the discussions at the early stages rather than later stages. The participants should be able to represent their group's feelings, considerations and goals, as well as be aware of underlying interests and values and possible reactions and obstacles to alternative solutions (Mitchell and Banks, 1996).

The location to conduct the workshop should be preferably somewhere that is apart from the location of the conflict. In general the setting of the workshop should make the participants feel comfortable, secure, safe and away from the day-to-day events of the conflict (Mitchell and Banks, 1996). The workshop covers sessions for sharing each party's national identity, history of victimisation, ties to the land, sense of justice, fears and concerns; sessions to generate positive-sum solutions, ways to overcome constraints and concrete ideas for joint action (Kelman, 2002). Montville makes a particular emphasis on the indispensability of regret and forgiveness in order to establish a new relationship in the healing and reconciliation process. This process necessitates a joint analysis of the conflict history and acknowledgement of injustices. In other words, understanding the history of the conflict is necessary in order to move forward in the reconciliation process (Fisher, 1999). The forum setting is usually an academic one, since it encourages open discussion, effective listening and an analytical approach. The discussion should be conducted not to assign blames, but to investigate the reasons behind the conflict and its possible resolution paths (Kelman, 2002).

One of the characteristics of interactive problem-solving workshops is to display symmetries in the parties' perceptions of each other. According to Kelman, the symmetries tend to be a major source of conflict escalation, where in contrast they can function as a

major tool for de-escalation through providing parties the help for making them understand each other's point of view (2002).

The outputs of a workshop can be “a framework of mutually agreeable principles for some settlement, a list of suggested tension-reducing... measures, a number of possible formulae for dissolving *impasse*, or a proposal for a process by which official discussions could begin” (Mitchell and Banks, 1996: 146).

In the early days, a single problem-solving workshop was the initial attempt of the scholar-practitioners, though the complexity of many protracted conflicts has necessitated sustained and long-term efforts to engender alternative solutions to the problems through running a set of linked workshops. In this scope, there are three types of workshops; these are single workshops, ad-hoc series and continuing workshops. The need of an ad-hoc workshop arises from the demand of participants when they feel a meeting is useful and desirable. Continuing workshops focus mainly on long-term causes and long-range solutions of conflicts. At each gathering, the circle of participants can be widened or a new set of participants can be associated into the process (Mitchell and Banks, 1996). Kelman argues longer and continuing processes “make it possible to go beyond the sharing of perspectives to the joint production of creative ideas”. The participants of the forum have the chance to take the developed ideas to their communities, to receive their reactions and to give feedback in the next meeting by making proposals to modify original ideas (Kelman, 1998: 329).

The post-forum phase is the stage for the promotion of self-sustaining structural development. At this stage, those participants seeking accommodation or those who appear closely related with participants from the opposing party can be alienated from their constituencies and can lose credibility (Azar, 2002; Kelman, 2002). In the longer term, the workshop participants can discuss the possibility of starting symbolic bridge-building

activities, such as producing articles and papers, establishing new organisations or maintaining channels of communication between participants (Mitchell and Banks, 1996).

In order to assess the effects of a problem-solving exercise one has to accept that dramatic changes seldom happen after conducting the workshop, therefore the change in the tone of public statements, the using of certain phrases, the easing of restrictions, the adoption of new concepts, the utilisation of suggestions should be taken as typical success indicators of workshops. Perhaps it will take many years until one is able finding out that the problem-solving exercise had the intended impact (Mitchell and Banks, 1996).

The facilitation of problem working workshops seeks particular expertise and it has its own characteristics. First rule is that facilitators should guarantee neutrality, whilst considering that to have personal individual perceptions and ideological tendencies is unavoidable (Azar, 2002). Therefore third party facilitators should always examine their own motives at the start of the problem-solving process (Mitchell and Banks, 1996). Facilitation should ensure that participants do not enter into a premature setting of negotiation and bargaining. Facilitators should learn issues in advance including the historical record and web of relations within and between opposing parties. The facilitators' level of knowledge is crucial for gaining the respect of participants (Azar, 2002). The initial analysis before convening a problem-solving workshop should take into account the fact that academics, business people, journalists and diplomats could possess vested interests in their interpretations. In addition, diasporas tend to have a different or out of date view of the conflict. Diaspora members distant from the actual platform tend to have more extreme views and stances and to be less knowledgeable about the conflict than those directly engaged in the conflict who have to bear the cost of the conflict directly (Mitchell and Banks, 1996). Therefore, in the process of problem-solving all the views should be regarded with caution.

2.7. Psychopolitical Approaches in Conflict Resolution

Vamık D. Volkan depicts the model called Tree Model developed at the University of Virginia's Center for the Study of Mind and Human Interaction. This model aims to reduce tension between adversaries and promote democratisation and coexistence. The model described as a process starts with a diagnosis of the problem by an interdisciplinary facilitating team with unofficial capacity. These experts try to diagnose the situation on location by having in-depth interviews with a variety of people including government officials, civic leaders, journalists, scholars and average citizens. They examine the history, culture of the adversaries and the current conflict situation. Visiting "hot" locations such as cemeteries and memorials carrying symbols of the past sufferings add to the examination. Defining "chosen traumas" and "chosen glories"⁷ of rival groups is also a significant factor in diagnosis work. Losses linked with chosen traumas cannot be mourned; hence the humiliation and wounds remain unhealed. That explains why past traumas of some communities are still active though many centuries have passed since the incidents occurred. After gathering the data, hidden transcripts are to be found out, such as the anxiety to "vanish" as an ethnic group or fear of foreign invasion (Volkan, 1998).

In the second phase selected participants from each group enter into psychopolitical dialogues. There are two significant factors in these meetings. First participants from opposing parties are influential members of their communities, second these members hold no official status. During the dialogue process, it is necessary to leave participants the space to express their chosen traumas and glories in a non-victorious way. Only when opposing parties start to listen to each other, more concrete discussions can take place. It is probable that opposing sides enthusiastically make a note of their mutual similarities.

⁷ "Chosen traumas refer to the shared mental representations of humiliating events where losses occurred. Chosen glories recount the shared mental representations of events of success or triumph. *The 'memories' of both kinds of events are often mythologized and passed from generation to generation although chosen traumas are typically stronger markers of a group's identity than the mental representations of past glories*" (Volkan, 1998: 344)

Nevertheless this perceived togetherness causes anxiety, since crucial distinctions blur and each rival party attempts to conserve its identity; each group can even try to exaggerate minor differences. The facilitators reassure that reaching an agreement does not refer to the loss of one group's identity. Volkan states that, if an agreement is reached at the premature closeness stage, it is most likely that it becomes broken at the later stage. Yet when ambivalences start to occur in the opposing group, other party's identity can be acknowledged with its wholeness (1998).

Volkan puts great emphasis on the process of mourning what he explains as the psychological response to a loss. When mourning is not made adaptively and negative feelings and experiences are passed from generation to generation, the inability to mourn can create shared fantasies such as the entitlement for revenge or the sense of victimisation (1998). The suffered party can only forgive when its members have done significant mourning. Therefore asking the participants to forgive those who caused the suffering alone does not create the environment for reconciliation; hence the focus should be to assist those in the process of mourning (Volkan, 1997). One other basic element to achieve dialogue between adversaries is to divide the past and the present. Only when problems of the past are distanced from present situation, present problems can be discussed more realistically (Volkan, 1998).

In general, the psychopolitical dialogue meetings include five stages: first, decision to enter into dialogue is taken; second, relations are mapped; third, relation dynamics are examined for the will to change; fourth, various scenarios are designed to change relations; and finally, scenarios are set in motion (Volkan, 1998). In order to institutionalise the process the facilitating team contributes to the establishment of a local contact group consisting of participants from each adversary group. This becomes necessary when the fourth stage i.e. design of the scenarios is reached. Volkan proposes that the ultimate goal

of the contact group should be transformation into an NGO that envisions an inter-group understanding and prevention of ethnic tension. It is vital for the local group to maintain function when the facilitating team finishes its direct involvement (1998).

2.8. The Role of Women in Conflict Resolution

While protection of women is often used as a pretext of waging war, women usually are not consulted about these issues. Women are seldom engaged in decisions that lead to war. Hence the most common role women and girls play in violent conflicts is the victimisation (Anderson, 2002b). Galtung trying to answer the question of “what upholds war?” stresses among many factors, the ruling by the male gender of the human species meaning patriarchy. Males tend toward violence more than women; and those who hold the possession of arms act according to the old proverb “to the person with a hammer the world looks like a nail” (Galtung, 1996: 5).

Throughout the development of the field of conflict resolution, feminist theory was used as a source of ideas as well. Feminist theory underlined the contributions women made in public and private life. In general feminist ideas were parallel with conflict resolution and these ideas made valuable contributions to development of conflict resolution (Kriesberg, 1997). According to Shelley Anderson, women’s strength for the role in reconciliation lies in their good listening and communication skills, their willingness to compromise, their extensive experience in problem-solving and their sense of caring for people. Women act as peace educators in the family. Their networks of local affairs make them alert for rumours on increasing tensions, influx of weapons or other signs of potential violent conflict (1999).

International organisations start acknowledging the role of women in peace-building, conflict resolution and reconciliation. In October 2000, UNSC unanimously passed the Resolution 1325 on Women, Peace and Security. Through this resolution UNSC

has recognized that “gender perspectives and the special needs of women and girls must be incorporated in conflict management and peace-building at all levels”. This resolution was regarded “as a victory for the women’s movement and a culmination of decades of struggle” (CFD, 2003:1). The resolution expressed concern that particularly women and children as the vast majority are adversely affected by armed conflict and it was reaffirming women’s important role in peace-building and in prevention and resolution of conflicts. Therefore the resolution was urging member states to ensure women’s equal participation in all efforts for the promotion and maintenance of peace and security and to increase their role in decision-making in national, international and regional organizations regarding prevention and resolution of conflicts. The resolution was calling all parties to armed conflict to take special measures to protect women and girls from gender-based violence, particularly rape in armed conflict situations (UNSC, 2000). In 2004, the Commission on the Status of Women (CSW) made particular emphasis on trafficking of women and girls arising from armed conflict and in post-conflict situations. CSW called for the promotion of mainstreaming of a gender perspective in conflict resolution and in post-conflict peace-building. CSW stated that the implementation of peace agreements should be “pursued with explicit attention to women’s full and equal participation and the goal of gender equality” (2004).

There are NGOs that aim to empower women through active nonviolence. One of them, the International Fellowship of Reconciliation (IFOR)’s Women Peacemakers Program tries to achieve this goal by documenting and analysing women’s peace initiatives, countering the serious lack of information on women’s peace work and supporting the establishment of sustainable women networks. As reported by IFOR, in Bosnia women from various religious communities work together to promote reconciliation. In Colombia women work actively in communities that declared themselves

as peace zones where participation in the war is refused. In Sierra Leone and Liberia, before elections women strongly demanded disarmament. In Sri Lanka, women provide material aid and psychological healing for victims of violence. There are some organizations confronted with the challenge to involve men in peace work as well (Anderson, 2002b). An organization called the Sudanese Women's Voice for Peace promotes dialogue among different ethnic groups and guerrilla factions in Sudan. The organization has also established underground links between women in North and South Sudan (Anderson, 1999).

Mothers' and widows' activism in the field of peace has a special place in women's peace movement. One of the driving forces of mothers in partaking peace activities is their desire to learn the fate of their disappeared adult children or other family members. One other driving force is their attempt to prevent their children from being sent to war zones. For example in Guatemala, the organization called National Coordination of Guatemalan Widows campaigns against conscription of young men in order to impede them from socialization into army culture. One other underlying factor is that women are economically dependent on their sons (Anderson, 1999).

Many peace movements have not taken the issue of gender violence into their agenda or have not associated a gender perspective in their work since it is regarded as being solely a "women's issue". In fact "[t]he link between private gender violence and public violence of war are rooted in a mind set where domination, control and the belief in one group's superiority and another's inferiority are central. The thinking that gives rise to armed conflict has its roots in gender and the unequal power relationship between men and women" (Anderson, 2002b: 26). In conceptualisation of Galtung, "[t]o fight patriarchy means fighting patriarchal cultures and structures and arriving at a more equitable power-sharing between the genders" (1996: 5).

A common problem still remains as women's lack of access to political power and political decision-making. Accordingly some women organisations try to gain access to political power in order to implement their plans for peace and reconciliation. Gaining political power is perceived as a necessity also to transform political structures into more democratic forms that will serve indirectly peace activism (Anderson, 1999). For example, in Africa women are not included in peace negotiations since warring leaders are concerned from the fact that women are inclined to reconcile and compromise, as stated by one UN representative (Hunt and Posa, 2001).

There are various other roles that women play in peacemaking. As an example Ahmed Yusuf Farah informs that in Somaliland at the height of the civil war, women were the only means for communication between antagonist clans, as they were allowed to cross clan boundaries. Traditionally, women were exchanged to conclude a peace agreement. Offering a marriageable partner to the rival clan meant symbolic compensation for the loss of life in the case of bloodshed. As Farah asserts such traditions continue in Somaliland and these have strengthened some peace treaties, such did when two rival clans provided fifty eligible women for the other party (2001).

2.9. Multi Track Diplomacy as a Tool for Peacemaking and Conflict Resolution

Louise Diamond and McDonald who have been involved in programs also in Cyprus have developed the concept of multi track diplomacy by considering the concept of track two diplomacy no longer covered the scope, variety and depth of citizens' involvement in peacemaking and peace-building processes. It presumes that war is also a multi track attempt (1996). With the attempt to provide an entire picture, multi track diplomacy consists of nine different tracks, where all tracks are interdependent and interconnected with each other. Moreover each track plays a different role for the whole system.

Track one: Government (peacemaking through diplomacy)

This track includes the state, military, governmental and inter-governmental organisations. State is the primary unit of the international system and the legitimate tool of coercive power. Official diplomacy is bureaucratic and male dominated; it prioritises using power to solve short-term crises. Official secrecy, elitism, fear of dialogue and negotiation, and lack of skills for conflict resolution are primary characteristics of track one diplomacy (Davies and Kaufman, 2002). When the state is confronted with protracted social conflict, accommodation strategies are generally perceived as a sign of defeat. Commonly, the state prefers to use coercive repression in order to separate or divert the opposition (Azar, 2002).

Formal diplomats speak for and represent their governments. When they feel their personal opinions are in deep contradiction with official policy, they leave their jobs. The governments' isolation from the public leads to its mystification in the realm of expertise. Though, the expertise in the field of peace and conflict resolution lays outside the government community (Diamond and McDonald, 1996).

In Jan Van Eck's opinion track one diplomacy interveners aim at bringing an end to violent conflict in the quickest possible way that guarantees prime-time coverage on mainstream media; they do not have the time and mandate to establish durable peace. They force opposing parties to sign peace agreements regardless of their readiness. On the other hand track one players do not have the time to conduct an intensive conflict analysis like second track has (2001).

States are generally critical of unofficial problem-solving approach, since it is considered as necessitating a long period that is not able to stop war. Another critical point is the lack of agreement to end the war at the end of the process, that is an expected outcome of improved communication and relationship building (Paffenholz, 2001). In the

case of coercive official diplomacy where there is no plan for trying to reach a mutually agreed durable peace, track two diplomats cannot effectively play their role, or even worse they cannot play any role at all (Van Eck, 2001).

Track two: Nongovernmental/ professional (peacemaking through conflict resolution)

According to Diamond and McDonald's identification, track two diplomacy refers to "nongovernmental citizen interactions between parties to a conflict, often but not always with the presence and assistance of a third party". Not strategic interests, but basic human needs set the agenda (1996: 37). The track is dominated by males with few people of colour nevertheless the field grows with more women and young people involved as scholars and practitioners. The biggest concern of the field is scarcity of funding since donor agencies demand measurable results in a pre-defined time frame.

Kelman, having an extensive experience on the issue of Israeli-Palestinian conflict has worked in the pre-negotiation and early negotiation phases of the Oslo agreement. He and his colleagues were able for helping to establish the basis of the Oslo agreement by supporting the process with the development of the framework, ideas and political conditions conducive to moving to negotiations (Kelman, 2002).

Track three: Business (peacemaking through commerce)

The involvement of the business community in conflict resolution work poses a necessity since peacemaking efforts create more stable conditions for business operations. The assumption is that there cannot be successful business operations without the existence of peace. The business organisations that operate in the field of arms production or those sectors that directly or indirectly benefit from the existence of war should be excluded from this assumption.

With the rise of the concept of corporate social and environmental responsibility, the business community has the alternative to support schooling, health services, training

and development related activities. The international business community operating in countries where there is unrest or high risk of armed conflict can directly or indirectly carry messages and ideas between opposing parties. Diamond and McDonald argue “[t]he line between responsibility and profitability has been shifting over the last decade” and they recommend the business community to increase its consciousness on the critical role it can play in the field of conflict resolution (1996: 55-56). In other words, business community has to find the way to balance profitability with social responsibility.

There are cases where academic institutions cooperate with the business community by transferring their knowledge in the field of conflict management. As an example, University of Maryland’s Center for International Development and Conflict Management has helped the international business community to invest in local communities in order to ease the tension and reduce the possibility of instability that may be obstructing factor for their own activities (Davies and Kaufman, 2002). There are also cases where business people have a personal history with social activism that serves as a motivating factor to become involved in peace-building issues.

Jonas Moberg proposes five principles for corporate sector to engage in conflict prevention and resolution processes. First the leadership of the company needs to establish policies and guidelines in this field. Second the company should assess the impact of its activities and conflict-related risks. Third the corporate sector should engage in dialogue with key stakeholder groups. Fourth the business sector should establish transparent partnerships with other companies, the civil society and governmental organisations for collective action. Fifth the sector should be transparent in its transactions and should identify its success indicators for assessing its operations’ social, environmental and economic impacts (2004).

Track four: Private citizens (peacemaking through personal involvement)

This group represents organisations running exchange programs or development programs, advocacy groups, professional interest groups, voluntary organisations, democracy building institutions or individuals with no organisational connection. Representatives of this track are mostly from the middle class with the involvement of large number of women. These people possess an enthusiastic force for changing the community, its norms and ultimately the policies (Diamond and McDonald, 1996).

Among examples are organisations that train international groups on the techniques of nonviolent protest, institutes that run programs on conflict resolution in schools or organisations involved in disaster relief or refugee protection.

Track five: Research, training and education (peacemaking through learning)

This track includes a variety of research institutes, think-tanks, study programs and educational programs from kindergartens to Ph.D. programs. The academia and think-tanks are mainly male dominated, though more women are expected to be active in this field as the next generation professionals. Think-tanks are engaged in making research and analysis on particular conflicts. They share their analyses, strategic models and policy recommendations through meetings and publications or by joining television or radio programs. Representatives of think-tanks have often access to track one diplomacy giving them the advantage to inform and influence officials at decision-making levels. On the other hand academic institutions give more attention to the process of learning, developing methods and raising practical skills (Diamond and McDonald, 1996).

Carnegie Commission on Preventing Deadly Conflict, International Peace Research Institute of Oslo (PRIO), Initiative on Conflict Resolution and Ethnicity (INCORE) based in Northern Ireland and the International Peace Research Association based in Denmark are among track five organisations.

Track six: Activism (peacemaking through advocacy)

Peace movements between 1970 and 1985 were manifested in traditional ways using tools such as mass public demonstrations, whereas they took the form of civil disobedience as well. In the early 1980s peace movement actions renewed including political mobilisation and political pressure (Kriesberg, 1997).

Activism focuses on opposing to those actions and policies that are oppressive, immoral or harmful for peace, therefore it separates from citizens' diplomacy, whose focus is increase understanding. In this track, there are leading transnational organisations like Amnesty International and Human Rights Watch. The organisations or individuals engaged in this field are justice, value and nonviolence oriented. Representatives of the field conduct a continuous struggle against injustice, violence, cruelty and oppression, where they often exercise civil obedience and become arrested. They conduct activities on education, advocacy, organisation, support, witnessing and protests. They are easily labelled as being unpatriotic and they become harassed by the police, individuals and government officials, hence leading activist organisations have close ties with government officials and the media. Lack of power still remains as a challenging factor. One of the factors that makes the activism field a relevant partner in peacemaking efforts is its enormous knowledge in people's lives and needs at the grassroots level (Diamond and McDonald, 1996).

Track seven: Religion (peacemaking through faith in action)

This track represents different religious and spiritual faith groups that seek to bring moral laws of god for peace on earth. The significant characteristic of this track is its tremendous population where believers all around the world contribute to peace work. Various religious communities have the most extensive networks in conflict areas. For example, Christian churches and its denominations have networks of active members in

every corner of the world. The representatives of this group use public education, relief and development work, protests and behind-the-scenes discussions as tools for their cause (Diamond and McDonald, 1996).

Among examples of faith-based organisations are the Quakers' American Friends Service Committee and the Mennonite Central Committee, called as "peace churches" that have led NGOs in both development and implementation of conflict resolution work at the community level. Other faith-based organisations such as World Vision and Catholic Relief Services are taking major steps to review their roles in conflict mediation. Since some conflicts erupt because of religious divides, mobilising religious organisations in such conflicts for problem-solving work could be damaging (Natsios, 1997).

Track eight: Funding (peacemaking through providing resources)

The primary task of this track is to provide financial resources for peacemaking and conflict resolution work. In this field there are four different types of organisations. First large foundations, second smaller and progressive foundations, third individuals who provide funds independently, and finally foundations, that support operational programs instead of providing money. Security studies, area studies and public policy issues receive the majority of the funds. Some of the funders focus on projects to educate and influence decision makers. Progressive foundations prefer supporting activities in grassroots empowerment, activism and social justice. There are only a few donors that provide funding for peace education and media related issues. In this track, Hewlett Foundation stands out as a significant example, since thirteen universities in the US have received ongoing institutional support for developing theory and practice in the field of conflict resolution since 1984 (Diamond and McDonald, 1996).

There are three controversial issues in this track. First there is always a possibility that some of the funders are eager to use their power for ideological or other hidden

purposes. Second, some of the donors should have accumulated their wealth through business practices that exploited both the people and the environment. Third, the grant seeking organisations should possibly distort their planned activities according to donors' priorities in order to guarantee funding.

Track nine: Communications and the media (peacemaking through information)

Diamond and McDonald define this track as composed of three categories: news media, educational media and the electronic communications media. The first group represents the mainstream and alternative media, the second educational television, radio programs and publications on peace, and the third basically the Internet (1996). The upper-class male dominated mainstream media is inevitably not interested in presenting peace related issues as these issues are considered as news-unworthy. On the other hand the alternative media and independent producers are more creative, more courageous and more willing to get into controversial issues related with peace and conflict resolution. There is less competition in the alternative media as well.

This is the most troublesome track in the whole multi track system, since it possesses the power to distort and control the content it distributes to the world public, where hidden agendas may be the dominating factor in making decisions what to present in the media and what not. Hence alternative tools like civic journalism, peace journalism, alternative news media and educational media are continuously giving hope for the field.

Common Ground Productions which is the media division of the organisation called Search for Common Ground (SCG) creates innovative television, radio and Internet programs for the reduction and prevention of conflict. For example, SCG in Macedonia has worked with Sesame Workshop and produced a television programme for children called *Nashe Maalo* (Our Neighbourhood). The educational goals of the programme were to

teach children intercultural understanding, cultural awareness and conflict resolution skills (European Centre for Conflict Prevention, 2003).

The multi track system is widely used in conflict resolution research. There are organisations that use categorisations that include women, arts, sports, churches and reconciliation as separate tracks. Malvern Lumsden asserts that arts always has a social function in expressing the fears and hopes of the society, therefore artists should be encouraged for creating a culture of peace. For peace processes, arts have been used in the form of “art therapy, music therapy, dance therapy, drama therapy, poetry therapy, and psychodrama/sociodrama” (1999: 145). As an example of art’s contribution to reconciliation processes, poetry as the most celebrated and respected art in Somaliland has been used for the cause of peacemaking. In ceremonies, distinguished national poets recite their poems that advocate peace. As Farah states poetry has the power to influence people’s opinion, like the mass media has in the West (2001).

2.10. Two Concrete Examples of Track Two Diplomacy Efforts

2.10.1. Protracted Burundian conflict

Jan Van Eck, a white South African and a member of Parliament for the African National Congress (ANC) decided to retire from the Parliament to dedicate himself to the protracted Burundian conflict, in early 1996. He did not represent the interests of his government. The two NGOs the Center for Conflict Resolution of Cape Town and Search For Common Ground (SCG) supported the project by giving Van Eck the right to operate without any dictation. In the beginning Burundians had suspicion of foreigners who came “to help” them to resolve the conflict. In the first phase of intensive analysis taking more than twelve months he found out Burundians hesitated to move forward due to two reasons. First there was a complete breakdown in trust between opposing ethnic forces

stemming from past violent acts, broken promises and bad faith. Second there have been disastrous failures in previous attempts. Burundians have dehumanised one another to such a degree, it was so unrealistic to hope for their willingness to negotiate in good faith. When Van Eck introduced the negotiation principles, he received a hostile response. Moving further, the opposing parties chose to use the phrase “talks” instead of “negotiations”. The dialogue and discussions took place in private and in small groups in private settings. Having started trust building and re-humanisation steps the parties declared to “try” negotiations again. Once Burundians had overcome their initial fears and concerns and had developed a faith in the possibility of trust building and negotiation, it became their process. Key role players of opposing sides created an interim grand coalition government in order to ensure the cooperation of those with power and those who lost power. Because of this partnership, the government decided to return to the external negotiations under mediation of former Tanzanian president. Both internal and external peace processes continue today (Van Eck, 2001).

Van Eck notes that his “organic” approach to peacemaking created tension with him and first track diplomats. The approach of the latter party was to rush in a hurry to make the parties sign the agreement, since they already prepared the “solution” to the conflict and they knew the guilty ones. Van Eck’s knowledge on the real dynamics of the ground was far better and he tended to be less tolerant to regional and international track one role-players who might be applying the wrong solutions (2001).

2.10.2. Northern Ireland Conflict

Throughout the conflict, there have been a variety of track two initiatives that assisted the first track. Many of them focused on trying contact between politicians, between governments and the paramilitaries and between civic society and the governments. Indigenous mediators, as well as some outside actors conducted most of

these initiatives. In the early 1990s, the number of community initiatives increased significantly. These organisations were providing training on dialogue bringing people from all sections touching upon a variety of issues. In the beginning the academic community stayed distant to the constructive dialogue building processes. Then, academics of the University of Ulster took the initiative to facilitate developing a Northern Ireland Center in Brussels under the auspices of both parties and the business community. During the 1990s, academics took the initiative to organise workshops to make politicians meet to address issues of conflict resolution. A program called Initiative 92 asked local communities to express their opinions about ways for the future of Northern Ireland. Although condemned by most politicians, the initiative was successful in receiving over 500 submissions, holding public workshops, expanding ideas and eventually in developing the Opsahl Report, huge ideas book that has been very fruitful to generate the Belfast Agreement. In addition, churches—although they contributed little to dialogue processes—and the business community have been active in conflict resolution processes as well. In mid-1990s, there have been confidential workshops held between members of Protestant/Unionist clergy and Sinn Fein for several years. These workshops provided a useful context where Sinn Fein could address the real perceptions and fears of the Unionist community. The business community was a late comer but was effective in the peace process. Business leaders cooperated with each other and with trade unions in order to find ways to put pressure on paramilitaries to end the violence. They also encouraged all parties to the conflict to engage in political negotiations (Fitzduff, 2001).

According to Mari Fitzduff, without track two efforts, the blockage of dialogue between the government and paramilitaries would not have been broken. The creativity and courage of unofficial actors from the academia, business sector and the community developed exits for parties to meet each other away from the spotlight. Thus both track one

and track two actors have been very reluctant to accept the contribution of the other party in the peace process (2001).

2.11. The Problems and Needs of the Field of Track Two Diplomacy

It is not an easy task to demonstrate the success of efforts to prevent conflict, since each case is unique for itself. It is also a difficult task to quantify the change in attitudes and relations, thus donors demand systematic assessment and they are hesitant to support activities to promote peace.

Brand-Jacobsen makes an emphasis on one the problem areas of non-state peace efforts. According to him, those coming from the outside sometimes strengthen the systems that lay at the root causes of violence. This fact might be linked with state and outside funding, aiming to halt direct violence with an unwillingness to challenge deeper dynamics of war and violence, sometimes depending upon strategic interests of the donors (2004). Non-state actors aiming to mitigate violence could risk their trustworthiness by not focusing on the underlying structural and cultural factors of violence or by not taking account of the role their own countries played in wars.

Albert Schnabel in his analysis on non-state actors' contribution to peace processes argues NGOs focus on seeking quick results under pressure like governments do. While politicians have few years before next elections, many NGOs depend upon funds provided for periods often less than one year. In order to secure continuation of funding, NGOs need to show funders success stories. In addition, in some cases the success of some NGOs can be attained only when some governments and international organisations create the economic and social environment that allows NGOs to pursue their work. Schnabel also draws attention to those "irresponsible attention-getters" who search for success stories to impress the news media and donors, as well as those who pursue constant competition with other NGOs to become visible (2004).

Antonia Handler Chayes and Abram Chayes point out the failure of international community to integrate its efforts into a consistent policy in the intervention into post-Cold War conflicts. Since resources are scarce to deal with conflicts and as conflicts of the new era are too complex and fast moving, it is suggested to set radical decentralisation with clear direction for cooperation. INGOs and inter-governmental organisations have recently begun to dedicate energy to formulate detailed strategy to execute broad goals. Most of them have recently acknowledged the necessity to ask for help where the capacity is already built. The lack of long-term planning is also linked with inadequate financial resources (1998).

Diamond and McDonald draw the attention to the difficulty to determine the effectiveness of peacemaking efforts as well. They argue the system of multi track diplomacy operates in the dark with the hope that integrated efforts will have lasting effects. A related problem area is funding agencies' insistence on gaining measurable results in a specific time frame with a durable outcome. As stressed earlier, most of the time it is impossible to prove concrete results of conflict resolution work (1996).

In general, for the improvement of the field, scholar-practitioners of the field call for:

...adequate preparation and training but also transparency, integrity, self-awareness, long-term commitment (to goals, projects, partners), respect for other cultures, openness to partnership with other professionals, continuous learning and personal transformation, supporting and empowering others, adaptability in integrating knowledge from different cultures and continuous evaluation of one's work (Davies and Kaufman, 2002: 10).

The problem-solving approach as one of the tools for unofficial diplomacy is at an early phase of development and it needs extensive evaluation, well-trained scholar-practitioners, professionalism, well-defined principles and standards of practice.

The field needs the embodiment of ethnic, gender and age diversity. There is a serious gap between male dominated conflict resolution circles and women's peace initiatives. Western oriented third party interveners must secure the involvement of local

peace-builders in their facilitation and training programs. Young people who are regarded as passive citizens in social issues should be included in each step of problem-solving and at all levels of conflict resolution efforts.

Multiple efforts must be well coordinated so that they do not undermine or duplicate each other. On a broader level, official and unofficial diplomats need to cooperate by acknowledging each other's legitimate roles. After all, result oriented and successful peacemaking is the outcome of a number of coordinated activities undertaken by governmental and non-governmental actors that work at all levels of society. As Kriesberg notes, multiple intermediary efforts can impede de-escalation when too many uncoordinated efforts disseminate various messages to opposing parties regarding the future of the conflict. He proposes that in large-scale conflicts intermediaries have to act in coordination in order to be effective (1997). For example, African governments make the complaint that NGOs working in close geographical proximity undertake activities that are in conflict with each other. This situation causes severe problems in local communities (Natsios, 1997). Schnabel claims that the lack of coordination between NGOs makes governments and international organisations hard to deal with them who prefer to ally with organisations that possess transparent and hierarchical structures (2004).

Jos Havermans draws the attention to amateurs in the field that might cause damage by not acknowledging their limitations. It is inevitable that some people serving as civil diplomats may lack knowledge and background of a conflict; hence realising flaws and shortages is necessary to prevent possible negative effects on the process. Experience has proven that private peacemakers need to be fully informed on the history of the conflict and the entailing issues. They should also be aware of the potential risk or threats to those invited to participate. Another problem area according to Havermans is second track diplomats' vulnerability to manipulations. Some parties to a conflict may seem to be

willing to compromise and open contacts with unofficial mediators in order to gain time to increase their military position (1999).

The fact that there are many different persons or groups to engage in mediation activities may mean that they interfere with each other instead of complementing each other. In addition, there is always the possibility of applying an inappropriate strategy or application of a strategy by an inappropriate person or group (Kriesberg, 1996).

3. Background Information on Chosen Conflicts

“There is, at present, more literature on the destructive effects of war and other extreme trauma than on the positive means of reconstructing a peaceful society” (Lumsden, 1999: 137).

3.1. Conflict between Turkey and Greece

The conflict between Greece and Turkey dates back to the emergence of modern Greece in 1830 following the Greek war for independence between 1821-1829, and the formation of modern Turkey in 1923 after the collapse of the Ottoman Empire. Since 1930, when Greek Prime Minister Venizelos signed a “Friendship, Neutrality, Reconciliation and Arbitration Pact” with Turkey (Aydıntaşbaş, 2004), the two countries negotiated and signed many treaties and agreements as well as came to brink of war in 1974 over the Cyprus issue. Except the 1974 case, Turkey and Greece were able to avoid war with the crucial advantage of two countries’ NATO membership that helps to enforce stability and allows preserving peace. However the long-lengthiness of Turkish-Greek relations has not been able to foster a long-lasting settlement between these two neighbour countries (Volkan, 1997). Yet a series of expected and unexpected incidents that emerged in 1999 have contributed to acceleration in betterment of relations between the two neighbour countries at the political as well as societal level.

Volkan argues, in order to reach the goal of an independent nation-state, the Greeks had to accomplish three tasks: fighting against the declining Ottoman empire for their independence; reclaiming members of their ethnic group in former and remaining soil of the empire; and creating a culturally homogenous society. For the maintenance of Hellenism, a shared psychological mechanism was needed, that was the total externalisation of unwanted aspects of togetherness of Greeks and Turks that signifies the period of 1453-1830. “Greeks had to rid themselves of the Turk *within* that had been formed during the time of togetherness” (Volkan, 1997: 123).

Apart from the conflict over Cyprus, the issue that divide Greece and Turkey involve the delimitation of the continental shelf in the Aegean Sea, issues of air space and territorial waters, the disputed interpretation of treaty restrictions on the militarisation of certain Greek islands, and the condition of the Greek minority mainly in Istanbul and Turkish minority mainly in western Thrace.

Both nations have existed in frequent conflict with each other that has been used “as a way to strengthen their respective national identities by constantly carving a convenient image of ‘other’ as a way to bolster hatred, distrust, and antagonism against one another” (Kirişçi and Çarkoğlu, 2004: 36). The distrust was aggravated with Greece’s pursuit of union with Cyprus, Turkey’s ambitions for the division of the island and indecent riots against the Greek community in Istanbul in 1955.

In 1976 and 1987, there have been crises over the Aegean continental shelf. Following the crises, government leaders of both countries took steps to engage in dialogue that resulted with signing memoranda of understanding on disputes (Rumelili, 2004b). These two crises led to discussions and agreements on the issues of flight control and delimitation of the continental shelf, cooperation in trade, tourism and communications, respect for each other’s territorial integrity and sovereignty (Rumelili, 2004a).

In 1992, high-level meetings were held on various occasions between prime ministers of both countries. Within this framework, an “Agreement of Friendship, Good Neighborliness and Cooperation” was decided for signature between Turkey and Greece. Though, the Cyprus issue appeared as a barrier to the signing of this agreement (Turkish Embassy, 2005).

In 1996, the relation between Turkey and Greece became threatened by the dispute over the islets of Kardak/Imia, a conflict instigated by both countries’ media and soon backed by both governments. These islets are one of those isles, islets and rocks—unknown to many people—located in the Aegean Sea that cannot preserve human habitation and whose status is not delimited by the territorial waters of neither Turkey nor Greece. The role played by the US government contributed to the prevention of a militarised confrontation between two countries. In 1997 through the Madrid Declaration both states agreed not to use violence and act unilaterally (Rumelili, 2004a).

The relations became highly strained in February 1999, when PKK leader Abdullah Öcalan was captured in Kenya carrying a Cypriot passport sheltered by the Greek Embassy. The devastating Marmara earthquake and the following Athens earthquake of 1999 were certain factors to mitigate the conflict and to serve for the reconciliation between the two nations. The ice-melting effects of the misfortunate earthquake disasters and following diplomatic steps have been called by some scholars as ‘seismic’ or ‘earthquake diplomacy’. The favourable climate has encouraged the leadership of both countries particularly foreign ministers İsmail Cem and George Papandreou to establish friendly relations. In fact the two foreign ministers had already taken steps to cooperate on various issues⁸ prior to earthquakes. With this attempt for rapprochement Papandreou and

⁸ The two foreign ministers who met in New York on 30 June 1999 decided to cooperate in tourism, environment, culture and trade and to fight against organized crime, drug trafficking, illegal migration and terrorism. They have used earthquakes as an indispensable opportunity to break mutual distrust and foster

Cem have in a way risked their future political life. Following talks, a Greek-Turkish Steering Committee was established that convenes once in a year, as do six working groups comprising delegates from the relevant ministries, headed by foreign ministry officials (Greece MFA, 2005).

At this time frame, US was in full support for the improvement of Greek-Turkish bilateral relations due to NATO interventions, as summarised by US President Bill Clinton:

In order for our two NATO allies, Greece and Turkey, to be full partners in the European Union, bilateral relationships must improve. In order for southeastern Europe to overcome the Balkan wars in Bosnia and Kosovo, and the legacy of communism in the other states of the southeast, the nations of the region must draw closer to each other, and then together draw closer to the new Europe (The White House, 1999).

When Helsinki European Council has designated Turkey as a candidate country in December 1999, rapprochement between two countries turned indispensable. According to Helsinki Council decision, Turkey has pledged to resolve its outstanding disputes over borders and to bring these issues to the International Court of Justice (ICJ) in case of failure in dispute resolution (Rumelili, 2004b).

The year 1999 significant with its ups and downs in Turkish-Greek relations and subsequent years have seen many other developments. With confidence building measures (CBM) within the framework of NATO, two countries have pledged to reduce military exercises as well as to exchange information on the matter. Papandreou's official visit to Turkey in year 2000 has been the first in the last 38 years. Since then, exchange of official visits has become a ritual (Rumelili, 2004b).

In October 2000, the dogfight incidents between Turkish and Greek fighter jets resulted with Greece's withdrawal from NATO's Destined Glory exercises. Also in May and June 2003, the tension between two countries heightened when Turkish fighter jets

conditions of openness (Akıncı, 2002). Though, many of these agreements need to be put into implementation (Rumelili, 2004b).

were alleged to have harassed Greek jets and a passenger plane (Rumelili, 2004b). But none of these issues have carried bilateral relations to the degree of Kardak/Imia islets crisis, since probably media in both countries has transformed its attitude after 1999.

In 2003, the two foreign ministers reviewed the progress made in cooperation between the two countries and the implementation of bilateral agreements. Towards the end of 2003, bilateral ‘Agreement On The Avoidance Of Double Taxation’ was signed by concerning ministries (Greece MFA, 2005). Since 2002, over thirty secret negotiations have been undertaken between the two foreign ministries (Rumelili, 2004b). In mid-2004 prime ministers of both countries held official talks by confirming bilateral relations will not be affected by the Cyprus issue. Turkish Prime Minister Tayyip Erdoğan made the promise that the Halki Seminary in Istanbul will soon reopen. Both prime ministers also confirmed that talks aimed at delineating Aegean continental shelf would continue and the issue would be taken to ICJ only if both countries have already come to an agreement (EUBorderConf, 2004).

Having a general look at relations between Turkey and Greece, Cyprus issue had been a major source of conflict between the two countries. Though today, Greek-Turkish relations are considered as being at a turning point particularly due to Turkey’s EU accession process, as asserted by many scholars. Both parties have succeeded to a large extent to focus on reconciliation by secluding the Cyprus problem. Nevertheless, resolving the Cyprus conflict would invigorate the dialogue that has already started (Kirişçi and Çarkoğlu, 2004).

The role of EU has been more general for Turkish-Greek relations while the US has focused more on crisis prevention and de-escalation. The EU demands from candidate countries to resolve bilateral disputes with members and other candidate countries as well as to improve their confidence in international relations. Greece’s decision to join the

European Monetary Union has necessitated decreasing its defence expenditures that encouraged Greek leadership to improve relations with Turkey. Another development has been recorded when G. Papandreou asserted that Turkish minority in western Thrace had been wrongly treated (Kirişçi and Çarkoğlu, 2004).

As a last remark on Greek-Turkish relations, the bright light of reconciliation between the two countries highly encouraged and accelerated by Turkey's EU accession process should not be too dazzling since state of relations between Turkey and Greece and emotional state of both societies towards each other are still too fragile. Also, the unpredictability of the media's reaction in crisis situations in both countries' is a factor worth to be taken into consideration in the long-term process of rapprochement. The inclination of political leaders to use Turkish-Greek relations from time to time in internal affairs can also be a threatening factor. As expressed by Hercules Millas "due to its fragile structure, the relations [between Turkey and Greece] can go backwards even in a little crisis" (2000). After all, making the statement "let us forget the past and head for the future" does not secure a stable peace since both societies have to reconcile their past.

3.2. Cyprus Conflict

Conflict resolution scholar-practitioners define Cyprus conflict as an intractable, identity-based (Fisher, 2001) and protracted ethno-nationalist conflict (Anastasiou, 2002; Broome, 2004) that has been keeping the international community busy for over forty years. A considerable amount of time, energy and financial resources have been allocated by formal mediation mainly by the UN as well as unofficial third party organizations for producing a settlement and establishing the conditions for a durable peace in this eastern Mediterranean island.

In 1960, Cyprus gained its independence after the island passed its sovereignty from Turkey to UK following the Lausanne Treaty of 1923. Prior, the Greek Cypriot (GC)

community started to establish intentions to unite with Greece (*enosis*) that transformed into guerrilla warfare with the formation of the National Organization of Cypriot Fighters (EOKA). Following loss of lives of many, the Turkish Cypriots (TC) felt alienated and they responded to *enosis* with the ambition for partition into two separate communities (*taksim*). The TCs formed the Turkish Defence Organization (TMT) that had limited inter-communal fighting until there was a ceasefire in 1958 (Fisher, 2001).

Prior to independence the TCs lived widely dispersed in the island, both in separate and mixed villages. As stressed by Fisher, social relations between two communities were usually harmonious, though when it came to intermarriage the religious borders were drawn. During the 1963-1974 period the dispersion of TCs transformed into formation of enclaves. Between 1963-1970 about 25.000 TCs and 500 GCs became uprooted and displaced (2001). The TC enclaves represented three per cent of the island's territory (Akgün, et al., 2005).

The constitution of 1960 gave TCs a representation level at 30% to 40% in the chambers, cabinet, public services, police and the army. The first president was a GC (Archbishop Makarios), while the vice president was a TC (Fazıl Küçük) as the leader of TC community. Later GCs proposed amendments to the constitution what would reduce the representation and autonomy of TCs. TCs' and Turkey's rejection of the amendments caused the eruption of inter-communal violence. The intensification of violence caused the involvement of UN that established the UN Peacekeeping Force in Cyprus (UNFICYP) in March 1964 (Fisher, 2001). Initially planned for three months, UNFICYP still remains on the island as UN's longest peacekeeping mission (Asmussen, 2004).

In 1974 the situation worsened caused by the Athens triggered coup against Makarios. The fighting between left-wing supporters of Makarios and coupists followed attacks on TC villages and enclaves (Fisher, 2001). This situation caused Turkey to

intervene militarily by emphasizing its right according to 1960 Treaty of Guarantee. Turkey sent troops to the island proceeding the partition in Cyprus (Asmussen, 2004). The ceasefire initiated by the UN created the still remaining ‘Green Line’ across the entire island going through the capital city Nicosia dividing the north and south of the island. Following the ceasefire 162.000 GCs moved from the north to the south and 43.000 TCs living in south moved to north (Akgün, et al., 2005), creating an immense refuge problem. The transfer of both populations resulted with the change of demographic map of the island into two separated communities.

In 1975 the TC community declared itself as the Turkish Federated State of Cyprus, Rauf Denktaş becoming its leader. On the other hand, the GC community received international recognition as Republic of Cyprus. GCs were able to secure an economic embargo, and political and cultural restrictions on TCs. In 1983 the TC administration declared independence as the Turkish Republic of Northern Cyprus (TRNC), recognized only by Turkey (Fisher, 2001). According to Ahmet Sözen, GC leader Spiros Kyprianou’s resistance to talk to Denktaş in negotiations perceiving it as accepting him as an equal, gave TCs the necessary pretext to declare TRNC (2004). The declaration was soon condemned by the UNSC. The non-recognition by the international community was caused by the objection to expulsion of thousands of GCs. As a result, north Cyprus has been subject to international embargoes⁹ (Asmussen, 2004).

In 1990, the GC administration made an application to join the EU, causing further alienation of TCs. When EU accession talks began with the Republic of Cyprus government, TRNC entered into an association agreement for greater economic and military integration with Turkey. Following incidents have led Turkey to station approximately 30.000 troops in the north patrolled by the UNFICYP (Fisher, 2001). In

⁹ Greek Cypriots’ per capita income is more than three times that of Turkish Cypriots partly due to the difficulties caused by the unrecognized status of TRNC (Broome, 2004).

1994, European Court of Justice ruled that direct trade between north Cyprus and EU was illegal (BBC News, 2004). In August 1996, the tension heightened due to violent events in the buffer zone. GC bikers broke through the barricades of UN peacekeeping soldiers and invaded the buffer zone to get into the north. During this and following events two GCs were killed which soon caused a communal protest and demonstrations in the south (Wolleh, 2001). In December 1997, TC administration blocked issuing permissions at the Ledra Palace checkpoint due to Luxembourg European Council's decision to leave Turkey out of EU candidates list and to include Republic of Cyprus in the enlargement process. The freeze of contacts was lifted after Helsinki European Council's decision to designate Turkey as a candidate country in December 1999 (Cockburn, 2004).

On 21 April 2003, the restrictions on the freedom of movement were partially raised, that allowed ordinary citizens to cross the buffer zone for visits, meetings and face-to-face communication¹⁰ (Broome, 2004). This unexpected step taken by TC authorities was interpreted by some circles as highly linked with Republic of Cyprus's accession to the EU, since only one week ago Cyprus signed the accession agreement with the EU in Athens. The fact that since 1964 two communities have barely had direct and inter-personal contact and interaction, the ease of freedom of movement in 2003 created a vast opportunity for inter-communal communication that is free from the negative influence of the mass media and politics.

The history of mediation and negotiation efforts shapes another path that went throughout the history of the conflict. Cyprus conflict is the "oldest item continuously on the [UN] Secretary General's peacemaking agenda" (UNSC, 2003) and UN's most extensive failure in international diplomacy. The Eden Plan against the guerrilla campaign of EOKA, the Harding Plan offering majority self-government with minority rights for

¹⁰ Within three days around 17.000 people crossed the green line (BBC News, 2004) and in the first three weeks 350.000 crossings were recorded (Cockburn, 2004).

TCs, the British Macmillan Plan for a bi-communal constitution and separate municipalities, the Zurich-London accords imposing a power-sharing constitution and excluding *enosis* and *taksim* appear as proofs of inability of power mediation during the 1955-1960 period (Fisher, 2001).

The 1964-1974 period representing inter-communal violence, attempts of mediation generally failed. According to Sözen, US and UK perceived the Cyprus question as a serious issue that must be taken under control before it undermines relations between Turkey and Greece as two NATO allies. The US sponsored mediation attempt in 1963 and the UK sponsored London Conference both failed (2004). The stationing of UN peacekeeping forces was followed by the Acheson Plan initiated by the US, which was also rejected. The heightening of violence in 1967 and worsening of relations between Turkey and Greece led to the mediation of US envoy Cyrus Vance. As a result around 12.000 troops were removed and economic blockade of TC enclaves was terminated.

Throughout 1968-1974 period there have been several inter-communal talks organized by the UN. Local political resistance, outside interference (Fisher, 2001), lack of willingness to cooperate with each other, TCs' position to maintain regional autonomy in their enclaves and GCs position to maintain total control of the government (Sözen, 2004) were major aspects of this period.

In the post-1974 period the federal model instead of a unitary-state or power-sharing arrangement became more applicable. The conferences in Geneva in 1974 attended by guarantor powers¹¹ and following Vienna talks held in 1975-76 are major steps taken to bring peace to Cyprus. In 1977 the TC leader Denktaş and GC leader Makarios started meeting under UN auspices resulting with the document called Four Guidelines. The first item suggested an independent, non-aligned, bi-communal federal republic. Other points

¹¹ UK, Turkey and Greece.

were on territorial issues; freedoms of movement, settlement and ownership; and a central federal government.

The following initiative coming from US envoy Clark Clifford drove to negotiations on federal arrangements. The issue of division of powers resulted with negotiations' failure. Another attempt, called the ABC plan proposed by US and supported by UK and Canada was concerning a set of principles on the constitution and adjustments of the territories. Both parties rejected the plan since the negotiation setting transformed into power mediation (Fisher, 2001).

In 1979 the attempt of UN for talks between two leaders, Denktaş and Kyprianou was able to engender the 'Ten Point Agreement' that laid the foundation for resuming inter-communal talks. In spite of the positive atmosphere that emerged with the agreement, the restart of negotiations with the support of UN representative Javier Perez De Cuellar did not run positively since parties disagreed on the priority and order of agreement items. In 1980, the talks resumed with the assistance of UN representative Hugo Gobbi; and in 1982 UN Secretary General Kurt Waldheim presented an evaluation paper called the Interim Agreement shaping the points of coincidence and divergence of both parties' positions. De Cuellar becoming the UN Secretary General proposed zones of compromise on major issues. This period coincided with declaration of independence of TRNC that furthered the intractability of the conflict. Following a set of proximity talks between two parties, De Cuellar produced the 'Draft Framework Agreement' and organized a high-level meeting in New York, in 1985. Denktaş accepted the document, while Kyprianou would endorse it as a basis for further negotiations. A different version of document presented to parties led this time to GCs' acceptance and TCs' refusal. Later on, a further draft agreement presented in 1986 was accepted by TCs and Turkey and rejected by GCs.

Negotiations did not start until 1988. Both sides developed papers on subject matters of most concern to them that helped UN mediators Oscar Camilion and Gustave Feissel to produce a draft agreement. In 1990, a high-level meeting in New York led to an impasse where the UN Secretary General was expecting an agreement. In 1992, the ‘Set of Ideas’ further developed by the UN was forwarded to parties by the new UN Secretary General Boutros Boutros-Ghali. Towards the end of 1992, the GCs accepted the document as the basis for an overall framework agreement, while TCs rejected approximately 10% of it demanding two sovereign states in the federation instead of one single sovereignty in the federation. Other issues of concern were the return of GC population and the territorial adjustments.

During 1993-1995 the UN initiated ‘Confidence Building Measures’ (CBM) to focus on substantive matters. The fifteen CBMs were focusing on issues of water problem, education, joint cultural and sports events, journalists, chambers of commerce and industry, international assistance, health and environment, electricity, fenced area of Varosia/Maraş, mixed village of Pyla, buffer zone in Nicosia, Nicosia Airport, extending the unmanning agreement and periodical meetings for further measures. The result of the measures was negative.

The impasse was not broken until mid-1997, with a series of negotiations between both leaders Denktaş and Glafcos Clerides initiated by the new UN Secretary General Kofi Annan and strong US and UK support. The talks were stalemated due to TCs protest against EU’s decision to begin accession talks with the Republic of Cyprus. In late 1999, proximity talks resumed with the guidance of Annan and his special adviser for Cyprus Alvaro De Soto.

In 2002, the EU enlargement calendar urged UN to generate a comprehensive solution. It became clear that prior to Republic of Cyprus’s official membership of EU on 1

May 2004, a negotiated solution proved essential. The proposed solution known as the Annan Plan¹² has been the most detailed and extensive solution plan ever produced on the Cyprus issue. The plan included all principles and agreements met by the two parties, filling in all the gaps. (Sözen, 2004). The plan was presented to both parties and the guarantor powers and was revised five times before it came to public vote on 24 April 2004. The plan was proposing a United Cyprus Republic that would join the EU as a federal state. The referenda resulted with GCs' rejection of the plan with 75, 8% in contrast with TCs' approval with 64,9%, signifying the failure of the Annan Plan (Asmussen, 2004). On 1 May 2004 Cyprus took its place as one of the new ten member states to join the EU, but as a divided island.

Fair division of resources and land, the rights of investment in property, land and enterprise, the return of displaced populations or their compensation, the structure of the administration and the distribution of powers in a confederal or federal state remain the items on the negotiation agenda (Cockburn, 2004). In having a general look at the conflict it becomes clear that:

...deep rooted intercommunal mistrust has contributed significantly to failure and impasse,... the shifting balance of power has been exploited at different times by each side, only to see their more strident approach countered by greater resistance from the other,... when one side accepted the UN proposals, the other side would balk... [w]hen modifications were made to redress the concerns, the first party would now remove its acceptance, even though the substance had changed little. Such failures and frustrations in negotiations then become additional issues in the conflict, enabling the parties yet again to blame the other side, adding to escalation and intractability,... neither community in Cyprus has wanted a compromise settlement, but has viewed mediation as a way of pursuing their initial (and incompatible) objectives (Fisher, 2001: 322).

The inapplicability and inappropriateness of traditional mediation in escalating identity-based conflicts is emphasised by scholar-practitioners of peace and conflict resolution as is relevant for Cyprus conflict.

¹² Original title of the plan is 'Basis for Agreement on a Comprehensive Settlement of the Cyprus Problem'

3.3. Conflict between Turkey and Armenia

“The lack of independent and sovereign experience to conduct foreign policy” for South Caucasus countries “has made the foreign policy formulation process a task reliant on factors such as historical experience, perceptions of other actors’ intentions, domestic constraints and to some extent geopolitical realities” as in the case of Armenia’ relations with its western neighbour Turkey. When Armenia declared its independence in 1991, Armenian leadership was eager to establish diplomatic relations with Turkey “to counterbalance the Russian influence as well as to obtain an outlet towards the West for the infant republic” (Kotchikian, 2005: 3).

The dispute between Armenia and Turkey as two sovereign states dates back to year 1993 when Turkey closed its border with Armenia for traffic due to Armenian-Azerbaijani territorial dispute over Nagorno-Karabakh. The source of conflict between the two countries is not limited to the issues of Nagorno-Karabakh and the current state of the closed border. Particularly, the events of 1915 being refused by Turkey to be recognised as genocide renders the relations between the two countries come to a stalemate. In addition, Turkey’s solidarity with Azerbaijan and the pressure and rigid stance of the Armenian Diaspora and its influence on Armenia’s foreign policy, and hardliners on both sides expose other factors to play crucial roles in the relation between the two countries.

Turkey was one of the first countries to recognize Armenian independence in 1991 signalling that it was open to cooperate with the new republic. In 1992 Turkish government forwarded a set of preconditions for normalisation of relations with Armenia. These were; first Armenia’s relinquishment of territorial claims from Turkey, second Armenia’s abandonment of campaign to force Turkey to acknowledge the genocide, and third withdrawal of Armenian troops from occupied territory of Azerbaijan—Nagorno-Karabakh (Kotchikian, 2005).

The first Armenian president Levon Ter-Petrossian supported the idea that Armenia needed to have good relations with Turkey, since the landlocked country needed an exit through Turkey; and it was in the interest of Armenia economically as well as politically to have good relations with its western neighbour. Soon this policy was refuted by nationalist-wing Armenians with the pretext of Turkey's status of still being a genocidal power. The then Turkish President Turgut Özal asserted that if there were no achievement on the Nagorno-Karabakh conflict, there would be a blockade. The following incident was Turkey's announcement for the cease of delivery of wheat—as food aid to Armenia—through Turkey unless Armenian government agreed to Turkish government's demands. In 1993, the border between the two countries became closed, which remains closed until today (Kotchikian, 2005)

As an influential party to the conflict, the Armenian Diaspora opposes the opening of the border besides nationalists in Armenia and Turkey as well as Azerbaijan. Dashnaksutyun Party (Armenian Revolutionary Federation, ARF) as one of the members in the Armenian coalition government has maintained a campaign to keep the border closed by claiming that cross-border trade would undermine Armenian manufacturers and business people who will have to compete with inexpensive Turkish products. Their second argument is that normalisation of bilateral relations between the two countries would make Turkey's recognition of genocide impossible (Danielyan, 2005). Dashnaksutyun's concerns on the open border are not shared by the President Robert Kocharian and the two other parties in the coalition government (Markarian, 2004).

Armenian Diaspora perceives any agreement between Turkey and Armenia with doubts since it demands Turkey's recognition of the events of 1915 as genocide to start bilateral relations. Asbed Kotchikian describes the main dilemma that Armenia's foreign policy faces is “how to balance Realpolitik with the wishes and demands of the Diaspora

and those of the nationalists in Armenia, which contributes in no small degree to the various economic and social development plans and projects in the republic” (2005: 6-7). He claims that opening of the border could diminish Armenia’s dependence on Russia and Georgia¹³, as well as weaken the view that Armenia “should rely on Russia to ‘protect’ it from Turkey” (2005: 11).

Relations between Turkey and Azerbaijan in general have been on the scale of trying to ease tension between Armenia and Azerbaijan on the part of Turkey and Azerbaijan’s unwavering opposition to the idea of opening border between Turkey and Armenia. In 1997, Turkish government gave the signal that it wanted to open the border with the aim first to ease the tension over the Nagorno-Karabakh issue and second to increase direct trade between Turkey and Armenia (Özalp, 1997). This was strongly opposed by Azerbaijan, as it would do in Turkey’s future statements to normalise relations with Armenia. In Azerbaijan, the possibility of a Turkish-Armenian rapprochement raises concerns since the country is worried about weakening its position in the search for a political settlement of the dispute over Nagorno-Karabakh (Peuch, 2003).

In contrast to Azerbaijani position, the business people in Turkey besides local authorities of cities bordered with Armenia have sought and lobbied for the opening of the border and the consequent lifting of the blockade. According to the argument of business circles, the existing export infrastructures—roads and railways—of Turkey are going through Armenia that connect Turkey with the former Soviet world. A further assertion is that renovation of Kars- Gyumri [Armenia]- Tbilisi [Georgia] railway would be beneficial and economically viable (Peuch, 2003).

¹³ Currently Georgia plays the important role as a transit country between Turkey and Armenia. Over 90% of Armenia’s external trade is carried out through Georgia. In 2004, Armenian Minister of Transport and Communications made the statement that they would like to get rid of Georgia’s monopolist status in railway communication and the disproportionately high transit fees charged by Tbilisi (Markarian, 2004). The obligatory passage through Georgia means a substantial cost for Turkish merchants as well (Gültekin, 2002). Goods are also exchanged through Iran.

The US had an active role in the attempt of convincing Turkey to open up the border with Armenia as well. In 2003, US put a pressure on Turkey to open the border with reassurance that the issue of genocide recognition would not be going away. US officials asserted that Turkey's economy would be stimulated and its position in the region strengthened. Turkish Foreign Minister Abdullah Gül was reassured by US officials that Armenians have never had territorial claims. However, due to US administration's preoccupation with Iraq, its pressure on Turkish government to open the border weakened (Phillips, 2005).

There have been several other developments. In January 2002, visa requirements have been made simpler for Armenian citizens who want to enter Turkey by plane. This decision was presented by the Turkish Ministry of Foreign Affairs as a sign of good intention taking into account the humanitarian considerations (Gültekin, 2002). In June 2002, the Armenian Foreign Minister visited Turkey to attend the Black Sea Co-operation Council¹⁴ in Istanbul. In October 2003, charter flights by a Turkish company started from Istanbul to Yerevan¹⁵.

In January 2004, Turkish Prime Minister Erdoğan stated that his government might decide to reopen the border if Turkey's initiatives are reciprocal. He asserted that those regions of Turkey bordered with Armenia would like to have the border open in order to make trade with Armenia (Agayev, 2004).

In February 2004, Turkish Minister of Communications stated that the restart of railway transportation between Armenia and Turkey would be beneficial for eastern Anatolian economy. In June 2004, at the NATO Summit in Istanbul, foreign ministers of Turkey, Armenia and Azerbaijan held a trilateral meeting for the first time.

¹⁴ The Council was established in 1993 when Turkey invited Georgia, Azerbaijan and Armenia as founding members.

¹⁵ Armenian Airlines already makes flights to Turkey.

As for the EU's stance, its *2004 Regular Report on Turkey's Progress Towards Accession* states that "there seems to be rising public awareness of the benefits of reopening the border and preparations for enabling goods" and "the existing dialogue between Turkish, Azeri and Armenian authorities is a positive step to pave the way to a solution". The report expresses that "Turkey should ... continue to promote stability and security in its region" (154-155). It is believed, when formal EU membership talks start in September 2005, there will be a time point during negotiations that Turkey will shake hands with the Armenians (TDN, 2004), since the "European strategy"¹⁶ for developing an area of good 'neighbourliness' has been based on cross-border cooperation" (Gültekin, 2004).

The important elements that thwart dialogue between Turkey and Armenia are the deep-rooted prejudice and both sides' misperception of each other. The perception about the other side has been passed from generation to the next that rendered the conflict become intractable and protracted. Through time, this perception became embedded in social and cultural institutions and practices.

In 2005, a research on 'Armenian and Turkish Citizens' Mutual Perceptions and Dialogue' has been concluded¹⁷. Its report reveals that the majority of Armenians perceive the genocide issue as the main obstacle to normalisation of relations between Turkey, while Turkish people consider obstacles in diverse issues from history to Armenians' claims for the genocide, from territorial issues to religious differences, from prejudices to foreign powers and politics and Armenia's territorial claims from Azerbaijan. Another

¹⁶ In June 2004, Armenia, Azerbaijan and Georgia have been included European Neighbourhood Policy (ENP). The ENP is "defined as the response to both challenges and opportunities of enlargement aiming at reframing and strengthening relations with those who find themselves on the external land and sea border of the Union... [It] recognizes the need to foster cooperation both at the European Union external border and among partner countries" (Gültekin, 2004).

¹⁷ The research was undertaken by the Turkish Economic and Social Studies Foundation (TESEV) and Sociological and Marketing Research Center of Armenia (HASA). The fieldwork has been conducted through interviews with 1.219 people from Turkey and 1.000 from Armenia, all from different regions and provinces of both countries. The report and the findings of the research can be found at www.tesev.org.tr.

striking element of the research is that the majority of both societies approves the opening of the border, along the establishment of diplomatic relations and the development of economic collaboration between the two countries. As a final point, the majority of both societies consider diplomatic relations to be most emphasized for developing relations between the two countries to their advantage (Kentel and Poghosyan, 2005).

4. Second Track Diplomacy Efforts

“As a field, conflict management is in the early stages of its development, but we cannot wait for increased theoretical sophistication before we attempt to contribute to peace-building efforts. We must research our approach at the same time as we apply it” (Azar, 2002: 30).

4.1. Women’s Peace Initiative (WINPEACE)

When the Kardak/Imia crisis erupted, Margarita Papandreou¹⁸ from Greece and Zeynep Oral¹⁹ from Turkey made the initiative to assemble women organisations from Turkey and Greece in 1997. The common point of Turkish and Greek women organisations was their opposition to inequality between men and women, where women are put in a disadvantaged position in the society, excluded in decision making processes, marginalized and subject to oppression and exploitation (WINPEACE, 2005).

Thereby, the Women’s Peace Initiative (WINPEACE) has been started as a grassroots women’s peace network in the belief that concepts of peaceful coexistence and nonviolence in resolving the differences are embedded deeply in women’s consciousness²⁰. The network has set its goals of mitigating the tension between Turkey and Greece by strengthening communication between the two countries’ women’s

¹⁸ President of Center for Research and Action on Peace (KEDE). She is the mother of G. Papandreou.

¹⁹ Journalist. She played an active role in various rapprochement activities with Greece

²⁰ Some of the NGOs that are a part of WINPEACE network: Association of Women of the Mediterranean Region, Association for Supporting and Training Women Candidates, Canadian Voice of Women for Peace, International Organization for Family Planning, UNESCO Greek National Commission, Women for Women’s Human Rights and International Association of Women for Peace.

organisations, by encouraging cooperation and intervening peacefully to influence governments whenever there are crisis situations between the two countries (WINPEACE, 2005). The network has chosen the working method of formulating and implementing short and long-term projects. The core group gathers twice a year alternately in Greece and Turkey for follow-up and to discuss themes that they want to work and increase awareness on (Oral, 2004a).

One of the most important issues that WINPEACE dedicated itself is the arms reduction. At its first meeting, the movement has made a call for the reduction of military budget of both countries by 5 %. It was demanded that the funds generated from the reduction is channelled into education, health, social security and women's empowerment (Oral, 2004b).

In 2001, the peace movement has made a statement hailing ministries of defence of both countries to open peace education units. Both demands—arms reduction and creation of peace education units—has been strengthened through the information that the amount spent for one AWACS plane equals to a total amount of scholarships provided to 50.000 disadvantaged school children for a period of 10 years or the total amount of salaries of 5.000 teachers for a period of 10 years (Hürriyet, 2001).

WINPEACE conducts its work as a communication and operation network in a highly flexible structure. From the day of its inception, the network has used a variety of activities to accomplish its aim. One of these actions are youth camps aiming at bringing Turkish and Greek as well as Cypriot students from both communities at high school and university levels in order to develop their understanding in reconciliation and peaceful coexistence of the two peoples, where the focus is educational, cultural, and environmental

issues (WINPEACE, 2005). One of these youth camps has led to the creation of a youth forum called Turkish-Greek Student Society (TurGreSoc)²¹.

Other activities include an agro-tourism project targeting grassroots women of both countries, film festivals, development of peace education curriculum and implementing it as pilot project in Istanbul and Athens, training of trainers on peace education and translating peace themed books into Greek and Turkish. For example, the Greek children's book *Peace* of Aristophanes by Sofia Zarambouka was translated into Turkish (Oral, 2004a; WINPEACE, 2005).

The peace network is represented in many international platforms where it obtains the chance to convey its views and standpoint. Inherited in its structure, these views are declared not as the views of the Turkish and Greek delegations but as the view of WINPEACE as a whole network (Oral, 2004a). During the 1999 Helsinki European Council, Turkish women journalists wrote articles and op-eds in newspapers calling the Greek government not to oppose Turkey's candidacy. These articles were published in Greek newspapers such as *Avgi* and *Elefterotipia* with the initiation of Greek women. Women's standpoint was that Turkey's EU membership would highly contribute to a positive climate for rapprochement between the two countries and a stable peace and welfare for the whole region, which would ultimately serve for improving the status of women (Tınç, 1999).

In May 1999, WINPEACE conducted an internal interactive conflict resolution workshop facilitated by competent experts. The aim was to build capacity in conflict resolution by gaining practical skills in resolving conflicts between Turkish and Greek women through dialogue and nonviolent action. These workshops made it possible for the participants to comprehend that political problems between Greece and Turkey could not

²¹ It organized a forum entitled "Is Reunification Still Possible? Youth Exploring the Dos and Don'ts for a Settlement in Cyprus" in September 2004. Turkish and Greek students from both sides of Cyprus, Greece and Turkey have attended the forum (TurGreSoc, 2005).

be solved directly by them, hence developing and implementing joint work would better serve for the rapprochement process (Oral, 2004a).

Unlike some of the other unofficial diplomacy efforts, WINPEACE did not suspend its activities on 1999 Öcalan crisis. The main factor has been the network's structure to conduct work on project basis and its responsibility to accomplish these projects while raising public awareness (Oral, 2004a).

Currently, WINPEACE executes a project, funded by EU's Turkish-Greek Civic Dialogue Program²², implemented by METU Eymir Cultural Foundation. The project has three components: first women's agro-tourism applications in Karaburun-İzmir, second disarmament and peace education campaigns and third translating and publishing literature of Turkish and Greek women authors in exchange (Oral, 2004b; STGP, 2005).

Karaburun Agro-tourism project initiated in August 2002 is still under implementation. Women who volunteered and were selected from three different villages of Karaburun generate alternative income resources by serving tourists who prefer an alternative holiday. First, women volunteers of Karaburun received training and second they visited Petra Women Agro-tourism Cooperative based in Lesbos (Midilli) island in order to receive the experience of Greek women specialised in agro-tourism. As a following step, Karaburun women established their own cooperative. Governorship of İzmir and Karaburun district authority supports the project by solving infrastructural problems of three villages (Current News, 2004a). This project received 2004 award from the Federation of Turkish Tourist Guide Associations (TUREB) in the category of 'local activity' (Current News, 2005).

²² Besides WINPEACE's project, Turkish-Greek Civic Dialogue Program supports a media cooperation project run by the European Centre for Common Ground (ECCG) and a youth project implemented by AEGEE. The second and third phases of the program supports projects on media cooperation, community development, women and gender issues, youth empowerment run by Turkish and Greek NGOs (STGP, 2005).

The peace education component of WINPEACE's EU funded project aims at including peace education in the curriculum of elementary and high schools in Turkey and Greece. The peace education course was implemented in two pilot schools in Istanbul and two schools in Athens (Current News, 2004b). Primary school children in central Athenian district of Gazi—85 % Turkish speaking, 15 % Greek speaking—were given the same course (Kitsantonis, 2003). In this framework, WINPEACE activists wrote a teachers' manual for peace education²³.

Participants of WINPEACE contribute to its work not as individuals but as the NGOs they represent; this is how the initiative works as an efficient model of network. The fact that some of the members are journalists provides the advantage for the network to voice their demands and views in the media. At the end of each bi-annual meeting, actions of the network are shared with the public through press meetings, indirectly conveying up-to-date information and their demands to respective foreign ministries. Regarding relations with governments, on the Turkish side, it is stated that throughout the tenure of İsmail Cem's Foreign Ministry, there were close relations. Currently, there is only contact with the Turkish Minister of Education in the framework of peace education curriculum. Besides, the network maintains contact with other unofficial diplomacy efforts such as those working for Turkish-Armenian reconciliation, allowed by its networking structure. Scholars, historians and organisations working in the field of second track diplomacy are invited to meetings organised by the network. In addition, the network serves as an information-bridge by helping those individuals and institutions that want to establish contact with either Greece or Turkey (Oral, 2004a). Cypriot women peace activists from both communities join meetings as well. Cypriot youth also joins youth camps organised at various times.

²³ The manual written by Jennifer Mansur Sertel and Güliz Kurt comprises a number of activities on peace, obstacles to peace, prerequisite skills for peace, ethical issues, role of media and conflict resolution skills to be conducted by teachers (2004).

4.2. Hands Across the Divide (HAD)

Hands Across the Divide (HAD) is a non-governmental, non-profit, voluntary organization, active as an informal group from March 2001. The NGO was formally constituted in February 2002 and officially registered in London as an unincorporated association²⁴. The objective of the group as stated in its constitution is “the improvement of contact and co-operation between women in the pursuit of peace, equality and human rights in Cyprus”. Through its vision statement the women “aspire to live in a united country and to create a democratic society... irrespective of differences”. Their mission is “to contribute towards a culture of peace and multiculturalism”. The group emphasises “the urgency for an agreement on the Cyprus problem and accession to the European Union”²⁵ (TFP, 2005).

The women’s group is engaged in networking and communication across the Green Line in Cyprus. It conducts educational, advocacy and lobbying activities and disseminates information. Members are principally women resident both north and south of the island, though the NGO includes women overseas considering the diasporic and mobile nature of the Cypriot society. What makes HAD different from other unofficial peace initiatives is that first it is not mediated by a foreign institution, second its members consider it as a unitary organisation rather than a bi-communal project and third it focuses more on synchronised political action. English is the working language of the group (Cockburn, 2004).

²⁴ Its official formation outside Cyprus is directly linked with partition of the island.

²⁵ The constitution states that the NGO shall not affiliate to any political party or governmental institution. The management committee is authorized to take decisions for the association. The constitution proposes an annual general meeting by either physical or electronic means. The constitution has been signed by 25 women (TFP, 2005). Some of its founding members are Katie Economidou (conflict resolution trainer), Maria Hadjipavlou (professor, University of Cyprus), Neşe Yaşın (poet and university professor), Fatma Azgın (journalist), Sevgül Uludağ (journalist), Cynthia Cockburn and Olga Demetriou (researcher).

The inauguration of the women's group intersects with the start of the research project conducted by Cynthia Cockburn²⁶. Her research project²⁷ implemented between March 2001 and May 2003 tried in general to “establish a women's standpoint from which to make a gender analysis of the recent history, present realities and possible futures of the ethnic relations of the island” (Cockburn, 2003).

The idea of HAD originates from the dreams of Katie Economidou and Sevgül Uludağ to establish a women's structure spanning the Green Line. Previous attempts had failed since those did not have any durable organisational structure. In March 2001, the bi-communal seminar titled ‘Communication in Divided Societies: What Women Can Do’ was held. The seminar organised by the British Council and funded by the UK High Commission gathered many Turkish Cypriot and Greek Cypriot women known with their bi-communal work, as well women peace activists from Ireland, Bosnia-Herzegovina, Palestine and Israel as speakers (Cockburn, 2004). Before the seminar threatening articles appeared on the Greek Cypriot press accusing Greek Cypriot organizers of being traitors (Anderson, 2002a).

At the closing of the seminar, the women committed to start a women's movement that opened the way for HAD's formation. Cockburn was able to receive funding for the two-year research project outlined above as well as for some of the activities undertaken by HAD (Cockburn, 2004). The first step of the group was creating an e-mail network, which turned out to be a vital organising medium particularly at times when face-to-face communication was hardly possible.

²⁶ A professor of sociology. Being one of the founders of HAD, she works with the group as a researcher and author in the field of gender and peace studies and as an anti-militarist feminist activist instead of being a mediator. Her role included carrying messages to and from south and north of the island. She preferred to refrain from decision-making holding an observing mode and monitoring HAD's progress and achievements (Cockburn, 2004).

²⁷ The principle funders of the project are Barrow Cadbury Trust, the Ahajma Charitable Trust, the Allan and Nesta Ferguson Charitable Trust and the Network for Social Network. There are several other funding agencies that contributed to the project (Cockburn, 2004).

In the beginning a number of mono-communal meetings were organised in the north and south, since permissions for crossing at the Ledra Palace checkpoint were refused to HAD members due to political atmosphere created by the seminar. Then the group started meeting alternatively in the mixed village of Pyla²⁸. For some of the women this was the first time encountering ‘the other’, therefore they decided to take the steps slow and to understand each other’s fears, positions and values. Though, in a short time period, differences in the agenda of northern and southern members started to emerge. There were many disagreements when the group tried to build a unitary organisation. In the meantime, Uludağ became the subject of a threatening attack in *Kıbrıslı* newspaper and another dissident had been car-bombed²⁹. In this climate, northern women became reluctant to cross into Pyla. At this time, Cockburn acted as a messenger between north and south bringing back and forth positive messages. Women decided to stop meeting in Pyla for a while and to raise funds for organising a meeting outside the island and for constructing a website (Cockburn, 2004).

In December 2001, two halves of HAD decided to respond to the meeting of both political leaders Denktaş and Clerides for a talk—the leaders’ first encounter in the last four years. The northern women of HAD joined a demonstration organised by ‘41 Organisations’ close to where the leaders met. At the same time, southern women were busy lobbying a woman EU minister who visited the south. HAD also wrote a letter to the leaders transmitted through the good offices of UN (Cockburn, 2004).

The planned HAD meeting took place in February 2002 that made its establishment possible as an association registered in London. The following step was members’

²⁸ Pyla is located next to the buffer zone in the British sovereign base area. It is an hour-long drive from Nicosia. The place was also known as a center for smugglers and it had a bad reputation (Wolleh, 2001).

²⁹ On 30 November 2001, an article appeared on *Kıbrıslı* threatening Turkish Cypriot bi-communalists with torture and using the phrase “a Greek foetus within our very body”, continuing “[o]n the day they sign a peace agreement, they will be signing your death warrant”. Three days later the newspaper named the bi-communalists, several of them HAD members (Cockburn, 2004: 186). In December 2002, two northern HAD members were taken to court with others for only reporting on a sacked teacher (Cockburn, 2004).

commitment to work out a set of shared values and goals after Marie Mulholland, a feminist activist spent time with both northern and southern members helping them to focus on group's aims, intentions and strategies. HAD members had also a chance to meet with WINPEACE on a two-day meeting in Vienna. Cockburn states that Turks and Turkish Cypriots discovered a political gap on the Cyprus issue at this meeting, though this meeting made HAD members feel that they really were a unitary body voicing their needs to WINPEACE—as peace-minded allies in Greece and Turkey's women's movement (Cockburn, 2004).

In October 2002, HAD sent a letter to UN Secretary General Annan, after the two leaders failed to reach a negotiation before the EU deadline. The letter was urging the two leaders and all relevant parties as well as Annan for an urgent solution in Cyprus (HAD, 2002)³⁰. In April 2003, HAD distributed a letter to the EU, UN, and both Cypriot authorities, urging the EU to have Turkish language as one of the official EU languages in all matters concerning Cyprus (HAD, 2003). When the final deadline 16 April 2003 for a settlement was declared by the EU, HAD supported a hunger strike in the north and women in south Nicosia collected messages for peace. In addition northern women sent Denktaş some henna, which made southern women puzzled who speculated about the origin of this mysterious gesture. Not very long after, on 21 April 2003 TRNC announced to open the barrier at the Ledra Palace checkpoint (Cockburn, 2004). At the end of April 2003, HAD along with other Cypriot NGOs made the demand from international community and authorities to open new crossing points, to lift the restriction for crossings between 09.00-24.00, to reunify communication systems, to start teaching of Turkish and Greek languages in schools and to encourage joint business ventures (Cyprus Action Network, 2003). In July 2003, HAD made a “Cinderella demonstration” at Ledra Palace

³⁰ Through the letter, HAD demanded the establishment of a committee of Cypriot women activists. It made a particular emphasis on the isolation and suffering of TC community (HAD, 2002).

checkpoint saying “no to passports in crossing the line” (Cyprus Alternative News, 2003a). Later in July 2003, the British Parliament member Valerie Davey gave an “Early Day Motion” to the British House of Parliament to give support to HAD who demonstrated against passport and ‘Cinderella’ restrictions and who look forward to a political settlement for the island (Cyprus Alternative News, 2003b).

In March 2004, at an international congress HAD presented a paper with the title ‘Imagining a Post-Solution Cyprus: The Gender Dimension’³¹. The paper was sent to Annan, TC and GC authorities, guarantor powers and the EU (Cyprus Alternative News, 2004). In January 2005, the North Civil Initiative—an alliance of 32 NGOs—also joined by HAD demanded from Annan to take the initiative to start the negotiations before 3 October 2005—start of Turkey-EU negotiations (North Civil Initiative, 2005).

Making a general assessment of HAD experience, Cockburn points out a few problem areas. First constraint is described as communication. A smooth process was seriously hindered by limitations created by the Green Line. Some members regarded mono-communal meetings as recognising the partition, though members soon realised it was impracticable to meet in Pyla very often. The virtual communication through the e-mail caused problems such as isolation of off-line members and sometimes leading to misunderstandings and extension of intra-group problem-solving and decision-making processes. The second problem area has been the inclusion and status of HAD members. A particular event—where *Mail* newspaper in the south published an article including information, which could only be reached through access to the e-mail group—created suspicions that one member was leaking information. Another incident regarding inclusion occurred when London Cypriot Diaspora attended the workshop in London. Some members had the idea that the diaspora community would not understand the situation

³¹ With the paper HAD was looking at different aspects of life from security to demilitarization, from politics to family life, from education to media. The paper was suggesting measures to be taken for balancing the rights of the two communities as well as both sexes (Cyprus Alternative News, 2004).

fully and their inclusion would impede progress. The third problem area was negotiating a common agenda. It took time for members to understand each other's feelings. In some occasions, southern and northern women found themselves engaged with different subjects and threat factors. In general the key problem was lack of time and place to spend together. Nevertheless, there has always been something urgent demanding HAD's involvement (Cockburn, 2004).

4.3. Rapprochement Activities Led by Turkish and Armenian Women

In March 2002, a group of women from Turkey decided to visit Armenia in order to meet up with women from Armenia and celebrate 8 March International Women's Day. The visit was going to be organised by Turkish-Armenian Business Development Council (TABDC) and funded by the Centre for Global Peace of American University (AU-CGP). This group of women from Turkey³² has cancelled the visit due to European Parliament's decision regarding the Armenian genocide. After this incident, a new group of women under the coordination of Şule Kılıçarslan from TABDC has been built up. This women's group—not as big as the previous one—comprising NGO representatives, journalists, academics and business people realised the trip to Armenia³³ (Soyak, 2004).

This women's group, called Turkish Armenian Young Women's Group (TAYWG) met with its counterpart Transcaucasian Women's Dialogue, as well as other women's organisations such as Armenian Association of Women with University Education, Social Association for World's Women and individuals such as parliamentarian Hermine Naghdalian, former Armenian Minister of Environment, Armenian Deputy Trade Minister and the British Ambassador for Armenia. The group was also invited to a meeting at the

³² A parliament member of Democratic Left Party (DSP) Gönül Saray and Müjgan Suver from Marmara Group Strategic and Social Research Foundation ('Marmara Group' hereinafter) were supposed to organise the initial trip (Yılmaz, 2002).

³³ Group members were Şule Kılıçarslan, Serpil Yılmaz of *Milliyet*, Gila Benmayor of *Hürriyet*, Pınar Türeñ from Istanbul University, Elif Dağdeviren from ARI Association, Özlenen Sezer from Istanbul Chamber of Commerce; and Ayşe Kızılöz, Ayşe Şemin and Meral Ekmekçioğlu as business leaders (TAYWG, 2002).

Yerevan State University (TAYWG, 2002)³⁴. The group spoke about the possibility of organising an international meeting attended by both sides, as well as conducting a research in both countries by three Turkish and three Armenian experts and producing a joint publication covering the findings of the research (Agos, 2002).

There have been also negative incidents during the visit. The meetings arranged by Arsen Ghazarian—co-chairperson of TABDC—to assemble Turkish and Armenian business people was cancelled. While the group from Turkey preferred to leave political and historic issues to politicians and historians, Armenian women demanded to handle these issues overtly (Yılmaz, 2002). According to Gila Benmayor during the meeting, the historical burden on Turkey's shoulder was recalled very often. Armenians argued it was impossible to step forward unless there is a judgement of the past claiming Turkey had an ethical responsibility accordingly (2002).

In June 2002, Eurasia Cultural and Social Development Association ('Eurasia' hereinafter) was established in Istanbul. The NGO comprising only volunteer staff has defined its main theme as betterment of relations between Turkey, Armenia and Azerbaijan. Until recently, the NGO has not organised a trilateral meeting welcoming Turkish, Azerbaijani and Armenian sides. Currently it is focusing more on rapprochement possibilities between Armenia and Turkey. According to Eurasia's viewpoint, Baku-Tbilisi-Ceyhan oil pipeline and the natural gas pipeline passing through the Caspian Region plays a crucial role in improving economic relations between Turkey and Central Asian countries (Eurasia, 2005). This organisation publishes a women's magazine called *WM Women's Magazine* in cooperation with Women for Dialogue as a joint work. This magazine is published in Armenian, English and Turkish languages and distributed in Turkey, Europe, Armenia and the US (AU-CGP, 2005). The initial aim of producing this

³⁴ Parallel to this activity, Marmara Group based in Istanbul and Armenian Association of University Women based in Yerevan established a communication network. Commencing with a trip in 2002 to Yerevan by Marmara Group, the groups plan to organise cultural activities (Benmayor, 2003; WM, 2004).

magazine is to help women from both societies to exchange knowledge on cultural issues, to generate a forum where women discuss women's issues and accordingly to build the bridge between the two societies. This project is financially supported by AU-CGP and facilitated by David L. Phillips, who was the chairperson of TARC.

A substantial success factor of the association can be considered as the contribution it made to the attempts to open Turkey's border with Armenia in the air space, indicating start of flights from Turkey to Armenia. Eurasia informs that to accomplish this aim a private airlines company received a permission from the Turkish Foreign Ministry to commence flights from Istanbul to Yerevan; and the association conducted the lobbying work by establishing ties with the media. As a result, the first flight by a Turkish company from Istanbul to Yerevan took place in October 2003. Güler Kömürcü informs that the opening of the border in the air space was recommended by the US Secretary of State during Gül's visit to Washington in July 2003 (2003).

Eurasia has not established contact with the Armenian Diaspora in the US. Some of their planned activities are organising an exhibition on empathy to be demonstrated in Istanbul and Yerevan, contributing to activities for the restoration of Akhtamar Armenian Church on the Lake Van, and organising a meeting in Anatolia assembling Turkish, Armenian, Azerbaijani and Georgian business people (Eurasia, 2005).

4.4. Greek Turkish Forum (GTF)

Shortly after the Kardak/Imia crisis, the London based Roberts Centre made a suggestion to support a second track diplomacy initiative for Greece and Turkey. In the past, this private charitable fund focused on peace-building efforts in regions such as South Africa and later on Middle East (Özel, 2004). Another London based research institute, Royal United Services Institute (RUSI) agreed to provide administrative support to this initiative. RUSI, seeking to analyse and debate issues of defence and internal security is

known as the first British defense academy totally independent of government (GTF, 1998). Jamie Bruce-Lockhard of Roberts Centre who worked in Cyprus as a press officer gained support from Turkish and Greek ambassadors in London for preparing for the initial meeting and choosing the participants (Özel, 2004).

At the initial conference in the UK in November 1997, participants agreed to carry on with the work they started. This meeting was useful for participants to present their perspectives and perceptions about/to each other. The first meeting of the Greek Turkish Forum (GTF) planned by Bruce-Lockhart for spring 1998 was postponed due to recommendations of Cem Duna³⁵ and Costas Carras³⁶ when the Luxembourg European Council decided to leave Turkey out of EU candidates list. Finally, GTF commenced in May 1998 under the coordination of retired Admiral Güven Erkaya³⁷ and Professor Christos Rozakis. One of the Forum members, Soli Özel³⁸ expresses that Erkaya had been actively establishing communicative links with his Greek counterpart to diffuse crises, since he wanted to pursue a work for confidence building with Greeks (2004).

In general, the Forum aimed at conducting regular analysis of domestic and international issues that affect bilateral relations, creating informal channels of communication at the level of governments and political parties to improve bilateral relations and producing ideas that can contribute to resolving specific disputes between Turkey and Greece. The Forum recognises that Turks and Greeks are mutually interdependent in terms of environment, tourism, security and accordingly of human, social and economic development. The Forum also believes in the importance of encouraging Greek and Turkish NGOs and local authorities to conduct joint-work (GTF, 1999b). Current Greek coordinator of the Forum, Carras notes that GTF was established mainly to

³⁵ Former Turkish Ambassador.

³⁶ Greek business person, board member of Center for Democracy and Reconciliation in Southeast Europe and founder of the Friends of Cyprus.

³⁷ He was the navy commander during the Kardak/Imia crisis (Özel, 2004).

³⁸ Professor at Bilgi University.

discuss major political issues between the two countries or any other issues affecting Turkish-Greek relations—such as the Cyprus issue (Poyraz Doğan, 2002a). Current Turkish coordinator of GTF İlter Türkmen³⁹ asserts that Greek-Turkish relations cannot be established on a solid foundation without solving the Cyprus conflict (Poyraz Doğan, 2002b).

Bruce-Lockhard and Dan Smith from International Peace Research Institute of Oslo (PRIO) took the responsibility of Forum moderation. In the first meeting, sub-groups were formed to conduct work in a number of issues, these were: public opinion survey, GTF web site, press and editorial issues, academic exchanges, documentation and history, and confidence building measures. Due to changes in Forum members and priorities, there remained four concrete working areas that GTF really concentrated and undertook work on. These were: GTF web site, confidence building measures, report on Aegean, and Cyprus issue.

The web site of the Forum⁴⁰ includes many useful materials such as press releases and statements of the Forum, information on the progress of Forum activities, articles and op-eds of Forum members on Turkish-Greek relations, and reports and papers prepared and presented to respective governments. Although the Forum web site is updated last in October 2002, it remains to be a valuable source on past and current status of Turkish-Greek relations as well as on the work of GTF.

Second concrete task fulfilled by GTF has been the work to outline confidence building measures (CBM) and crisis avoidance measures (CAM). The report outlining suggested CBMs and CAMs released in November 1998 covered measures in three different areas: measures on the non-governmental and inter-governmental level, measures for peacekeeping and measures on the military level. Although the report was never made

³⁹ Former Foreign Minister.

⁴⁰ Available at www.greekturkishforum.org

public and not submitted to both governments officially, the content of the discussion was conveyed to relevant governmental bodies (Özel, 2004).

1999 Öcalan crisis did not cause a halt in GTF's operations. Continuing its work without giving any break, İlter Türkmen took the responsibility as the coordinator on the Turkish side. Meeting of both countries' foreign ministers in New York in June 1999 provided a favourable climate for GTF to forward its work to the two ministers (Özel, 2004). As a result, ten proposals outlining measures were addressed to the two foreign ministers on behalf of GTF participants by the directors of RUSI and PRIO (GTF, 1999a). At the request of the Forum, the Turkish and Greek Foreign Ministers Cem and Papandreou met respectively with the CBM group (GTF, 1999b; GTF, 1999c)

Towards the end of 1999, CBM group transformed into the Political Analysis Group (PAG)⁴¹. At the end of 2000, Robert Centre and RUSI withdrew from Forum activities due to decisions to localise the activities. PRIO remained active in setting the agenda and facilitation of Forum meetings. Both foreign ministries provided the funds needed for PAG meetings that would take place six times a year. Bruce-Lockhart who retired from Roberts Centre and Dan Smith who left PRIO continued to facilitate the process (Özel, 2004).

The third productive accomplishment of the Forum has been the report entitled 'Issues in the Aegean: Openings and Possibilities' dated June 2000 prepared by PAG. The major idea in the report was to suggest both governments to start assessing their common interests as well as each state's particular interest rather than starting by stating legal and political positions. Three key issues have been identified: first delimitation of the

⁴¹ Many of the initial participants left the forum. Members of the new Policy Analysis Group consisted of Costas Carras, Constantinos Zepos (former ambassador), Theodore Couloumbis (professor, University of Athens), Arghyris Fatouros (professor, University of Athens), Thanos Veremis (professor, University of Athens), Paulina Lampsa (political scientist), on the Greek side; and İlter Türkmen, Ziya Bülent, Cem Duna, Mehmet Ali Birand (journalist), Sami Kohen (journalist), Muharrem Kayhan (industrialist), Soli Özel, Özdem Sanberk and Üstün Ergüder on the Turkish side.

continental shelf, second delimitation of territorial waters and air space and third the disputed interpretation of treaty restrictions on the militarisation of certain Greek islands. GTF believed when first and second issues were settled, the third issues would lose its salience, therefore it suggested not to address the third issue at that time (GTF, 2000). The report was presented to both foreign ministries by Türkmen and Carras. It was also submitted to EU officials in Brussels (Özel, 2004).

GTF's fourth achievement was the work conducted on Cyprus assuming the two countries have a common interest in resolving the Cyprus conflict. In 2002, the Forum organised a series of meetings to help facilitate mutual exchange of information and build mutual understanding between the two communities in Cyprus. The first meeting held in Rome in April 2002, arranged by PRIO⁴² included GTF members and members of two communities in Cyprus from politics and business attending the meeting with no official status. The first meeting and the second meeting held in Sofia in June 2002 were helpful to enable two sides understand each other's perspectives and positions. Following these meetings, GTF decided to present its work to relevant bodies in Ankara, Athens and Istanbul. Forum members also gained the opportunity to share their views through conferences held at international level. The TCs and GCs who attended the meeting made a statement sharing their concerns and hopes for the upcoming Copenhagen European Council.

According to Özel, the Greek Foreign Ministry was more interested and engaged in the work of GTF from the beginning, though the Turkish Foreign Ministry continued providing financial resources for Forum activities. In his words "whatever success the GTF may have registered could not have been achieved without the tacit support of the two governments" (2004). According to PRIO, the GTF's reports:

⁴² Since 1997, PRIO has been implementing a project called "Cyprus Initiative" to facilitate work of a group of business leaders. The project is supported by the UN as well (PRIO, 2005).

have been well received by official circles and have been used by Forum members in writing for the press in Greece and Turkey. In early 2002, the Greek and Turkish Foreign Ministers made public statements about using a mixture of political and legal means for resolving the Aegean issues, which is quite similar to the methodology proposed by the Forum (PRIO, 2005).

4.5. Cyprus Consortium and Subsequent Bi-communal Activities

US based Institute for Multi-Track Diplomacy⁴³ (IMTD)'s involvement with Cyprus started in 1992 when Louise Diamond went to Cyprus for a fact finding mission to see what she, as a trainer of conflict resolution could add to the peace work already done in Cyprus. Upon holding consultations with individuals from both communities, she received the response “not to run more problem-solving workshops, but to teach the skills of conflict resolution” so that Cypriots themselves would learn and apply the necessary tools for conflict resolution (Diamond, 1999: 192). Members of IMTD and National Training Laboratories (NTL) made regular visits to the island for two years where they presented their methods by arranging lectures and workshops on conflict resolution in both sides of the islands in a mono-communal context (Wolleh, 2001).

The interest in these workshops led to the first bi-communal workshop by the initiative of IMTD. This resulted with the founding of the Bi-Communal Conflict Resolution Committee (BSC)⁴⁴. This committee took the responsibility to coordinate all bi-communal peace activities on the island, though at that time this included only running the conflict resolution workshops. While the American trainers were developing the training programs⁴⁵, BSC was reaching out new participants for the training programs. These activities were followed by an intensive conflict resolution training in Oxford, England. At this training twenty participants—calling themselves the ‘Oxford Group’—were able establish close relations with each other. The intensification of bi-communal

⁴³ Co-founded by John McDonald and Louise Diamond, who developed the concept of multi track diplomacy.

⁴⁴ This was an informal body organized by civil individuals consisting of six TCs and six GCs (Wolleh, 2001).

⁴⁵ The training workshops had two components; first training for skills and concepts of conflict resolution, second training in project development and management.

meetings in the buffer zone led to the negative comments and attacks by the media—particularly GC media. The participants were being accused of making political concessions. As a reaction to the news on bi-communal activities appearing in the media, more individuals expressed interest in participating these activities (Wolleh, 2001).

Bi-communal training workshops reached a turning point when Cyprus Fulbright Commission⁴⁶ and America-Mideast Educational and Training Services, Inc. (AMIDEAST)⁴⁷ jointly decided to request major funding from the US Agency for International Development (USAID) for additional training on conflict resolution. This improvement opened the way for the establishment of the Cyprus Consortium by IMTD, NTL and Conflict Management Group (CMG)⁴⁸. In 1994, 200 individuals participated in the training sessions conducted by the Cyprus Consortium. One of the workshops held in Virginia, US was attended by public policy leaders. Also a workshop was developed for training of trainers including members of the Oxford Group. For the period 1995-98 Cyprus Consortium received a second grant from Fulbright Commission and AMIDEAST, which was then used to run an advanced training for trainers. This second grant was also used for workshops for public policy leaders, students and TC and GC educators and for a summer-camp for Cypriot teenagers in the US. In addition, the Consortium received funding from Carnegie Corporation that was allocated to establish a study group for policy leaders⁴⁹. This group led to the formation of the ‘Harvard Study Group’, which dissolved

⁴⁶ Fulbright is a US-based educational exchange program. The Cyprus Fulbright Commission is founded in 1962 and has a unique status in Cyprus. Its board includes Turkish Cypriots and Greek Cypriots. It has offices in both parts of the island. Its grants are provided to students of both communities. According to Wolleh the Commission is the only bi-communal institutionalized organization in Cyprus (2001).

⁴⁷ US headquartered AMIDEAST is a private, nonprofit organization that aims to strengthen mutual understanding between Americans and the peoples of the Middle East and North Africa. It provides English language skills training, educational advising and testing services to students and professionals in the Middle East and North Africa (AMIDEAST, 2005).

⁴⁸ As a US based NGO, CMG provides training and consultation on conflict resolution to groups involved in ethnic conflict. It has close ties with Harvard University.

⁴⁹ Dutch and Canadian Governments partially contributed to this program.

in 1998. This group was considered as a “track-one-and-half” activity not depending on the training activities (Wolleh, 2001).

Throughout this process, the number of participants in bi-communal activities grew continuously. All these workshops and courses incited the development of other bi-communal civic groups. Since none of the Consortium members were represented on the island permanently, local activists took the lead for skill building; on the other hand the task of group building process was taken by the Cyprus Fulbright Commission (Wolleh, 2001). For example, in 1997 the Fulbright Commission constructed a special building on the buffer zone so as to provide a meeting space for bi-communal training workshops and inter-communal talks (IMTD, 2001). Parallel to the process, there emerged an informal network of American actors who were supporting the trainers group in their peace work. These consisted of the Consortium, American Embassy and American Center in Nicosia, the Fulbright Commission and the Resident Scholar of the Fulbright Commission (Wolleh, 2001).

In 1994, Fulbright Resident Scholar Benjamin J. Broome initiated a ‘Design Workshop’ attended by GC and TC individuals from the trainers group. This group⁵⁰ worked together to develop a strategy with a set of activities for their peace-building efforts. The group worked in a nine-month period engaging in interactive problem-solving and design sessions. The design sessions resulted with a document called ‘Collective Vision Statement for Peace Building Efforts in Cyprus’⁵¹. During the process the participants had to face the social pressure to avoid contacts with the “other”. Participants were sometimes accused of being ‘used’, ‘naïve’ or ‘traitors to the nation’. Many of them became negatively affected in their career, social and family life. There was even physical

⁵⁰ This group consisted of 15 TCs and 15 GCs. There were nine men and six women in each group. They came from fields of education, business, counseling and civil service (Broome, 2004).

⁵¹ Before concluding the collective vision statement, there were many discussions and in some cases deadlocks on issues like Cypriotness, demilitarization of the island, disparity in the economic situation of the two communities and status of properties (Broome, 2004).

damage to the property of participants. The group concluded that first there needed to be stronger ties with track one actors, second cultural and social relations between the two communities should be encouraged and third more people should be included in bi-communal peace activities so as to create a greater voice. Generating 245 project ideas, the group selected 15 projects to be implemented. Most of the planned activities were realised in some form (Broome, 2004).

Soon afterwards the group referred to itself as ‘Conflict Resolution Trainer Group’ (‘Trainer Group’ hereinafter) transforming into a permanent working group of trainers (Wolleh, 2001). When the Trainer Group’s confidence in its skills and abilities increased, new groups and workshops followed without the participation of the Consortium. There were many bi-communal groups formed by the Trainer Group⁵² within this phase (Wolleh, 2001).

1996 violent acts in the buffer zone yielded concern among members of bi-communal groups. Though direct communication was halted the Trainer Group agreed to give signals for reconciliation. During this phase direct communication could only occur via Fulbright Scholar Broome. UN was convinced that a certain number of people from both communities were eager to oppose violence and the ongoing hate speech. This led to a bi-communal reception organised by the UN in Ledra Palace in September 1996. Oliver Wolleh notes while the international community perceived violent acts of 1996 as escalation of Cyprus conflict, the world press showed no interest to this bi-communal gathering. In the following month an enormous bi-communal event took place on the celebrations of the anniversary of UNFICYP joined by three thousand bi-communalists. After US government’s political involvement, the TC administration lifted the blockade

⁵² In this phase following bi-communal groups were formed: Educators Group, Citizens Group, Federation and EU Study Group, Peace Concert, Cultural Evening Planning Group, “Letters to the other side” Group, Technology for Peace, Management Group, Women Group, Young Political Leaders Group, Students Group I and Lawyers Group (Wolleh, 2001).

against bi-communal meetings in the buffer zone. Conducting further meetings, another set of projects was created which later helped forming new groups⁵³ (Wolleh, 2001).

In December 1997 when TRNC authorities decided to cease permissions to cross-communal contacts, it became clear that bi-communal activities would be cut-off in the long run. At this time, a debate on ‘how to restructure the Trainer Group’ started. The initial plan—set up by the Fulbright Scholar—was to form a civil movement that is labour divided and growth oriented and that was suggesting no institutionalisation. Continuing the debate for several weeks, the original members of Trainer Group withdrew from meetings finding the Americans too “pushy”. With the new era, the meetings moved from Ledra Palace to Pyla⁵⁴ and the involvement of the US network became indirect or absent in some cases. It was the youth groups and *Hade* Magazine group who often used Pyla as a meeting point (Wolleh, 2001). In 1999, the work of the Consortium moved into a more track-two characteristic. It joined forces with the World Peace Foundation. Thirteen leaders from both the GC and TC communities—composed of politicians, business leaders, and current and former officials—met several times to delve into subjects for a successful and sustainable peace process in Cyprus (IMTD, 2001).

Making a general assessment Wolleh asserts there were unwritten rules of bi-communal groups. These were equal representation of both communities, equal participation of women and men, inclusion of left-wing and right-wing oriented individuals, informality and English as the working language. The last characteristic was causing only educated middle class elite to be integrated into bi-communal work (Wolleh, 2001). Cockburn notes that IMTD and Fulbright Commission had no “explicit policy on the inclusion of women” though “gender balance appears to have been the usual practice”

⁵³ In this phase, following groups were formed: Citizens Group II-VII, Brussels Women Group, Co-Villager Project, Youth Encounters for Peace, Youth Environmentalists, *Hade* Magazine, Artists Group, Federalism Group, Students Group II and Environmental Group (Wolleh, 2001).

⁵⁴ In Pyla, the police and secret services were closely watching the bi-communalists.

(2004: 152). It should be noted that some members of Hands Across Divide (HAD)—an established and constituted NGO—were members or initiators of some bi-communal groups (Cockburn, 2004). Another important characteristic of bi-communal activities is that none of them led to the formation of an institutional body, though the Trainer Group's four project ideas out of fifteen were bi-communal institutions. The absence of a financial structure causes the possibility to raise funds to vanish. On the other hand the management of funds for bi-communal projects provided by the EU belongs to the Planning Bureau in the south (Wolleh, 2001).

Some success indicators of the process started with the formation of the Cyprus Consortium can be listed as: the continuation of Trainer Group's project to 'have an article published in the press of the other community'; the founding of the 'Bureau of Bi-Communal Reconciliation and Strengthening of Civil Society' by DISY; bi-communal activities being more independent and less dependent on foreign support and funding; a growth in internal support and funding; and in general a significant increase in bi-communal activities especially those joined by the Cypriot youth (Wolleh, 2001). IMTD reports that since their involvement in Cyprus, an estimated number of 2.500 individuals were trained in conflict resolution skills (2001). IMTD further informs that the TC person who was the architect of the decision to open the Green Line for crossings in April 2003 was one of the participants of the training program provided by IMTD between 1992-93⁵⁵. He was involved in peace negotiations with the Greek Cypriots prior to referenda of 2004 (IMTD, 2003).

4.6. Turkish-Armenian Reconciliation Commission (TARC)

Following a number of meetings held under the auspices of the Diplomatic Academy in Vienna, TARC was established in Geneva by six Turkish and four Armenian

⁵⁵ Referring to Serdar Denktaş who was the Turkish Cypriot Deputy Prime Minister at that time.

members⁵⁶ in July 2001. The Commission mainly aimed at promoting mutual understanding and good will between Turks and Armenians and encouraging improved relations between two countries. One of its objectives was to develop recommendations to be submitted to concerned governments. In its first meeting the commissioners decided to support second track diplomacy activities in the fields of business, tourism, culture, education and research, environment and media (TARC, 2001).

Described as one of the track two projects of the Centre for Global Peace of the American University (AU-CGP), it was reported that the TARC project was going to be implemented between July 2001- July 2003 with the funding provided by the university (AU-CGP, 2005). David L. Phillips⁵⁷ took the role of chairperson of the Commission.

The day following TARC's commencement, *New York Times* has reported on the unofficial commission and its intentions by making references to some of its members' viewpoints. This fast-established link with the media meant that Commission's existence was made public to the international community, particularly the Armenian Americans. The article was also informing that US State Department supported the initiative (Frantz, 2001). It was observed that the Turkish media chose an indifferent position to TARC's establishment, though the rare news articles that appeared on the Commission did not contain any antagonistic elements. In contrast, in later phases Armenian media, particularly the Armenian American assumed a radical approach to such a degree that TARC's Armenian members were condemned, urged to resign from the initiative and were accused of being traitors to the nation.

⁵⁶ Founding members are Gündüz Aktan (Ankara- former Undersecretary of Foreign Affairs), Alexander Arzoumanian (Yerevan- former Foreign Minister), Üstün Ergüder (Istanbul- former rector of Boğaziçi University), Şadi Ergüvenç (Istanbul- former general in the Turkish Air Force), David Hovhannissian (Yerevan- Former Minister of Regional Issues), Van Z. Krikorian (New York- chairman of the Armenian Assembly of America), Andranik Migranian (Moscow- Armenian adviser to President Putin of Russia), Özdem Sanberk (Istanbul- former Undersecretary of Foreign Affairs), İlter Türkmen (Istanbul- former Foreign Minister) and Vamık D. Volkan (Charlottesville- professor, University of Virginia).

⁵⁷ He is the Deputy Director of the Center for Preventive Action at the Council on Foreign Relations.

The Armenian Assembly of America has been one of the few Armenian groups to approve the Commission, hence the organization replaced Krikorian—one of TARC members—as its chairperson when public criticism against TARC rose up (Armenian Weekly Online, 2003).

Armenian Foreign Ministry stated “Armenia has always welcomed public initiatives aimed at improved Armenian-Turkish relations” though public dialogue was considered not as a substitute for direct talks on the government level. TARC was backed by the Social Democratic Party and Democratic Liberal Party while Dashnaksutyun Party opposed the initiative (Armenia Diaspora Conference, 2001a). Armenian President Kocharian stated in September 2001 he is in full support of initiations like TARC that try to strengthen ties between the two societies though there should be considerable cautiousness in such attempts (Zaman, 2001).

In November 2001, commissioners from Turkey—through their op-eds or making links with the media—invited the Turkish government to open the border with Armenia and abolish visa requirements for Armenian citizens. Towards the end of 2001, the Commission has experienced one of its turning points when it made a request from the International Center for Transitional Justice⁵⁸ (ICTJ) to make an independent legal analysis on the applicability of the ‘UN Convention on the Prevention and Punishment of the Crime of Genocide’ to events that occurred during the early twentieth century. This request rendered a crisis in TARC’s internal relations. According to one observation point, Turkish government pressured the Turkish commissioners to withdraw the request for the legal analysis, to another viewpoint, Turkish members of the Commission argued Armenian members broke their promise of not sharing information with the public until the legal analysis was finalised. According to another argument, Armenian commissioners used the

⁵⁸ A New York based human rights organisation. It is financially supported by organisations such as Ford Foundation, MacArthur Foundation, Carnegie Corporation of New York, Open Society Institute, Hewlett Foundation and Rockefeller Brothers Fund (ICTJ, 2005).

request for legal analysis as a pretext to resign from the initiative since they were pressured and threatened by the Armenian Diaspora. As a result, in December 2001 the Commission suspended its activities due to disturbed mutual trust in internal relations.

In July 2002, members of TARC gathered in Turkey deciding for the finalisation of the legal analysis. In February 2003, the analysis concluded by ICTJ stated that the events occurred in 1915 can “be said to include all of the elements of the crime of genocide as defined in the [Genocide] Convention, and legal scholars as well as historians, politicians, journalists and other people would be justified in continuing to so describe them”. Though the “Convention contains no provision mandating its retroactive application... Therefore, no legal, financial or territorial claim arising out of the Events could successfully be made against any individual or state under the Convention” (TARC, 2003: 4).

Along the path paced by TARC, viewpoints containing harsh criticism and antagonism have intensified mainly originating from the radical wing of the Armenian Diaspora. It was often expressed that TARC’s real intention was to weaken the campaign for the acknowledgement of the genocide. The newly established Armenian Turkish Rapprochement Forum (FRAT) based in France and all other initiatives to restore relations between Armenians and Turks were considered by the radical Diaspora members to be destined to fail like TARC did in the past.

The Armenian Diaspora also regarded US’s stance on the issue with bitterness. US President G.W. Bush was blamed to break his February 2000 presidential campaign pledge to properly recognise Armenian genocide in his April 24—the annual remembrance day of the events—statement of 2003. Bush used the phrase ‘horrible tragedy’⁵⁹, although he was constantly encouraged by the Chief of Staff and other 167 members of the Congress to use the word ‘genocide’. This occasion caused Armenian activists to go berserk. It is argued

⁵⁹ In his 2004 statement, Bush used the phrase ‘annihilation’ and in 2005 ‘great calamity’.

that Bush was referring to TARC, when he used the words “our wise and bold friends from Armenia and Turkey who are coming together in a spirit of reconciliation” (Doyle, 2003).

In June 2003, the Commission met in Istanbul. During the meeting, members agreed on the construction of TARC’s web site. The issues of opening of sealed borders, TARC’s future activities, the denial of Armenian genocide in the Turkish educational curricula and establishment of diplomatic relations were discussed in the meeting (Noyan Tapan, 2003). Due to Aktan, Ergüvenç, Sanberk and Volkan’s cease of attachment with the Commission five new Turkish members⁶⁰ joined the Commission. Joseph Montville⁶¹ was welcomed as the coordinator of the Commission.

In June 2003, talks between the two Foreign Ministers Abdullah Gül and Vartan Oskanian took place, where they conveyed the message of improving bilateral ties. TARC was very content with this meeting thus it could not be exposed whether TARC had any role in the holding of the Gül-Oskanian meeting (Danielyan, 2003).

In January 2004, TARC members met in London. At this meeting, they discussed issues such as possible benefits stemming from TARC’s continuation in the future, translation of ICTJ analysis into Turkish, improvement of the web site, and search for new funding resources due to fully used financial resources (Turan, 2004).

Due to withdrawal of Armenian commissioner from Moscow, the number of Armenians in the Commission dropped to three. Meeting in April 2004 in Moscow with three Turkish and three Armenian members, it was announced that TARC as a Commission ended its work. The meeting report declared that “TARC’s term was to be one year, but the course of events required a longer period to accomplish” its goals our

⁶⁰ İlter Turan (Istanbul- professor, Bilgi University), Şule Kut (Istanbul- professor, Bilgi University), Emin Mahir Balcıoğlu (Istanbul- culture and arts expert), Ersin Kalaycıoğlu (Istanbul- professor, Işık University) and Ahmet Evin (Istanbul- professor, Sabancı University).

⁶¹ Former US Diplomat. He first coined the term second track diplomacy and made valuable contributions to the scholarly work in the field. He is from the Center for Strategic International Studies (CSIS) based in Washington D.C.

goals. At this meeting TARC reviewed its progress toward reconciliation and finalized a series recommendations to be conveyed to respective governments. The Commission decided to assemble an initial meeting of a larger group to discuss the issue of Turkish-Armenian reconciliation. It also planned to support a Turkish-Armenian consultative group to meet at least annually “to exchange views, review progress, and recommend actions to promote improved relations” (TARC, 2004). Though TARC’s web site is still online, it does not contain recommendations to concerned government. However, Phillips in his recently published book revealing the work of TARC reports that recommendations were:

- Official contacts should be further improved.
- Opening of the Turkish Armenian border should be announced and implemented in 2004.
- The two governments should publicly support civil society programs focused on education, science, culture, and tourism.
- Standing mechanisms for cooperation on humanitarian disaster assistance and health care should be established.
- Security and confidence building measures between Turkey and Armenia should be enhanced.
- Religious understanding should be encouraged.
- The Turkish and Armenian people need to develop more confidence that their governments are working to surmount the difficulties related to the past (Phillips, 2005: 153-154).

Phillips’s book was criticised by Armenians mainly Armenian American community as an attempt to reveal TARC’s anti-Armenian intent (Sassounian, 2005).

4.7. Turkish-Greek Business Council (TGBC)

The Turkish-Greek Business Council (TGBC) was founded in 1988 in the wake of Davos meeting of two countries’ Prime Ministers Andreas Papandreou and Turgut Özal. Established under the Foreign Economic Relations Board (DEİK) umbrella, the Council started its dialogue first with the Athens Chamber of Commerce and Industry and continued it with the Union of Hellenic Entrepreneurs (Association of Young Greek Businessmen). Currently, the Council is working with its Greek counterpart, Council of Greek-Turkish Business Cooperation chaired by Panagiotis Koutsikos. TGBC is currently chaired by Selim Egeli.

After commencement, the Greek counterpart of the Council has fallen into inertia, while the Turkish counterpart has not suspended its activities due to the persistence of its then chairperson Rahmi Koç. In 1996, the Council—accompanied by a Turkish delegation consisting of 60 business people—met its Greek counterpart in Athens. At the meeting, it was stressed there was a need to build closer ties between business people in two countries, but that should be a gradual process, since time was needed to develop mutual respect and inter-personal relations. It was suggested to conduct joint-businesses in third countries—Balkans, Black Sea region and Middle East—until political difficulties were overcome. The issues of maritime tourism and maritime transport, cooperation to decrease sea pollution, supplying water to eastern Aegean islands from Turkey and strategic alliances between Turkish and Greek companies were among other issues discussed during the meeting. Koç mentioned that politicians could not ignore them when economic ties between the countries strengthen (Drakopoulos, 1997; Athens News Agency, 1996).

After the 1999 Öcalan crisis, Koç made a written statement saying “protection and support of terrorist organizations is not acceptable from any country and that it had been revealed that Greece has protected and supported terrorism”. Thereby, the Council cancelled all its joint activities planned with Greece. According to Koç, this case was the result of Greece’s hostile stance against Turkey that has been harming Turkish-Greek relations (TDN, 1999).

In September 1999, the Council resumed its activities by assigning Şarık Tara to the chairperson of the Council. This development was highly affected by the June 1999 meeting of both countries’ foreign ministers and the rapprochement process following 1999 Marmara earthquake (Türk, 1999). In November 1999, US President Clinton shared his happiness with TGBC’s recommencement of operations. He noted that the central

challenge was to build stronger economic ties between Turkey and Greece serving for the larger effort for reconciliation (The White House, 1999).

Tara was considered as a person who insistently holds the olive branch in his hand. He expressed the necessity for strengthening ties between the Greek and Turkish societies through attempts undertaken by businessmen, civil society organisations and artists. He stated that the proclamations such as “the Turk doesn’t have a friend other than a Turk” were creating unproductive policies. He asserted that partnerships with no economic cooperation were destined to be temporary. In its new term, the Council identified tourism and maritime transport as priority areas in economic cooperation (Odabaşı, 1999).

The chairperson of the Greek counterpart of Council, Koutsikos believed that business circles could play a crucial role in crisis situations in Greek-Turkish relations. He emphasised the Council’s willingness to support officials to overcome difficulties in two countries relations. He admitted that problems had been maintained for four hundred years, and argued only in one year the Council had more accomplishments than that in forty years time. Business people were faced with no bureaucratic barriers; chambers of commerce were supporting business people fully; and conducting bi-lateral business was not perceived dangerous. Consequently, he claims that trade volume increased by 45 % within the last year (Hürriyet, 2000).

In year 2002, Koutsikos informed that a number of sixty Greek companies were cooperating with Turkish companies to invest in Turkey and the number was increasing. In Greece, companies working particularly in financial and telecommunication sectors were highly interested in investing in Turkey. It was noted that some Greek banks already had investments in Turkey and some were planning to do so. Turkish and Greek business people were making the remarks that they were assuming the political support for Turkish-Greek business relations to engage in joint-investments (Hürriyet, 2002). In year 2001,

twenty Greek companies invested in Turkey, and in 2002 forty new companies. Total number of Greek companies investing in Turkey until 1999 was believed to be only thirty (Greece Now, 2004).

In an interview Tara mentioned that energy, tourism and construction sectors were most prolific for joint ventures and joint operations in both countries and in third countries—particularly the Balkans. Information technology and light industry were among other fertile investment areas (Proteou, 2003).

In May 2003, Turkish Energy and Natural Resources Minister and Greek Development Ministry planned to hold a meeting accompanied by Tara and Koutsikos in order to discuss ways to improve bilateral relations in the energy sector (HCI, 2003). The meeting was cancelled twice due to the lack of participation from Turkish side reported by the Athens News Agency (2003).

In year 2003 Turkey and Greece signed an agreement to lift double taxation. This can be considered as the achievement of a campaign that started in 1999 by Greek and Turkish business people for lifting trade barriers such as tariffs and double taxation. Taking effect in 2005, it is expected that bilateral trade would grow at higher rates (Odabaşı, 1999; Dünya, 2004).

Counterpart business councils assembled during Turkish Prime Minister Erdoğan's Greece visit of May 2004. In their speeches at the Council meeting, Erdoğan and the Greek Prime Minister Costas Karamanlis gave the message that economic relations should be further developed. Erdoğan stated that he considered businessmen as emissaries not only in the field of economic cooperation but in establishing a peaceful atmosphere as well. Karamanlis emphasised that the trade volume of year 2003 was about 1,3 billion US dollar, which was twice as much the trade volume of year 1999. He also confirmed the importance of bilateral economic relations for Turkey and Greece, saying "business is situated beyond

diplomacy in the new era” (AKP, 2004). He stressed his intentions to examine the possibility of Turkish-Greek cooperation in the transport of oil (Kathimerini, 2004).

4.8. Reconciliation Activities Initiated by Cypriot Business Communities

There is no structured and official council established by TCs and GCs that directly aims to strengthen economic relations between the two business communities. On the other hand there have been many unofficial rapprochement attempts throughout the history of the Cyprus conflict led by the southern and northern business circles. One of them is the establishment of the Economic Forum for the Island of Cyprus and the other is the cooperation between the Turkish Cypriot Chamber of Commerce (TCCC) and the Cyprus Chamber of Commerce and Industry (CCCI).

In 1998, the GC and TC business people made an agreement for the preservation of cultural and religious heritage of both parts of island (Christou, 1998). Towards the end of 1998, business people were discussing the possibilities of cooperation for providing drinking water by pipeline from Turkey. The meeting brokered by US and Norway, was led by Richard Holbrook who was US President Clinton's special representative for Cyprus (Turkish Press Review, 1998).

Starting its “Cyprus Initiative” project in 1997, PRIO aimed to facilitate the work of a group of business people in the north and south of Cyprus for their cooperation. By the early 1999, it became clear that cooperation at the business level was highly dependent upon achieving a political settlement, which appeared blocked at that time. In 1999, by obtaining office space at Ledra Palace with the agreement of UN, PRIO helped a business group to reconvene and meet with TC and GC leaders. Hence practical solutions were lacking for cooperation between the business communities and the political conditions were against a favourable exploration for cooperation. In December 2001, business leaders from north and south met for the first time in several years (PRIO, 2005).

On the other hand, exchanges of visits between TCCC and CCCI started intensifying in 2001. This improvement coincides with the resumption of face-to-face talks between the leaders Denктаş and Clerides. TCCC was officially established in 1959 and was later internationally recognised through its membership at the International Chamber of Commerce. The Chamber currently has 9.000 registered members. TCCC houses the European Information Centre providing information on the EU aims to increase the awareness of the TCs on the issues related to the EU. The president of the Chamber Ali Erel states that there needs to be deep structural changes for the TC economy to get a sound structure. The Chamber sees free functioning of the market and free competition to work through EU membership process (TCCC, 2005a). CCCI on the other hand was established in 1927. It is the federation of local chambers of commerce. Around 8.000 enterprises are members of the Chamber. In general, CCCI aims at contributing towards a balanced growth within the framework of the EU (CCCI, 2005). The Chamber is chaired by Vasilis Rologis.

In January 2002, at the invitation PRIO, a series of meetings between three Greek Cypriot and three Turkish Cypriot business leaders took place in Athens⁶². The group came to the conclusion to form a study group in order to prepare the establishment of an “Economic Forum for the Island of Cyprus”. The Forum was supposed to support the peace process by proposing policies to strengthen the economy of TCs and GCs and equalize competitiveness and per capita income of two communities. These proposals would include policies regarding the accession to the EU, education—particularly history and language education—, environment, commerce, tourism and projects for

⁶² Participants of the meeting were Mustafa Damdelen (TCCC), Ali Erel (TCCC), Constantinos Lordos (Lordos Group of Companies), Andreas Matsis, Erdil Nami (TCCC) and Nicos Severis (TCCC, 2002a). Lordos is also a member of a group called Brussels Group—a group that first met in 1997 in Brussels by the invitation of Richard Holbrook, it tries to promote the idea of bi-communal cooperation in many areas from solving the water shortage to the promotion of cultural relations (Demetriou, 2000). Şarik Tara later joined the group and explained he is interested in constructing a water pipeline from Manavgat of Turkey to northern Cyprus (Phillips, 2005). In 2000, Lordos opened a meeting place for TCs and GCs (Wolleh, 2001).

rapprochement. PRIO and GTF were expected to support the study group (TCCC, 2002a). This initiative found coverage in the Turkish, Greek, GC and TC media. In an interview Lordos mentioned that as a group they were not in liaison with the government, though they were expecting both sides to be supportive. They wished to increase the number of participants to 10 and 10 and to include personalities from the media and academia (Christou, 2002).

In the following months, TCCC and CCCI continued their regular meetings. The leaders of the chambers agreed to exchange proposals on the EU funds totalling an amount of 1,5 million Euros. They declared that they made an attempt to work together in the future to make small and medium size enterprises (SME) of the island benefit from EU funds. They also decided that future meetings would be held either at Ledra Palace or in Brussels (Kıbrıs, 2002). Later in February 2002, seven TC economic organisations made a call to Denktaş and Clerides for a peace settlement. They demanded Clerides to abolish the embargoes on the TCs and Denktaş to accept that EU was an essential part of the solution. The business leaders also called the UN, EU and US to treat both sides equally (TCCC, 2002b).

In April, June and October 2002, at the invitation of PRIO and GTF, a set of meetings were held in Rome, Sofia and Athens respectively. Along GTF members, these meetings included a wider circle of participants from northern and southern parts of the island, business leaders such as Erel, Lordos and political leaders such as Mehmet Ali Talat⁶³, Mustafa Akıncı⁶⁴ and Katie Clerides⁶⁵. At the meetings, the focus was common interests in Cyprus. On the last meeting, the group touched upon the shortly expected Annan Plan and the necessity for principle, mutual acceptability and long-term sustainability for a peace

⁶³ He is the current President and former Prime Minister of TRNC.

⁶⁴ The leader of Peace and Democracy Movement (PDM) political party.

⁶⁵ She is the Democratic Rally Party (DISY)'s Member of the Parliament and the daughter of former GC President Clerides. She is also a member of the "Oxford Group" outlined in Chapter 4.5.

settlement (GTF, 2002a; GTF, 2002b; GTF, 2002c), though the issue of previously planned ‘Economic Forum for the Island of Cyprus’ was not touched upon. Later in 2002, leaders of TCCC and CCCI met several times and sent messages to work on projects in areas of SME development and transportation of milk and animal products from north to the south (Cyprus News Agency, 2002a; TCCC, 2002c). In November 2002, the two chambers made a statement calling the leaders of the two communities to negotiate on the basis of the Annan Plan (Cyprus News Agency, 2002b; TCCC, 2002d). In the following year the two chambers reiterated this message in various platforms.

In June 2003, TCCC joined a meeting held with the EU Commissioner Günther Verheugen. At this meeting the Chamber made the demands for the permission for tourists to stay overnight in the north, direct trade between the north and south, exportation from northern harbours and the need for a peace settlement before 1 May 2004 (Yenidüzen, 2003). Towards this date, meetings between north and south Cypriot business people and chambers of commerce intensified. In March 2004, the two chambers made a joint declaration that the solution based on the Annan Plan should provide for a fully functioning market economy. For developing a healthy economic environment and monetary stability the chambers suggested the existence of a single and well functioning central bank. They made the request for prioritising the free and fair competition all over the island (TCCC, 2004).

In January 2005, TCCC joined other 31 northern NGOs—the North Civil Initiative—to demand from Annan to take the initiative to start the negotiations before 3 October 2005—start of Turkey-EU negotiations (North Civil Initiative, 2005). In March 2005, the two chambers decided to form a committee to improve the Green Line trade regulations (Arca Ajans, 2005). The committee agreed to have the Green Line trade based

on the principle of reciprocity and to have the same rules applied for products that are transferred from south to north (TCCC, 2005b).

4.9. Turkish-Armenian Business Development Council (TABDC)

In 1997, in the Black Sea Economic Cooperation (BSEC) summit held in Istanbul, institutionalisation of economic relations between Turkey and Armenia were included in the agenda. A group of Turkish and Armenian business people serving in logistics business transporting food aid to Azerbaijan, Uzbekistan, Armenia and Tajikistan through maritime and land transport, proposed to form a Turkish-Armenian business council. This proposal was well taken by BSEC as well as by the businessperson Telman Ter Petrossian—the brother of the then Armenian President. As a result, Turkish-Armenian Business Development Council was founded with the aim of improving communication and cooperation between Armenian and Turkish companies functioning in various sectors. The Council established in both countries as counterpart agencies, could not be integrated into DEİK as a formal structure since there were no diplomatic relations between the two countries (Gültekin, 2002; Soyak, 2004). The Council is co-chaired by Kaan Soyak on the Turkish side and Arsen Ghazarian on the Armenian side who is the president of the Association of Armenian Businessmen and Industrialists. The Council has offices in Istanbul, Yerevan, US and Brussels.

TABDC is in the search of strengthening business ties and interactions between Armenia, central, eastern and southeastern Anatolia and the Armenian Diaspora. The Council aims at mobilising the Diaspora in the interest of both Turkey and Armenia (TABDC, 2005).

From 1997 to this date, the Council has gained many accomplishments. TABDC has organized a number of mutual business trips in Armenia and Turkey attended by business people and business associations of both countries. It started an initiative for the

opening of a Turkish Airlines office based in Yerevan and start of regular flights between the two countries. The Council helps organising tours for Diaspora Armenians as well as non-Armenian tourists in Central, Eastern and Southeastern Anatolia. TABDC is engaged in the project to restore Akhtamar Church situated on the Van Lake, where Istanbul Chamber of Commerce undertakes the financial part of the project. The Council is involved in other cultural activities such as traditional and classical music concerts, folks dance performances and music album productions connecting artists of both societies. TABDC established direct contacts between Yerevan State University and Middle East Technical University based in Ankara. In 1999, the two universities signed a memorandum for academic cooperation to open the way for student exchanges and academic trips (TABDC, 2005). Nevertheless, the protocols between universities did not permit a functioning cooperation between Armenian and Turkish academic circles (Gültekin, 2002).

In 1999, the Council forwarded a suggestion to the then Turkish President Süleyman Demirel to initiate a Commission led by Turkish and Armenian historians to conduct an independent and impartial academic study on the events of 1915 (Soyak 2004). In January 2004, Turkish History Institution and the National Academy of Sciences of Armenia under the auspices of Vienna University have started a joint-study to delve into 1915 events under the name of ‘Vienna Armenian-Turkish Platform’ (VAT). It was informed that Turkish and Armenian historians were preparing to exchange documents for mutual investigation. It was planned that the platform would start discussing the issue in the beginning of 2005, using these documents as final sources (Milliyet, 2003; Akyol, 2004). After exchange of documents, the meeting for reviewing the documents had to be shifted to an uncertain date due to Armenian historians’ cancellation of their attendance (Erdoğan, 2005).

TABDC works with businessmen associations and chambers of commerce in Kars and Iğdır—border provinces negatively affected by the border closure. The Council tries to connect the links between merchants and entrepreneurs from both sides. The Council considers Armenian Diaspora members as potential investors and commercial mediators. TABDC undertakes lobbying activities for the opening of the Turkish-Armenian border, since it perceives political and economic issues in relations between two countries interdependent on each other. The Council carries out activities for normalisation of political relations and re-establishment of diplomatic relations between the two countries (Gültekin, 2002).

In year 1998, the Council made the attempt to take representatives of Turkish companies to Yerevan for an exposition of Turkish and Armenian products. 150 Turkish companies showed interest for participation though the event had to be cancelled due to the intervention by the Turkish Ministry of Foreign Affairs (Gültekin, 2002).

According to Noyan Soyak, the vice-chairperson of the Council, Turkey relinquishes the opportunity to play the mediator role in resolving conflicts of the region by not opening its border with Armenia (2004). Having conducted a valuable research on the stakes of opening the border, Burcu Gültekin argues since Turkish products can reach the Armenian market, the efficiency of the embargo is in question. Turkey's choice to resort to economic sanctions must be disputed in the sense how much Turkey is able to reach its political objectives. The crucial point that one should be concerned about is that the Armenian society considers Turkey's closure as the source of their daily life problems. The Armenian public perceives Turkey as a powerful country arousing fear. This fact results with an anti-Turkish tendency among Armenian public opinion leading to circumstances like boycotts against Turkish goods (2002).

In April 2003, marking the 10th anniversary of the border closure, TABDC gave the message of the necessity of the opening of the border and promoting economic cooperation in the region, in a conference held in the European Parliament. The conference was attended by officials and diplomats from EU institutions, as well as from the Embassies of Turkey, Azerbaijan and Armenia (Abhaber, 2003). One other step that TABDC is in full support with is the renovation of Kars- Gyumri- Tbilisi railway in reaction to Turkey's plans to build a new railway link from Kars to Baku (Peuch, 2003).

Noyan Soyak explains TABDC aimed to provide the necessary conditions for both countries' officials to hold direct talks, which turned out to be a success. The Council preferred to undertake activities at economic, cultural and social levels putting issues of Nagorno-Karabakh and events of 1915 aside, since it perceives these issues difficult to resolve which must be addressed at the political level. The Council had received funding from Centre for Global Peace of American University (AU-CGP) for some projects implemented. Further, the Council maintains good relations with the Turkish and Armenian Foreign Ministries as well as other relevant governmental bodies (2004).

In February 2005, Kaan Soyak invited officials of Dashnaksutyun Party to Turkey to start a dialogue on urgent matters. He argued Dashnaksutyun was a serious political party and he wanted to show every effort to make this dialogue possible (Kalantarian, 2005). He exerted that Azerbaijan was conducting a large-scale propaganda in Turkey; and Azerbaijan's position should not be a factor for the opening of the border (Mkrtchyan, 2005).

5. An Overall Assessment of the Selected Unofficial Diplomacy Activities

“Another world is possible—if we work to build it. There is a lot that has been done in the past decades that has been tremendous, and that is continuing to be done now, every day,

in many spaces of the world. This should be learned from, celebrated, appreciated and built upon, but much, much more is needed” (Brand-Jacobsen, 2004).

5.1. General Assessment of Unofficial Diplomacy Initiatives on Turkish-Greek Conflict

The rapprochement efforts between Turkish and Greek civic organisations or individuals dates back to 1970s and 80s with the early efforts of “Abdi İpekçi Friendship Peace Prize” and the Turkey-Greece Friendship Association. Since most of the Turkish NGOs are established or run in Istanbul, their geographical proximity to Greece engenders an advantage for developing joint-efforts. From the beginning there have been many joint rapprochement activities in academic, social, cultural and economic contexts. Currently, there is an abundance of projects and activities between Turkish and Greek NGOs particularly those directly targeting or directly implemented by the Greek and Turkish youth. Greece and Turkey have a deep-rooted unofficial diplomacy history, where both sides gained the opportunity to assess other side’s needs, past traumas, concerns and expectations, as well as common interests. In particular, Turkey’s EU candidacy plays an accelerating role in the reconciliation process. This acceleration is created and supported by the EU by providing civic dialogue funds to NGOs, by the business sector, by a number of media institutions—those in support of Turkey’s EU membership—and by both governments. The fact that the individuals partaking Turkish-Greek rapprochement efforts are mainly academics and journalists, the wider dissemination of relevant information and positive messages are made possible through their respective channels. Table 1 illustrates some of the early and current second track diplomacy efforts working for the Greek and Turkish rapprochement.

Table 1. Past and Present Examples of Unofficial Diplomacy Initiatives and Activities for Turkish-Greek Rapprochement⁶⁶

Nongovernmental / professional	- Greek Turkish Forum (GTF)
Business	- Southeast European Cooperative Initiative (SECI) - Black Sea Economic Cooperation (BSEC) - Turkish-Greek Business Council (TGBC) - Foreign Economic Relations Board (DEİK) - Cooperation between Federation of Greek Industrialists (FGI) and Turkish Industrialists' and Businessmen's Association (TÜSİAD)
Private citizens	- Turkey-Greece Friendship Association (TYDD) - Abdi İpekçi Friendship and Peace Prize - Women's Peace Initiative (WINPEACE) - AEGEE Turkish-Greek Civic Dialogue Program - The VEN Volunteers Association conducting Turkish-Greek culture and arts festivals - Greek-Turkish arts festivals conducted by Daphne Association - Cultural heritage projects by the Lausanne Treaty Emigrants Foundation (LMV) - Turkish-Greek Student Society (TurGreSoc) - Zülfü Livaneli conducting cultural dialogue with Greek artists
Research, training and education	- The International Peace Research Institute of Oslo (PRIO) - Halki International Seminars organised by the Hellenic Foundation for European and Foreign Policy (ELIAMEP) - Istanbul Policy Center at Sabancı University and ELIAMEP's conflict resolution project for Turkish-Greek university students - Improvement of Balkan History Textbooks Project of the History Foundation of Turkey - Joint History Project of Center for Democracy and Reconciliation in Southeast Europe (CDRSEE) - Research projects and workshops by the European Union and Border Conflicts: The Impact of Integration and Association (EUBORDERCONF) on Greek-Turkish relations - Summer school project of İstanbul Bilgi University for Greek and Turkish university students - Studies and books by Hercules Millas on Greek-Turkish relations
Funding/ Support	- Turkish Foreign Ministry - Greek Foreign Ministry - EU Turkish-Greek Civic Dialogue Program - EU Interreg III Cross Border Cooperation Programme between Turkey and Greece - PRIO - Royal United Services Institute (RUSI) - Roberts Centre
Communications	- Media cooperation project run by the European Centre for Common

⁶⁶ Please note that these examples are merely limited to the research conducted by the author. There are many other peacemaking efforts not reflected on this table. The grouping is inspired by the multi-track diplomacy concept of Diamond and McDonald (1996), hence activism (track six) and religion (track seven) are omitted from the list.

and the media	Ground (ECCG) - Conference of the Turkish-Greek Journalists by the “Contact Group”
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5.2. General Assessment of Unofficial Diplomacy Initiatives on Cyprus Conflict

The official diplomacy efforts mainly led by the UN throughout the conflict history of the island did not prioritise addressing the deep-rooted fears and needs of both communities and the deep inter-communal mistrust. Early unofficial diplomacy efforts date back to 1966 when the UN mediation process came to a halt. Starting with the controlled communication facilitated by John Burton, Cyprus issue functioned as a laboratory for many of the institutes of interactive problem-solving and conflict resolution. Beginning 1990s, particularly the establishment of Cyprus Consortium and inauguration of bi-communal activities led to wider communal involvement in peacemaking activities. Continual meetings of bi-communal groups constructed an atmosphere where participants were able to address the traumas of the past, sources of mistrust, their needs and fears, and demands from the other side. The grassroots reconciliation efforts possess a courageous, continuous and demanding characteristic. The continuous support of governments of UK and US, and the UN and in the new era the support of the EU is one other significant aspect of unofficial and bi-communal peace activities in Cyprus. Table 2 illustrates some of the early and current second track diplomacy efforts targeting the TC and GC rapprochement.

Table 2. Past and Present Examples of Unofficial Diplomacy Initiatives and Activities for Turkish Cypriot-Greek Cypriot Rapprochement⁶⁷

Nongovernmental / professional	- <u>Early interactive conflict resolution workshops by:</u> Centre for the Analysis of Conflict- University College London (John Burton); Leonard Doob of Yale; Herbert Kelman of Harvard; International Negotiation Network at the Carter Center; Canadian Institute for International Peace and Security Studies (Ronald J. Fisher) - Institute for Multi-Track Diplomacy (IMTD)
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⁶⁷ Please note that these examples are merely limited to the research conducted by the author. There are many other peacemaking efforts not reflected on this table.

	- Cyprus Consortium - Greek Turkish Forum (GTF)
Business	- Economic Forum for the Island of Cyprus - Brussels Group - Cooperation between Turkish Cypriot Chamber of Commerce (TCCC) and Cyprus Chamber of Commerce and Industry (CCCI) - Turkish Industrialists' and Businessmen's Association (TÜSİAD) - Cyprus Employers and Industrialists Federation (OEB) - TRNC Businessmen Association (İŞAD)
Private citizens	- Bi-Communal Conflict Resolution Committee - Oxford Group - Conflict Resolution Trainer Group - <u>Bi-communal groups phase I</u>: Educators Group, Citizens Group, Federation and EU Study Group, Peace Concert, Cultural Evening Planning Group, "Letters to the other side" Group, Management Group, Women Group, Young Political Leaders Group, Students Group I and Lawyers Group - <u>Bi-communal groups phase II</u>: Citizens Group II-VII, Brussels Women Group, Co-Villager Project, Youth Encounters for Peace, Youth Environmentalists, Artists Group, Federalism Group, Students Group II and Environmental Group - 'Common Vision Initiative' supported by 86 NGOs - 'This Country is Ours Platform' supported by 92 NGOs - 'The North Civil Initiative' supported by 32 NGOs - Citizens' Movement for Re-unification and Co-existence - Hands Across the Divide (HAD) - Turkish-Greek Student Society (TurGreSoc) - New Cyprus Association - Youth Promoting Peace (Y2P)
Research, training and education	- "Cyprus Initiative" project of PRIO - Research projects and workshops by the EU and Border Conflicts: The Impact of Integration and Association (EUBORDERCONF) on Cyprus issue - Research projects of the Hellenic Foundation for European and Foreign Policy (ELIAMEP) - Research projects of Turkish Economic and Social Studies Foundation (TESEV) on Cyprus issue - Education for Peace Project conducted by Project Oriented Searching Team (POST)
Funding/ Suport	- United States Agency for International Development (USAID) - United Nations Office for Project Services (UNOPS) - UN Development Programme (UNDP)'s Bi-communal Development Programme - EU Partnership for the Future Programme - America-Mideast Educational and Training Services (AMIDEAST) - UK High Commission - US State Department - Cyprus Fulbright Commission - Carnegie Corporation - Slovak Embassy

	- Norwegian Government - Canadian Government - Dutch Government - PRIO
Communications and the media	- Soap operas for children produced by Common Ground - <i>Hade</i> Magazine as a bi-communal project - Young Cypriot journalists training program conducted by HasNa - <i>HasNa</i> Journal - Technology for Peace (TFP) project as a bi-communal project

5.3. General Assessment of Unofficial Diplomacy Initiatives on Turkish-Armenian Conflict

With the freeze of diplomatic relations between Armenia and Turkey, citizens' diplomacy efforts started becoming visible mid-1990s. Establishment of the Turkish-Armenian Business Development Council (TABDC) in 1997 is one of the first courageous attempts for rapprochement particularly on the economic context. The common point of civic formations aiming to ease tension between Turkey and Armenia is the campaign for border opening between Armenia and Turkey. There are only a few NGOs in Turkey that put Armenian-Turkish reconciliation into their agenda, possibly due to the controversy created by the genocide issue and partly due to lack of Turkish NGOs' experience in liaising with NGOs in Turkey's east neighbouring countries. The encouragement of the EU for NGO partnerships does not embrace the cooperation between Turkish and Armenian NGOs. Any type of unofficial peacemaking attempt in geographical context encounters the opposition and resistance of the radical nationalistic Armenian approach, mainly stemming from the Armenian Diaspora. The genocide issue stands in the way of second track diplomacy efforts as one big obstacle to overcome, as is the source of stalemated Turkish-Armenian political relations. The support of US is one other significant character of Turkish-Armenian citizens' rapprochement activities. Table 3 illustrates some of the early and current second track diplomacy efforts working for the Armenian-Turkish rapprochement.

Table 3. Past and Present Examples of Unofficial Diplomacy Initiatives and Activities for Turkish-Armenian Rapprochement⁶⁸

Nongovernmental / professional	- Turkish-Armenian Reconciliation Commission (TARC)
Business	- Black Sea Economic Cooperation (BSEC) - Turkish-Armenian Business Development Council (TABDC) - Association of the Industrialists and the Businessmen in Kars (KARSİAD) - Iğdır Chamber of Commerce - Trabzon Chamber of Commerce
Private citizens	- Turkish Armenian Young Women's Group (TAYWG) - Eurasia Cultural and Social Development Association - Armenian Turkish Rapprochement Forum (FRAT) - Initiatives of Helsinki Citizens Assembly for Turkish-Armenian Dialogue - Armenia trip of the civic initiative called 'East Conference' (<i>Doğu Konferansı</i>) - Joint-activities between Marmara Group Strategic and Social Research Foundation and Armenian Association of University Women - Project to restore Akhtamar Church - Peace Initiative/ Turkey - Armenians of Turkey actively contributing to mutual understanding
Research, training and education	- Research on "Armenian and Turkish Citizens' Mutual Perceptions and Dialogue" undertaken by TESEV - Vienna Armenian-Turkish Platform (VAT)
Funding Support	- The Track Two Program on Turkey and Caucasus of the Centre for Global Peace of American University (AU-CGP) - US State Department - RUSI - Diplomatic Academy of Vienna
Communications and the media	- <i>Agos</i> Newspaper - Joint activities of Yerevan Press Club and the Association of Diplomacy Correspondents in Ankara - Caucasian Forum's "Journalists for Peace" training project for Turkish, Armenian and Azerbaijani journalists

5.4. Overall Assessment of Second Track Diplomacy Cases Outlined in the Thesis

In this chapter, an overall analysis and assessment of the chosen civil diplomacy cases will be illuminated. For gathering data for their book *Multi-Track Diplomacy*, Diamond and McDonald answered questions of "mission, mandate, source of funds,

⁶⁸ Please note that these examples are merely limited to the research conducted by the author. There are many other peacemaking efforts not reflected on this table.

structure, activities, products, results, difficulties, strengths, place in the field, future plans, and perceived effectiveness” (1996: viii). For planning a second track diplomacy initiative Gurr and Davies suggest asking the questions concerning “goals of the initiative”, “possible points for initiating a dialogue”, relevant people “to convene a dialogue”, “steps... needed to prepare the ground for a suitable ground”, “processes... to propose for facilitating movement”, the framework and the process to evaluate the initiative (2002: 46-47). These questions are applicable to analyse the progress of an already established and functioning peace initiative. It is believed that most of the points proposed are already covered in Chapter 4 for the chosen peace efforts. Though there are several other aspects that need to be further analysed—internally as well as in comparison. These assessment criteria are: strengths, weaknesses, opportunities, threats (SWOT analysis in short), relevant parties in the process of rapprochement, interaction between various track two initiatives, their place in the field, reaction to crisis situations, continuity, confidentiality and secrecy, gender perspective and inclusion of women, source of funds, government relations and its approach, media relations and its reactions, capacity building and proficiency in the field, rapprochement at societal and political levels and self-assessment. In order to simplify the process, following abbreviations will be used for each of the cases:

- Women’s Peace Initiative (WINPEACE)
- Hands Across the Divide (HAD)
- Rapprochement activities led by Turkish and Armenian women (TR-AR women)
- Greek Turkish Forum (GTF)
- Cyprus Consortium and subsequent bi-communal activities (CC and following)
- Turkish-Armenian Reconciliation Commission (TARC)
- Turkish-Greek Business Council (TGBC)

- Reconciliation activities initiated by Cypriot business communities (TC-GC business)
- Turkish-Armenian Business Development Council (TABDC)
- Turkish (TR)
- Greek (GR)
- Armenian (AR)

SWOT analysis

A SWOT analysis is an effective tool laying out the characteristics of any type of group and looking at circumstances outside the control of the group that might possibly influence its activities. Following table sketches the SWOT analysis of the chosen unofficial diplomacy structures and activities:

Table 4. SWOT Analyses of the Chosen Unofficial Diplomacy Structures and Activities

	Strengths	Weaknesses	Opportunities	Threats
WINPEACE	- Journalist members - Project based working method - Implementing pilot projects - Members active in TR-GR women rights movements - International recognition - Lobbying skills - Occasional high media coverage	- No up-to-date web site - Insufficient wider social support - Not willing to be inclusive	- Turkey's EU membership candidacy - Wider application of peace education and agro-tourism	- Ending of EU-funded projects - Possible TR-GR crises
HAD	- Journalist and trainer/educator members - Established association structure - High media coverage - International recognition	- Association established outside Cyprus - Not working on project-basis - No or no-longer functioning web site - Exclusion of non-English speaking individuals	- A possible solution in Cyprus	- Occasional negative media response - Threat and attack from radical nationalists - Possible stalemate of Cyprus issue
TR-AR women	- Joint-product: <i>WM Magazine</i> - Good relations with women journalists - Lobbying skills	- Dependent upon only one source of finance - No up-to-date web site	- Possibility of border opening - Possibility of start of diplomatic TR-AR relations	- Vague TR-AR relations - Possible escalation of antagonistic sentiments of TR-AR societies
GTF	- Continuity; capability to continue in TR-GR crises situations - Support from TR-GR foreign ministries	- Few or no women members - No up-to-date web site	- Turkey's EU membership candidacy	- Possible cease of support by the TR-GR foreign ministries - Possible change of approach by TR-GR

	- Strong ties with track one diplomacy and the media - Reputable members in media and academic circles - Experienced former track one diplomat members - International recognition - Confidentiality - Facilitation by PRIO			governments - Possible TR-GR crises
CC and following	- Bi-communality - Financial support from UN, US and EU - Wide-spread local participation - Inclusion of women	- Dependent upon foreign funding - Internet not providing up-to-date information - Exclusion of non-English speaking individuals - TCs not being able to use EU funds	- A possible solution in Cyprus - Support from local business sectors	- Occasional negative media response - Threat and attack from radical nationalists - Possible stalemate of Cyprus issue
TARC⁶⁹	- Common members of GTF - Experienced former track one diplomat members	- Few or no women members - Dependent upon only one source of finance - Lack of self-assessment - High membership circulation - No balance in the number of TR-AR members - Lack of confidentiality - Lack of solidarity and trust among members - Web site with scarce	Not applicable	- Threat and attack from AR radical nationalists - Negative AR media coverage

⁶⁹ Please note that TARC no longer exists, therefore there are no ‘opportunities’ outlined. ‘Threats’ column define only past threat factors.

		information - Disability to protect its members from attacks - Low TR media coverage		
TGBC	- High media coverage - Advantage of functioning under DEİK umbrella - TR-GR government support - International recognition and support	- Few or no women members - Vulnerable to TR-GR crises situations - DEİK's web site providing scarce information	- Turkey's EU membership candidacy - Increase of TR-GR trade and investment - Common interests of TR-GR business people	- Possible TR-GR crises
TC-GC business	- Well functioning web-site (TCCC) - High media coverage	- Few or no women members - No established council structure	- A possible solution in Cyprus - Development of Green Line Trade	- Possible stalemate of Cyprus issue
TABDC	- Continuity - High media coverage - Excellent web-site - Good relations with business people in Armenia and in border regions of Turkey	- Few or no women members - No established council structure under DEİK umbrella	- Possibility of border opening; start of border trade - Possibility of start of diplomatic TR-AR relations - Possible opening of Kars-Gyumri-Tbilisi railway	- Vague TR-AR relations - Possible escalation of antagonistic sentiments of TR-AR societies

Relevant parties

With relevant parties, those actors are meant significant in the process of peacemaking by unofficial bodies and individuals. Relevant parties can attain their significance through their positive, negative or indifferent approach. In most of the cases TCs and GCs are essential and in some cases indispensable actors in TR-GR rapprochement processes. Many TR-GR second track initiatives ensure the attendance of TCs and GCs in their activities as observed in activities of WINPEACE, GTF and TGBC.

GCs and TCs are hesitant to include Cyprus Diaspora, as observed in HAD's involvement with the Diaspora. There is no evidence of inclusion of mainland Turks in bi-communal activities. As Wolleh notes "[t]he inclusion of mainland Turks would result in a massive refusal by the Greek Cypriot society as the question of Turkish settlements in the North is politically highly controversial and explosive" (2001: 21).

In the case of TR-AR relations, the Armenian Diaspora—mainly of US, Russia and France—with an estimated population of seven million interfere into the reconciliation forums, which has been very annoying throughout TARC's life-span. Looking from this perspective it is advisable and challenging to include the Armenian Diaspora as much as possible considering the negative attitude of excluded actors to surmount the process. TABDC's willingness to attain dialogue with Armenian Diaspora and its latest attempt to initiate dialogue with Dashnaksutyun party can lead to transformation into a productive relation in the longer term. On the other hand, Armenians of Turkey voluntarily contribute to the rapprochement process using their own capacities as academics, journalists or artists. They use their historical background, knowledge and experience living along with Turks as valuable factors giving them the capacity to understand both sides of the conflict and to ease the process for mutual understanding.

By generating alternative solutions, the civic diplomacy forums should extend to those actors directly affected by the conflict situation and by the outcome of a peace settlement.

Interaction between various track two initiatives/ place in the field

Three TR-GR peace initiative cases analysed lack the willingness and efforts to interact in platforms of meetings, projects and in making statements. WINPEACE, GTF and TGBC give their maximum effort to be active in their respective field directing their voice to their target groups, without acknowledging the possibility to strengthen their cause by having a common voice.

TC NGOs active in the request for an immediate peace settlement in Cyprus exert solidarity since they are connected through a common cause. There have been a number of TC civic platforms comprising a high number of NGOs representing the needs and demands of the majority of TC community. Hence, the TC second track initiatives have a widespread and well-integrated nature. Three cases analysed in the thesis framework have actively integrated into this mass peace movement.

In the current stage, TR-AR peace initiatives outlined in this research do not exercise a high level of cooperation though they are the leading voices in the demand for opening of TR-AR border. The common denominator remains to be the demands from respective governments and the financing provided by AU-CGP.

The interaction between TR-GR, TC-GC and TR-AR peace groups is another issue to be reviewed. WINPEACE and HAD's interaction, TR-GR business people's interaction with TABDC and TC-GC business leaders, and WINPEACE's structure allowing women organisations working for TR-AR reconciliation leads to cross-regional knowledge and information sharing. Personalities like İlter Türkmen, Özdem Sanberk and Üstün Ergüder as current or former members of both GTF and TARC possibly contribute to cross-regional interaction and carrying their experience in one forum to the other. Not to mention, these

efforts are imprisoned in their respective field of activity, i.e. women communicate with other women organisations, so do business people and reconciliation forum members.

Reaction to crisis situations

It has been put forth many times that unofficial peace-building efforts should not be negatively affected by crisis situations that occur in the area of involvement. These crisis situations should neither lead to cease of activities nor to creation of internal crises. This prescription makes sense considering the role of second track initiatives to keep dialogue channels open and to interfere by proposing alternative ways when channels become blocked. In times of escalation, replicating track one approach threatens the characteristic of unofficial forums to be 'second track'.

In TR-GR relations, unofficial initiatives' endurance have been put to test in 1996 Kardak/Imia and 1999 Öcalan crises. Kardak/Imia crisis led to the creation of WINPEACE and GTF, while both did not halt their activities during 1999 Öcalan crisis. In contrast, TGBC unilaterally relinquished its activities shortly after Öcalan's capture in Kenya. This case in time defines the rupture between peace forums and business councils, i.e. reconciliation forums assemble for peace as the 'number one' goal, while business forums consider reconciliation as a tool for furthering their business activities. This explains why business circles cannot pose a courageous role since that would possibly threaten their internal business relations and transactions. Working on long-term projects also leads to become immune to conflict escalation situations, as in the case of WINPEACE.

In TC-GC relations, there has been a long period where from time to time bi-communal activities were temporarily put on hold due to political restrictions. In crisis situations, radical-wing media exerted more criticism on peace groups where bi-communalists had to temporarily freeze activities for the sake of their own security.

In TR-AR relations, a group of TR women cancelled their activity in Yerevan due to European Parliament's controversial decision affecting TR-AR relations. This decision is highly linked with one TR member's status of being a parliament member. This case in time reminds us the necessity of the nature of unofficial peace efforts to be purely civic. As discussed in Chapter 2, the closer forum members are to political decision making processes, the more they will feel restricted and be affected and pressured by the ruling position.

Continuity

As stated in Chapter 2, continuity of unofficial peace efforts is considered as one of the success factors, since enduring efforts can focus on long-term causes and long-range solutions of conflicts and can produce most effective and convenient ways of spreading the message and keeping the channels open. This is why scholar-practitioners suggest dedicating a long time period before the take-off. Before starting a long-term effort, the participants should define tools to resist pressure—from the government, media and various other groups—and their position in times of conflict escalation so as to make the initiative viable.

TARC as the only defunct track two forum analysed in the thesis provides all necessary lessons regarding continuity, attitude in times of crisis and pressure. When initiating the dialogue, there should have been set-up mechanisms to protect commission members from attacks from radicals opposing TR-AR rapprochement. Nevertheless, there were some incidents that TARC's operations itself were the cause of crises highly instigated by the radical-wing Armenian media and Armenian Diaspora. The continuity of TARC's activities as well its members' involvement with TARC would lead to a more open context for deeper dialogue, mutual trust and creation of alternative problem-solving mechanisms. Though, some members' status of being former diplomats, the fracture caused by disrespect of confidentiality and secrecy, the unwillingness of some members to compromise were some of the reasons to blockade the continuity of the forum.

Confidentiality and secrecy

Confidentiality is the golden rule if informal peace attempts are aimed to create positive results. At the initial stage, peace forum participants as well as facilitators should pledge to follow the rule of confidentiality and secrecy. When making decisions, forum members should come to terms on the percentage of information that will be made public. Those members who leak information without the consent of all forum members should immediately be excluded from forum activities. Only in such a context can participants feel without any pressure knowing they attend meetings at their own capacity with no official status.

These points suggest that former diplomat members of TARC should have felt highly pressured to defend state-led position more ambitiously the more the rules of secrecy and confidentiality are broken. As Phillips notes, “TARC knew that information about its work would leak out”, that explains TARC’s “proactive” media relations (2005: 51). Hence, there have been many cases that TARC’s activities and effectiveness became jeopardised due its members’ attitude change when sharing information with the media. In such a state, reaching the mature state for mutual understanding, open dialogue with acknowledgement of past sufferings and forgiveness and finally reaching a consensus becomes impossible. In comparison, academic members of TARC should have felt less pressure relying on scholarly work being detached from the slippery slope of diplomacy.

Continuing with TARC as the most significant example for this assessment criterion, one might say this issue became more controversial when David L. Phillips’s book revealing many details on TARC’s story was published. The book not only exhibits excerpts from the minutes of forum meetings but shares information on very personal and deep moments that participants would not feel comfortable to have them made public. At this stage, one can doubt if the nature of the book—highly relying on the principle of transparency—serves the

aim of track two diplomacy—especially considering the forum was initially dominated by former government officials—since it probably put former members into a highly difficult position. This fact will presumably deter individuals to commence new initiatives for TR-AR reconciliation. As supported by the words of Phillips “if we failed, there might not be another for many years to come” (2005: 51). We may argue that there is a dividing line between secrecy and transparency, though it is the facilitators of interactive conflict resolution workshops who are supposed to be of utmost reliability and trustworthiness; and second prior to sharing any information or statement with the public, all forum members must be content with it, even though the initiative has ceased its activities. Otherwise, the members would start acting and talking like track one diplomats, as explained above. We can question whether TARC exhibits the example of a genuine track two diplomacy initiative, since some of its characteristics contradict with the nature of track two diplomacy. As Phillips put it “[I]like some TARC members, I too was using my government connections to compel progress” (2005: 47). As coined by some scholar-practitioners, the term “track-one-and-half” well represents TARC when taking its structure and web of relations into consideration—some members taking orders from their respective governments, defending government position, not tending to compromise, closed to dialogue and highly male-dominated.

Cynthia Cockburn’s *The Line*, revealing the life story of HAD shows us how ideally the border line of secrecy and publicity is drawn. She refrained from providing names of those women who were discontent to appear when their views were reflected. It must be added that HAD does not hold the structure of a temporary interactive problem-solving workshop that directly aims at influencing the foreign policy making.

Gender perspective and inclusion of women

WINPEACE, HAD and TR-AR women are peace initiatives led by only women activists. Their approach considers a gender-perspective, which links conflict escalation with

the status of and attitude towards women and their exclusion or low level of participation from decision making mechanisms. Bi-communal Trainer Group and following bi-communal groups contained a gender balance, though IMTD and Cyprus Fulbright Commission “do not seem to have had any explicit policy on the inclusion of women” as Cockburn notes (2004: 152). For example, Broome’s ‘Design Workshop’ contained 18 men and 12 women. As Wolleh explains “in the North more women are organised than in the South, and sometimes they felt noticeably hindered by the principle of equal numbers” (2001: 21).

Women are purely represented in GTF and TARC. There is only one active woman member at GTF—namely Paulina Lampsas—and one women member at TARC—namely Şule Kut—who joined the forum at a later stage. This disturbing gender imbalance probably depends on the intentional preference of authorities making the invitation to individuals to join, since people are not allowed to attend problem-solving forum without invitation. The weak participation of women deteriorates the equal-representation rule of peace forums and makes it no different than track one diplomacy efforts possessing a male-dominated nature where power, dominance, insistence and competition are prioritised.

The male dominated business sector reiterates itself in peace initiatives led by business circles. Business leaders disregard the role of women in peacemaking and do not prioritise gender balance. TABDC is slightly exceptional by having opened the way for women activists to celebrate 8 March Women’s Day with their counterparts in Yerevan. At TABDC’s activities more women are involved in comparison to other business peace forums, but this representation remains to be insufficient. In addition, it is only Turkish Cypriot Chamber of Commerce (TCCC) that uses the term “business people” instead of “businessmen” on its web site, presuming TCCC considers women as business people as well.

Source of funds

The transparency of source of funds—financial or in-kind contribution—is one of the rules to make the work of citizens' peace attempts accountable and reliable. When source of funds are made public, on one hand informal diplomats can find the space to confront attacks, on the other they can attain the advantage to be trustworthiness. When participants keep silent when they are asked about source of funds, actors opposing de-escalation and reconciliation mostly use it as an opportunity to make speculations on funding. This speculation can lead to pressure to cease of activities.

For peace initiatives on TR-GR relations, it is dominantly the EU, and TR and GR foreign ministries providing source of funds. Northwestern European countries support TR-GR unofficial peace groups by providing expertise in the area. Turkey's EU accession necessitated EU Commission to encourage TR-GR NGOs to conduct joint programs and to initiate a cross border cooperation programme.

For peace initiatives led by TCs and GCs, the UN, UK and US are leading actors in providing financial aid. The UN provides funds through UNDP and UNOPS programs, the UK through the UK High Commission and British foundations, and US through USAID, American foundations and think-tanks, and Cyprus Fulbright Commission.

In the Armenian case, as observed there are less projects and activities run for the TR-AR reconciliation when compared with TR-GR and TC-GC relations. The examples examined for AR-TR ease of relations retain the common denominator of the support of 'The Track Two Program on Turkey and Caucasus' of AU-CGP, which is financed by the US State Department⁷⁰.

The corporate social responsibility is still a peculiar concept for most of the profit making companies in Turkey. Rare examples providing financial assistance for socially

⁷⁰ When TARC was inaugurated, there have been many allegations that the US government financed its activities. Phillips in his book notes that "[s]ome of TARC's direct costs were indeed paid for out of the State Department grant to American University. At no time, however were TARC members compensated" (2005: 65).

contented projects are far from supporting projects for reconciliation and conflict resolution. In the area of peacemaking and conflict resolution, it is business councils that directly fund their business alliance programs. In addition, they support cultural and social activities undertaken by civil society organisations.

Government relations and its approach

Depending upon change of the government, its attitude towards and expectation from track two diplomacy changes. The Turkish Foreign Ministry follows activities of informal peace initiatives either through their direct reporting or press statements made after important events. In TR-GR relations, the biggest support was provided in the tenure of foreign ministers Cem and Papandreou. After their finish of term, this support gradually decreased. The Turkish government probably wary of establishing direct links to resolve conflicts with Greece and particularly Armenia concerned of the possible negative attitude of the constituencies leaves the space for track two activities to conduct their reconciliation work. While Turkish government retains a positive approach either by declaring its support openly or by not obstructing activities, it has its red marks. In other words, government interferes track two activities where it sees fit. We can conclude by saying that government does not impede initiatives that would possible provide positive atmosphere for reconciliation while it tries to keep nationalist fractions opposing reconciliation and rapprochement under control.

Armenian government on the other hand does not show an opposing approach hence it states that it has no ties with establishments and activities like TARC. It only mentions “it gets informed about activities of nearly all non-governmental organizations” (cited from the speech of the Armenian foreign ministry spokesperson in Phillips, 2005: 67). The government is hesitant of openly supporting track two activities supposedly due to fear of Dashnaks’ harsh criticism.

Looking at Greek government's position to track two diplomacy efforts, particularly GTF, change of government after failure of G. Papandreou's PASOK party was reflected on GTF's activities. As one of Forum members Üstün Ergüder states, GTF's Greek members were used to have close ties with the PASOK, currently there are some measures to include new members from Karamanlis's governing party. Ergüder adds that the current Turkish government is highly supportive to GTF's operations, highly depending upon former Foreign Minister Yaşar Yakış's proactive role (2005). We might consider GTF as another "track-one-and-half" setting due to the fact that it is backed and financed by both governments.

For the Cyprus case, it is hard to make a general comment on the relations between unofficial interventions and both communities' governments. As Fisher notes "unofficial interventions have been characterized by a lack of continuity and/or connection to both the decisionmaking level and official mediation efforts" (2001: 317). Niyazi Kızılyürek comments that "civil society organizations in Greek Cypriot society act under the influence of political parties and for this reason cannot be considered to be autonomous in the real sense of the word" (2004: 53) and argues "[w]hile the most important problem that citizens' initiatives and civil societies in Southern Cyprus had to face was that these organized attempts would be viewed with suspicion if they at all fell out of the control of the political parties, on the other hand, the autonomous actions of civil groups in Northern Cyprus were seen as a threat to the regime itself" (2004: 54). The current TC President Mehmet Ali Talat's victory in December 2003 elections in north Cyprus was considered by many that the "result was the achievement of the civil society" (Azgın, 2004: 61), since he was known with his pro-peace resolution and pro-EU integration position. Prior to December 2003 elections, TC government was considering track two initiatives as a threat to the nation, while following elections former TC president Denktaş remained singled out in opposing unofficial peace attempts.

When comparing Cypriot peace movement with TR, GR and AR peace efforts, one can argue TC community uses the method of activism more effectively with protests and marches on streets, campaigns supported by platforms of NGOs and making statements and demands from local, regional and international leaders. On the other hand, GC peace community prefers a low-profile approach; hence the peace movement is not as wide-spread and widely supported in south Cyprus as it is in north.

Media relations and its reactions

News and articles reflected by the AR, GR and TC and GC media on informal diplomacy activities seem to be highly critical when compared with media position in Turkey. The ultra-nationalist wing of the Armenian Diaspora is proactive in influencing its community by using the media—particularly the Internet—in an effective way. In particular cases, the Armenian media uses its influential capacity to demand track two activities to come to an end. In contrast the media in Turkey is highly indifferent to peace interventions that aim to ease tension with Greece and Armenia. The nationalist-wing TC and GC media expose a similar approach to Armenian media. The bi-communal groups and their activities have been threatened many times by the TC and GC media calling them as “traitors” to their respective nation.

All peace initiatives except business communities analysed in the thesis included journalist members. Some peace diplomats who do not serve in the media business use their close ties with influential journalists/ television program producers to disseminate their message to the decision makers and to the masses.

Capacity building and proficiency in the field of conflict resolution

Interactive conflict resolution workshops’ progress and effectiveness highly depends on the skills and proficiency of facilitators. In case of GTF, PRIO’s continuing attachment and Dan Smith as its facilitator are some of the contributing elements of the success of Forum

activities. Although chairperson of TARC David L. Phillips states that he was “not trained in Track Two diplomacy” (Phillips, 2005: 1) he has been actively involved in attempts to resolve conflicts between Turks and Kurds, Turks and Greeks, and TCs and GCs prior to his TARC experience. We observe the contradiction between northwestern European and American styles in running forums, the prior holding a low-profile approach perceiving reconciliation as a long-term process while the latter prefers a high-profile looking for quick-fixes—trying to achieve positive results in a given short period of time.

With the start of the era of bi-communal activities initiated in Cyprus, there have been many individuals trained on conflict resolution—an estimated number between 2.500-3.000. For example there are conflict resolution trainers in many peace groups or people at decision-making levels who have been trained on this topic.

Business people active in peacemaking lack the skills and training in conflict analysis and its resolution. They probably confide in their skills of negotiation and persuasion—skills necessary in profit-making sector. Nevertheless competent interactive conflict resolution scholar-practitioners facilitate their gatherings from time to time.

It is necessary for each peace group to build its capacity and gain skills on conflict analysis and its resolution. Individuals involved should learn the necessary tools in peacemaking, reconciliation and conflict transformation. WINPEACE exemplifies this issue by having organised an internal conflict resolution workshop.

Rapprochement at societal level: ability to propose solutions at the social level

1996 Kardak/Imia crisis, 1999 Öcalan crisis and 1999 Marmara earthquakes have been milestones in re-formation of the societal attitude towards the GR and TR “other”. The Greek society was struck and puzzled to watch Turkish people on their televisions suffering from the massive devastation of the Marmara earthquake. This atmosphere provided the mature moment for civil diplomacy to take effect. Currently, there are many rapprochement activities

run by TR-GR organisations at various levels. The continuation of track two activities implemented by private citizens is necessary for TR-GR relations not to fluctuate in times of political and military crises.

A high number of TC-GC reconciliation activities are implemented at grassroots level, probably due to the fact that Cypriot especially TC community has to encounter the effects of the forty year conflict in their every day lives in the form of isolation, unrecognised status and international embargo. In the Greek and Armenian cases, it is mainly the border regions facing the difficulties of tensions with Turkey.

In the case of TR-AR relations, second track diplomacy activities are far from reaching people at the grassroots level. People of border regions who are negatively affected by the border opening should be proactive in running joint-peace activities with people on the “other” side. Currently, it is the municipalities of border regions that establish alliances with their counterparts in Turkey or Armenia. There needs to be massive social peace movements in provinces affected by the border closure—Kars, Iğdır, Yerevan and Gyumri. Armenian peace diplomats reminded their Turkish counterparts many times that there would not be any smooth and healthy reconciliation process unless the issue of 1915 events are addressed. On the other hand, a group of Turkish track two diplomats tend to leave the issue to be addressed merely by politicians or historians. Therefore it is advised that private citizens running for rapprochement activities engender alternative paths and tools to address this issue. Since Armenian society cannot pass a smooth process of mourning, peace initiatives often are weakened or impeded by the 1915 events.

Rapprochement at the political level: ability to propose solutions at the political level

Interactive problem-solving workshops are distinct from other peace initiatives in their task to propose decision makers alternative solutions to ongoing conflict-based problems. GTF appears to be accomplishing its task by having produced a series of reports forwarded to governments. On the other hand, TARC was able to influence the Turkish government to ease visa restrictions on Armenian citizens. The recommendations TARC made to both governments at its closure can only be analysed in the future whether it had an affect on TR and AR governments' decisions. As seen in GTF example, there needs to be a long period allocated before concrete results can be obtained by making recommendations to governing bodies. TARC would have dedicated more time to reach an internal atmosphere dominated by mutual trust and ongoing dialogue before passing recommendations to governments. Alternative channels should continue to keep diplomatic relations between Turkey and Armenia warm.

It is not only track-one-and-half bodies that propose alternative solutions to political problems. All other peace initiatives outlined in the thesis have been very active in making propositions to their governments, the EU, the UN and other countries' governments.

Self-assessment

There are many articles, reports, books, and columns written on peace efforts outlined in the thesis. Though a big proportion represent works of members or facilitators of these forums. It is not very common to have track two activities evaluated by independent experts and it is rare to make these reports public. Bi-communal training activities in Cyprus were evaluated several times independently. It is obvious that there needs to be additional funding to have the activities and effectiveness of peace forums independently evaluated.

On the other hand, it is a difficult task to make the impact assessment of peace activities since the transformation takes a long time—maybe generations. When there is an

accomplishment at the end, the names and contributions of peace activists will hardly be mentioned. In other words, the peace activists will keep on laying tiles patiently and courageously on the path leading to peace, while political leaders will take their slow and reluctant walk on that road. If there is success at the end of the road, political leaders will be the victors not the peace activists. If there is failure at the end of the road, the believers in peace will be accused of naivety or treason.

6. Conclusion

The thesis has concentrated on second track diplomacy bodies and activities working for improved relations between Turks and Greeks, Turkish Cypriots and Greek Cypriots and Turks and Armenians. Before outlining the work of these non-state peace initiatives, the theoretical framework of track two diplomacy had to be elucidated. The definition of the field of track two diplomacy needed to be complemented with concepts of conflict analysis and its resolution, role of NGOs in peacemaking and nonviolent action as a method of peace-building, interactive problem-solving approach as a method of track two diplomacy, psychopolitical approaches in the field and the role of women in peace-building.

In order to make a thorough analysis of track two activities for the chosen conflicts, each conflict case had to be explained with its unique historical facts causing the conflict pass from one generation to the next, the needs, positions and interests of conflicting parties and the official peace interventions that took place throughout history. For analysing track two diplomacy efforts, three different cases of each conflict case have been highlighted. A number of cases illustrated not only one body of a structured NGO but a number of convergent track two activities. This fact is highly related with the nature of track two diplomacy activities to be interdependent and interrelated, since different peace initiatives are directed towards one main goal by using different tools and methods and liaising with different groups of people. In order to have a balanced comprehension, each track two case was covered by describing its

overall aim, source of funds, alliances, human capacity, impediments, structure, activities, methods, products and results, relations with the government and the media and effectiveness.

The research necessitated prudence to look at various other examples of informal peace activities for two reasons: first to diagnose the place of the chosen track two cases in the field, second to estimate how divergent and improved the peace activities are. At the end the thesis tried to make an overall assessment using a number of criteria in order to determine whether outlined cases represent relevance in unofficial diplomacy using the theoretical framework as reference. In order to further the analysis, the overall assessment considered making a comparison at two levels: first between track two activities working on the same conflict, second between initiatives in the same structural setting—women led initiatives, interactive problem-solving workshops and business oriented attempts—working on a different conflict case.

Nevertheless the task of gathering information on peace initiatives is destined to be limited to written and visual material and interviews conducted with peace activists. Unless the researcher participates peace groups in their activities with an observer status or becomes directly involved in these activities the research is restricted to information provided by third party actors which will anyhow expose inadequateness. The restrictions of the research extend to geographic and lingual factors as well. Without being able to make observations in Armenia, Cyprus and Greece and meeting with peace initiators or their target groups and without being able to understand literature written in Armenian and Greek languages the research remains inadequate giving a comprehensive picture. Not to mention, the subject of the thesis needs an uninterrupted attempt of gathering data and processing it since acting for peace is an ongoing process as conflicts that surround us keep on growing and reshaping. As these last lines are written, there are some people out there writing statements to their governments and some groups actively organising cultural events for the summer term and

some people developing training programmes and peace curriculum for young people, like there are probably some conflict entrepreneurs busy developing their plans to escalate crises by instigating nationalist sentiments of masses and using their channels in the most effective way.

As highlighted in Chapter 2, track two diplomacy has following characteristics and functions: it complements official diplomacy, it opens up opportunities for communication, it contributes to humanisation of the enemy, it builds capacity of the civil society, it establishes public support and political will for peacemaking and long-term structural development. All tracks in unofficial diplomacy have an indispensable role to play. The cultural activities for peacemaking is not more or less important than interactive problem-solving workshops or youth exchanges are not more or less result oriented than business oriented peace interventions. Neither have former government officials active in second track diplomacy have the privilege to underestimate the work conducted by private citizens. Each and every one in this field has its share to play for advocating and working for peace at different stages of reconciliation and conflict resolution. Since war is the outcome of a multi track effort, peace as well needs concerted, integrated and interconnected efforts led by different types of actors at different levels—top level, middle level and grassroots level. As Albert Schnabel explains:

NGOs have a role to play on both sides: they educate the international community about their responsibility towards the less fortunate of this world - and they generate and unite local efforts in crisis-ridden countries and regions to strengthen long-term commitments to peacebuilding efforts. Without the pivotal roles NGOs play in uniting local and international efforts to support initiatives that bolster peace and counter violence, little will be achieved in the long run. If anything, we must support those efforts and rest assured that whatever resources we invest in preventive efforts, they will always reduce the likelihood of violent conflicts and their human, political, cultural and economic consequences (2004).

As Brand-Jacobsen argues peace studies need to be brought “out of theoretical/academic crevices” and its theory must be strengthened, deepened and improved “by linking it with practice, need, and social/human responsibility” (2004).

Another point to be emphasised is the need to have a gender perspective in the practice of peace-building. While delving into the area of peace, reconciliation and conflict resolution we must be able to examine the role of gender and difference in genders in practicing nonviolence and peacemaking as well as in situations of violence and conflict.

Those who actively participate in projects and activities envisioning peace by transforming political, economic, cultural and social structures, need to be aware of the burden of the past. Without addressing and reconciling the past events causing traumas pass from one generation to the other, the status quo will not be changed no matter how ambitious peace activists are. The past does not only contain codes of past traumas, it is also home to elements like identity, culture and outside factors that are embedded in the conflict. As Fisher notably expresses for the Cyprus case that applies to all peace efforts, the locked adversarial frame of relations can “only be altered through a comprehensive and sustained unofficial track of conflict analysis and resolution that can overcome the trauma of the past and address the basic needs of the parties” (2001: 307).

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